Stochastic Degradation-Aware Optimal Fleet Management with Application to Electric Vehicles

A Comprehensive Reference Document

L. Fiaschi

ETH Zürich

lfiaschi@ethz.ch

November 10, 2026

Abstract

This document scopes a research project and collects the information needed to write an article. The goal is a general-purpose model of the management of a fleet over a planning horizon, and an algorithm that solves it.

Each member of the fleet is a collection of components. Each day, a member serves a mission (a route), goes to the depot for maintenance (a partial or full repair of each component), or stays idle. Serving a mission damages the components of the member. Each component has its own stochastic degradation model, and the damage that a day adds depends on the mission served. We show a concrete application to fleets of electric vehicles, such as buses and cars. The concrete case study is a fleet of battery-electric city buses that serve the lines of one bus depot in or near Zurich (Section 8). It tracks three components of each bus: the traction battery, the tires and the inverter.

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1 Open Questions

This section lists what the project does not know yet, as plain questions. The planned work of the project is tracked in its to-do file, `Things to change.txt`, and not in this document. When a question is answered, its answer goes into the section that treats the topic, and the question leaves this section.

1.1 Conceptual and theoretical

- **Hierarchical failure-probability bounds.** Every reliability row bounds the failure probability of one component:

$$\Pr(D_{i\ell k} > \tau_{i\ell}) \le \varepsilon_{i\ell} \quad \text{for all } i, \ell, k. \tag{1}$$

  A user may want to state the requirement at a coarser level.

  – **Member level:**

$$\Pr(\exists\, \ell : D_{i\ell k} > \tau_{i\ell}) \le \varepsilon_i \quad \text{for all } i, k, \tag{2}$$

    the probability that *any* component of member i fails. Under independence of the components this reads

$$1 - \prod_{\ell} (1 - \Pr(D_{i\ell k} > \tau_{i\ell})) \le \varepsilon_i, \tag{3}$$

    a nonlinear row that couples the components of a member.

  – **Fleet level:**

$$\Pr(\exists\, i, \ell : D_{i\ell k} > \tau_{i\ell}) \le \varepsilon \quad \text{for all } k, \tag{4}$$

    the probability that *any* component of the fleet fails. Under independence this row couples all members.

  Both levels need either approximations by the union bound, which are conservative and linear, or rows in product form, which are exact and nonlinear. The union bound is $\Pr(A \cup B) \le \Pr(A) + \Pr(B)$. The per-component levels give both through the union bound: $\varepsilon_{i\ell} \le \varepsilon_i / L$ for every ℓ gives the member level, and $\varepsilon_{i\ell} \le \varepsilon / (FL)$ for every component gives the fleet level.

- **Gamma cap over the reachable states.** The sharp cap of Section 4.1.5 is the largest cap that is safe for every member of the class $\mathcal{G}(m)$. The states that a schedule can reach form a smaller set, because the tracked mean also satisfies the cap on every earlier day. For a component with one rate and $\beta^* \tau$ below the threshold $t_1(\varepsilon)$, a larger safe cap may exist. Its value is not known.

- **Safe schedules under ARD_1.** Under ARD_1 the anchor is a second coordinate of the state. The coordinates can move in opposite directions over a repetition, so the state at the end of the horizon and the state at its start may be incomparable. Then it is not proven that the one-sided rows accept every safe schedule. Do these rows reject some safe schedules (Sections 5 and 5.3.4)?

- **Schedule-dependent support of the Bernstein row.** The formulation uses one support constant per component, set by its most damaging mission. A component that never serves that mission pays for it anyway. A schedule-dependent constant removes this slack, at the cost of one binary per pair of member and mission. How large is the gain for realistic data, and does it justify the added binaries (Section 5.9)?

- **Split of the risk level.** When two sources of randomness act on the fatigue life, one can split ε into a part δ and a remaining part $\varepsilon - \delta$. How should the split be calibrated (Section 5.11)?
- **Sudden failures.** Some failures, for example of control and power boards, do not come from accumulated damage. Which model captures a mix of wear-out and sudden failures: a shock term added to the damage, or a formulation in the failure intensity (Section 4.1.7)?
- **Long-lived components and replacement within the horizon.** The loop rows compare the end of the operating phase with its start, statistic by statistic. So every component that gains damage in the operating phase needs, inside it, a repair that removes this damage or a replacement (Section 5.3.4). The battery and the inverter last several years, much longer than a typical operating phase.
  - **Battery.** A partial renewal (ARD_∞ with $\rho > 0$) can remove the damage of the operating phase. Does a full replacement also belong in the horizon? The answer depends on the period length: ten years are 120 periods of one month, and 3,650 periods of one day.
  - **Inverter.** It has no repair ($\rho = 0$). In every repetition in which an inverter gains damage, the loop rows force a replacement, even when the operating phase is much shorter than the life of the inverter. Should a flag per component forbid the full replacement of a long-lived component in the horizon, with an input check that every component that gains damage can be repaired down? The flag cannot apply to the inverter.
- **Tire regrooving.** Regrooving restores a fixed depth of tread, at most once per tread life. The repair laws ARD_∞ and ARD_1 remove a fraction ρ of the damage, at any damage and any number of times. Which repair law represents regrooving (Section 8.2.4)?

1.2 Data and inputs

- **Sampling error of the empirical inputs.** Rainflow counting yields *estimates* of the per-mission mean, variance, support width and cumulant generating function, not exact values. A guaranteed reliability bound needs one-sided confidence margins on these inputs. How large must the confidence margin of the empirical cumulant generating function be (Section 7)?
- **Choice of depot.** Section 7.3 compares three depots. Bassersdorf has battery buses in service and mixes urban, suburban and rural lines. Hardau has the most lines, and the most lines that climb 100 m or more, but no rural line. Hagenholz is the compact alternative. The choice also fixes the data: measured running times and blocks exist for VBZ and VBG lines [70, 100], but open passenger loads exist for VBZ lines only [102]. Which depot is the best case study?
- **Risk level ε.** No source read gives a risk level for the battery, the tires or the inverter, so ε is a modelling choice. The sources give end-of-life definitions instead, such as lifetime curves of power modules drawn at a failure probability of 15 % (Section 8.2.4). The choice has a large effect. For the tires, a plan that is not updated with measured depths uses only 42 to 73 % of the tread before replacement, for ε from 0.01 to 0.05 and a spread of the wear rate between tires from 0.19 to 0.30 (our computation). Which value of ε is appropriate?
- **Inverter calibration.** No source read gives a measured swing of the junction temperature

per stop of a bus inverter. The damage level of Section 8.2.4 rests on one calibration: a maker's design target of 60,000 operating hours [8], reached at 46 stops per hour (our choice of the stop rate). The same maker converts an operating hour of a city bus into 10 km [8]. If the design target counts hours of 10 km, an hour holds about 21.5 stops at the stop density of the lines, and the damage per km doubles (our computation). The semiconductor matters too: the 2026 drive of the eCitaro has silicon-carbide (SiC) inverters (Section 7.4). In one study of a car, the SiC modules took 19 to 62 times less damage per run of a drive cycle than a silicon IGBT (insulated-gate bipolar transistor) module (our computation from [5, Tables 5.1–5.2]). What is the damage per stop of a bus inverter?

- **Battery repair efficiency ρ.** The repair of a battery is a partial renewal: the change of some cells, modules or packs. No source measures its gain. The maker of the eCitaro offers to repair its modular packs, and a reconditioning that "significantly increases the capacity", with no number [26]. The values of Section 8.2.4 are our derivation from the pack layout. How much damage does a battery repair remove?
- **No process fitted to bus data.** For none of the three components does a source read fit a stochastic degradation process to field data of buses. The families of Section 8.2.4 are our choices, and so is the calibration of their spread. No source gives the variance of the inverter increment. Which families and spreads fit field data?
- **Data gaps of the simulation.** Section 7 lists what the open data do not give. Which values replace them?
  - **Vehicle parameters:** empty mass, drag area, rolling resistance, efficiency maps and HVAC power over temperature.
  - **Speed inside a segment:** only the stop times are public.
  - **Passenger loads of the VBG lines, and their spread between single trips:** no open data exist at stop level, and the VBZ data give yearly means.
  - **Meaning of the block identifier:** the meaning of the field `UMLAUF_ID` of the Ist-Daten is taken from its name. For lines 768 and 89 the number of identifiers on 1 Oct 2026 is about twice the vehicle estimate, so one identifier may cover only part of a day.
  - **Charging plan and pack temperature:** both are assumed, as no open data give them.

1.3 Implementation

- **Single peak in the computation of the Gamma cap.** The computation of the Gamma cap uses a function of c that tends to 0 as $c \to 0$ and has a single peak on $(0, 1]$. A single peak was checked numerically for r from 10^{-5} to 0.999, which covers the bisection for $\varepsilon \geq 10^{-5}$. A second check, on 200 values of r from 10^{-10} to 10^{-5}, found no second peak either. Is there a proof of the single peak (Appendix A.3)?

1.4 Evaluation

- **Test of the degradation laws.** If the simulator uses the component coefficients of Section 8.2.4, it tests the simplifications of the scheduling model, but not the coefficients or the degradation laws. That test needs operator data on real buses: states of health from the battery management system, tread depths, inverter temperatures and failures, and the

state of health before and after a battery repair. Which operator can provide these data?

- **Regression of bus tire wear on route features.** The article of Fwa and Ang on the tire wear of public buses [34] could not be read (no access on 10 Nov 2026); it may give such a regression. Does it give a usable regression?
- **Junction-temperature cycles of a city-bus inverter.** A 2016 article of the maker Semikron shows them in a figure, for its inverter driving a large city bus [7]. The text gives no number, and the figure could not be retrieved (10 Nov 2026). What are the cycles?

2 Project Motivation

This section gives the context of the project, one concrete example, and the reasons why existing approaches do not solve the problem. The formal problem is in Section 5, and the concrete case study is in Section 8.

2.1 Context and background

The project scopes a general model of the management of a fleet over a planning horizon, and an algorithm that solves it. Each member of the fleet is a collection of components, and each component degrades stochastically. On each day, a member serves a mission (a route), goes to the depot for maintenance, or stays idle. Serving a mission damages the components of the member, and the damage that a day adds depends on the mission served.

The schedule must do two things at once.

- **Keep the fleet reliable.** The probability that a component fails must stay below a risk level ε on every day (Section 5).
- **Keep the schedule repeatable.** A loop constraint requires that, at the end of the operating phase, the fleet is in a condition at least as good as at its start.

The schedule gains when it assigns missions and maintenance so that damage and repairs balance across the members.

The main application is the fleet of electric vehicles, such as buses and cars. A battery-electric road vehicle is a complex repairable system. Its parts degrade at very different rates and through very different physical mechanisms (Section 4.1.7). Two facts of the domain shape the relative importance of the components.

- **The traction battery dominates.** A predictive-maintenance study of electric buses centres on the battery pack as the main maintenance-critical component [45, Secs. 2, 4.2]. It shows that optimising the driving profile alone can cut the modelled capacity loss by 25 %. So battery damage can be steered by mission-assignment decisions, which are the decisions that this project optimises.
- **Regenerative braking shifts the wear burden to the tires.** Regenerative braking absorbs most of the service braking, and it reduces the friction-brake wear emissions by an estimated 60–90 % [33, Sec. 6.1]. The relative wear burden therefore shifts to the tires, and the higher mass of electric vehicles increases tire wear.

2.2 Motivating examples

The case study of Section 8 is one realistic instance. The fleet is a set of battery-electric city buses that serve the lines of one bus depot in or near Zurich. The depot, its lines, their timetables, their road lengths and their height profiles are real, and they come from public data (Section 7).

- **Lines that wear a bus at different rates.** The lines of a depot differ in length, in stops per km, in speed and in climbs (Section 8.2.1). So they wear the battery, the tires and the inverter of a bus at different rates. For example, a bus that has served line 759 (14 km per direction) can move to line 774 (about 1 km per direction) and so delay its next intervention.
- **A depot with real numbers.** Bassersdorf is the depot of the bus contractor EUROBUS welti-furrer AG, which runs 15 lines for VBG (Verkehrsbetriebe Glattal AG)[98]. On 31 Dec 2025, VBG had 14 battery-electric buses among 121 buses, all on lines 759 and 768 of this depot[99, p. 4][97]. On a weekday, this depot needs 48 buses (our estimate; Section 7.3). The schedule decides, for each of these buses and each day, which line it serves and when it goes to the depot for maintenance.

2.3 Why existing approaches fall short

- **A fitted parametric law ties the model to one data set.** The distribution of the damage increment of a mission can be measured by rainflow counting. A fit of a parametric law to this density ties the model to one data set and one functional form. This weakens the generality that the abstract formulation seeks (Section 5.7).
- **The damage adds up over days.** Both the reliability constraint and the loop constraint act on the accumulated damage, not on a single increment. None of the standard S–N scatter families is closed under summation. So the law of the accumulated damage has in general no closed form. It must be bounded, or replaced by a surrogate from a family closed under convolution (Section 5.7).
- **Calendar ageing is not captured.** Parts that age only with calendar time, whatever the mission served, carry no information for the schedule. The model tracks the damage that the missions cause (Section 3).
- **Other gaps.** Section 4 states the gaps that the literature leaves. It covers stochastic degradation models, maintenance strategies and the background on electric vehicles.

3 Scope and Boundaries

This section states what the project covers and what it leaves out. Each point has a pointer to the section that treats it.

3.1 In scope

- **Fleet schedule.** A fleet of F members, each with L components, over a horizon of $T = H_1 + H_2$ days. Each day, a member serves one mission, goes to the depot, or stays idle (Section 5).
- **Five degradation models.** Each component has one of five models: Gaussian, inverse Gaussian, Wiener, Gamma or rainflow. One fleet may mix them (Section 5).

- **Interventions.** On a depot day, a component receives an imperfect repair, a replacement or no intervention (Section 5).
- **Reliability and repeatability.** A reliability row keeps the failure probability of each component below ε on every day. A loop constraint makes the schedule repeatable (Section 5).
- **Damage that missions cause.** A component is kept in the model if it satisfies the two criteria of Section 4.1.7: (C1) usage-driven degradation and (C2) operational significance.
- **Electric vehicles.** The application is the fleet of battery-electric road vehicles, such as buses and cars (Section 4.1.7). The shortlist of components has six entries: the traction battery pack, the tires, the brake friction elements, the wheel bearings, the traction-motor insulation and the inverter and converter power modules.
- **Case study.** The case study tracks three components: the traction battery, the tires and the inverter. It uses the lines of one bus depot in or near Zurich (Section 8).

3.2 Out of scope

The project leaves out the following points.

- **Parts that age with calendar time only.** Body corrosion, interior fittings, static low-voltage electronics and the 12-volt auxiliary battery satisfy (C2) but not (C1). Time-based overhaul outside the optimisation suits them best, so the model does not track their damage. Their fixed maintenance windows can still enter the model as exogenous availability constraints (Section 4.1.7).
- **Calendar ageing.** The calendar term accrues also on idle days and depot days. Over short horizons it can be neglected. Over long horizons the dynamics would need a small drift that does not depend on the activity (Section 6). The calendar ageing of the traction battery is the one borderline case.
- **Sudden failures.** Not every failure comes from accumulated damage. The damage-accumulation dynamics do not fully capture a mix of wear-out and sudden failures, for example of control and power boards (Section 1).
- **Components left out of the case study.** Doors, charging equipment and the 24 V system show failure rates that fall with age, so they are not wear-out failures that a damage model describes. The brakes fail criterion (C2) in a fleet of battery-electric buses, because regenerative braking takes most of the service braking. The DC-link capacitors show no field wear-out in any vehicle (Section 8).
- **Options that are not part of the project.** Table 1 lists them with the reason.

4 Literature Review

4.1 Key approaches and methods

This subsection surveys the models and methods on which the formulation builds: the degradation models, the remaining-life models, the conservative bounds, the stochastic orders, the maintenance models and the background on electric vehicles.

Table 1: Options that the project does not use.

Option	Reason
Compound Poisson process	Not implemented and not planned.
Deterministic S–N curve	A deterministic model is not among the five models.
Route II (an explicit surrogate law for the accumulated damage, not a bound)	Not part of the formulation.
Interpretation (I) of the random fatigue life	The case study and the code use interpretation (II) (Section 5.11).
Special ordered sets of type 2 (SOS2) for the piecewise-linear rows	The code uses one selector binary per segment (Section 5.10).
Brake friction elements in the case study	Not tracked in the case study and not planned (Section 8).
Wheel bearings in the case study	Not tracked in the case study and not planned.
Traction-motor insulation in the case study	Not tracked in the case study and not planned.

4.1.1 Stochastic degradation and fatigue models

Stochastic models of component degradation form two families. *Damage-accumulation models* track a cumulative damage variable $X(t)$, whose distribution evolves over time. Failure occurs when $X(t)$ exceeds a threshold. *Remaining-life models* describe the number of load cycles that a component can sustain before failure. Empirical laws relate the applied stress to the fatigue life.

4.1.2 Damage-accumulation processes

Table 2 summarises three widely used stochastic processes for cumulative damage. In each case $X(t)$ denotes the cumulative damage at time t, with $X(0) = 0$. All three processes have independent, stationary increments, so they are Lévy processes.

Table 2: Stochastic damage-accumulation models. Parameters: $\alpha, \beta > 0$ (Gamma shape rate / inverse scale), μ (drift), σ^2 (diffusion coefficient), λ (shape rate of the inverse Gaussian (IG) process). Mon.: monotone sample paths.

Model	Increment $X(t) - X(s)$	Marginal $X(t)$	Mon.	Closure under $+$
Gamma process [1]	$\mathrm{Ga}\big(\alpha(t-s),\, \beta\big)$	$\mathrm{Ga}(\alpha t,\, \beta)$	Yes	Same rate β
Wiener process [107]	$\mathcal{N}\big(\mu(t-s),\, \sigma^2(t-s)\big)$	$\mathcal{N}(\mu t,\, \sigma^2 t)$	No	Always
Inverse Gaussian process [112]	$\mathrm{IG}\big(\mu(t-s),\, \lambda(t-s)^2\big)$	$\mathrm{IG}(\mu t,\, \lambda t^2)$	Yes	Same μ^2/λ

Gamma process. Abdel-Hameed [1] introduced the Gamma process, and van Noortwijk [92] surveyed it in depth. It is the most widely used model for monotone degradation (wear, corrosion,

crack growth). The process $\{X(t)\}$ has non-negative independent increments

$$X(t) - X(s) \sim \mathrm{Ga}(\alpha(t-s),\, \beta), \tag{5}$$

where $\alpha > 0$ is the shape rate and $\beta > 0$ is the inverse scale (rate). Its mean and variance at time t are

$$\mathbb{E}[X(t)] = \alpha t/\beta \quad \text{and} \quad \mathrm{Var}[X(t)] = \alpha t/\beta^2. \tag{6}$$

The Gamma family is closed under convolution when the rate parameter β is shared: if $X_1 \sim \mathrm{Ga}(\alpha_1, \beta)$ and $X_2 \sim \mathrm{Ga}(\alpha_2, \beta)$ are independent, then

$$X_1 + X_2 \sim \mathrm{Ga}(\alpha_1 + \alpha_2, \beta). \tag{7}$$

Wiener process (Brownian motion with drift). The Wiener degradation model [107] sets $X(t) = \mu t + \sigma W(t)$, where $W(t)$ is a standard Brownian motion, $\mu > 0$ the drift rate, and σ^2 the diffusion coefficient, with $\sigma > 0$. Increments are normally distributed:

$$X(t) - X(s) \sim \mathcal{N}(\mu(t-s),\, \sigma^2(t-s)). \tag{8}$$

The normal family is closed under addition without conditions. Unlike the other three models, the Wiener process is *not* monotone: its sample paths can decrease. So it suits degradation with short-term fluctuations. Its first-passage time to a fixed threshold τ follows an inverse Gaussian distribution:

$$T_\tau \sim \mathrm{IG}(\tau/\mu,\, \tau^2/\sigma^2). \tag{9}$$

Inverse Gaussian process. Ye and Chen [112] proposed the IG process as a degradation model. It has non-negative increments

$$X(t) - X(s) \sim \mathrm{IG}(\mu(t-s),\, \lambda(t-s)^2), \tag{10}$$

with mean μt and variance $\mu^3 t/\lambda$. Its increments have heavier tails than those of the Gamma process, so it suits data with occasional large damage jumps. The IG distribution is closed under convolution when the summands share the dispersion parameter μ^2/λ. However, the sum of two independent IG *processes* with different parameters is not an IG process [112].

4.1.3 Remaining-life models: the S–N curve and Palmgren–Miner rule

The stress–life (S–N) approach relates the stress amplitude σ_a to the number of cycles to failure N_f. It started with Wöhler's experiments in the 1850s. The most common analytical form is Basquin's law [10]:

$$\sigma_a^m \, N_f \;=\; C, \tag{11}$$

where $m > 0$ is the fatigue exponent and $C > 0$ is a material constant, both typically fitted from experimental data. Equivalently, $N_f = C\,\sigma_a^{-m}$, which appears as a straight line on a log–log plot.

Under variable-amplitude loading, the Palmgren–Miner linear damage rule [60, 71] defines the cumulative damage fraction as

$$D_{\mathrm{PM}} \;=\; \sum_i \frac{n_i}{N_{f,i}}, \tag{12}$$

where n_i is the number of applied cycles at stress level $\sigma_{a,i}$ and $N_{f,i}$ is the corresponding life from the S–N curve. Failure is predicted when $D_{\mathrm{PM}} \geq 1$. The rule assumes that damage

accumulates linearly and independently of the order of the loads. Experiments have questioned this approximation: the critical damage sum D^*_{PM} at failure is scattered around 1 rather than exactly 1. Stochastic extensions treat D_{PM}, D^*_{PM} or both as random variables [14, 20, 42, 62, 82].

Two sources of randomness enter the Palmgren–Miner accumulation:

(i) **S–N scatter.** At a given stress level σ_a, the fatigue life N_f is a random variable, not a deterministic constant. Its distribution reflects the variability of the material, the surface finish and the test conditions. The increment $\Delta D_{\mathrm{PM}} = n/N_f$ therefore inherits this randomness.

(ii) **Random critical damage sum.** Experimental evidence shows that the critical value D^*_{PM} at failure is itself scattered (typically between 0.5 and 2.0) rather than exactly 1 [82]. A model can replace the deterministic threshold with a random one or, equivalently, divide the damage by a random capacity.

In the fleet management framework of Section 5, source (i) is the relevant one: the threshold is fixed at $\tau = 1$ and the randomness enters through the increments. We therefore focus on the distributional assumptions for N_f and the resulting distribution of ΔD_{PM}. Table 3 summarises the three most common choices.

Table 3: Distributional assumptions for S–N scatter and their effect on the Palmgren–Miner increment $\Delta D_{\mathrm{PM}} = n/N_f$. In all cases, the location $\mu(\sigma_a)$ or the Weibull scale $\lambda(\sigma_a)$ depends on the stress level through Basquin's law (11); the scatter parameters σ, k and β do not.

Model	**Life** N_f	**Increment** ΔD_{PM}	**Mon.**	**Closure under** $+$
Log-normal	$\ln N_f \sim \mathcal{N}(\mu,\, \sigma^2)$	$\mathrm{LogN}(\ln n - \mu,\, \sigma^2)$	Yes	No
Weibull	$N_f \sim \mathrm{Wei}(k,\, \lambda)$	Inv. Weibull (Fréchet)	Yes	No
Gumbel	$\ln N_f \sim \mathrm{Gumbel}(\mu,\, \beta)$	Log-Gumbel	Yes	No

Log-normal. The log-normal law is the most widely used assumption [62]. At a fixed stress level σ_a, the fatigue life satisfies

$$\ln N_f \sim \mathcal{N}(\mu(\sigma_a),\, \sigma^2), \tag{13}$$

where $\mu(\sigma_a) = \ln C - m \ln \sigma_a$ comes from Basquin's law and σ measures the scatter. Since $\ln(n/N_f) = \ln n - \ln N_f$, each increment is log-normally distributed:

$$\Delta D_{\mathrm{PM}} \sim \mathrm{LogN}(\ln n - \mu,\, \sigma^2), \tag{14}$$

with mean and variance

$$n\, e^{-\mu+\sigma^2/2} \quad \text{and} \quad n^2 e^{-2\mu+\sigma^2}(e^{\sigma^2} - 1). \tag{15}$$

The log-normal family is *not* closed under summation: the sum of independent log-normals has no standard parametric form. In practice, the accumulated damage

$$D_{\mathrm{PM},k} = \sum_{t=1}^{k} \Delta D_{\mathrm{PM},t} \tag{16}$$

is often approximated by the log-normal law with the same first two moments (the Fenton–Wilkinson method). The quality of this approximation falls as the number of summands or the coefficient of variation grows.

Weibull. The Weibull law is widely adopted in fatigue standards, for example Eurocode and ASTM. It sets

$$N_f \sim \mathrm{Wei}(k,\, \lambda(\sigma_a)), \tag{17}$$

with shape k and a scale λ that depends on the stress level. The reciprocal $1/N_f$ follows an inverse Weibull (Fréchet) distribution, so $\Delta D_{\mathrm{PM}} = n/N_f$ is a scaled Fréchet variable. The sum of independent Fréchet variables has no closed form, so the marginal of $D_{\mathrm{PM},k}$ cannot be computed analytically.

Gumbel (extreme-value type I). Castillo and Fernández-Canteli [20] proposed a compatible statistical model for the whole S–N field. It uses a Gumbel (minimum) distribution for $\ln N_f$:

$$\ln N_f \sim \mathrm{Gumbel}(\mu(\sigma_a),\, \beta). \tag{18}$$

The increment $\Delta D_{\mathrm{PM}} = n/N_f$ then follows a log-Gumbel distribution. As with the other two families, the log-Gumbel is not closed under summation.

Contrast with damage-accumulation models. Unlike the processes of Table 2, *none* of the standard distributional assumptions for S–N scatter gives increments that are closed under summation. The marginal distribution of $D_{\mathrm{PM},k}$ after k loading blocks must therefore always be computed by convolution (in general not analytically), by Monte Carlo simulation or by approximations based on moments.

In the fleet management formulation, the reliability constraint $\Pr(D_{\mathrm{PM},k} \geq 1) \leq \varepsilon$ therefore has no closed form in the cumulative parameters alone. In the Gamma and Gaussian models, by contrast, the cumulative distribution function (CDF) of the marginal is directly available.

4.1.4 Conservative bounds and stochastic dominance

This subsubsection recalls the closure of the usual stochastic order and the classical bounds on the tail of a sum. Section 5.7 applies them to the empirical damage increments.

Proposition 4.1 (Closure of $\leq_{\mathrm{st}}$ under independent convolution)**.** *Let $\Delta D_t \leq_{\mathrm{st}} \widetilde{\Delta D}_t$ for $t = 1, \ldots, k$, with $\{\Delta D_t\}_t$ mutually independent and $\{\widetilde{\Delta D}_t\}_t$ mutually independent. Then*

$$\sum_t \Delta D_t \leq_{\mathrm{st}} \sum_t \widetilde{\Delta D}_t. \tag{19}$$

More generally, the conclusion holds with the sum replaced by any coordinatewise non-decreasing map g (see Shaked and Shanthikumar [81, §1.A]).

The proof is in Appendix A.1, page 123.

Proposition 4.1 carries a bound on a single increment to a sum of increments. The dynamics (50) is a coordinatewise non-decreasing map of the increments and of the independent reset variables. So a stochastic upper bound on each increment gives a bound on the whole state $D_{i\ell k}$, repairs and replacements included, and hence on $\Pr(D_{i\ell k} > \tau)$ on every day. Table 4 collects the bounds on the tail of the accumulated damage, together with their guarantees and trade-offs.

The Route I bounds are elementary, and this is why they need no assumption on the distribution. Let $D \geq 0$ and $\tau > 0$.

Table 4: Ways to summarise the empirical per-mission damage-increment distribution and propagate it to the accumulated damage $D = \sum_t \Delta D_t$ for the constraint $\Pr(D > \tau) \le \varepsilon$. "Conservative" means a guaranteed upper bound on the failure probability. All inputs are *per mission*; the schedule combines them through the assignment counts n_{ij} by Equation (92). Only the closed form of Bernstein's inequality merges the supports into one constant b_ℓ, the largest of them. CGF: cumulant generating function; var: variance.

Method	Inputs	Cons.?	Pros	Cons	Ref.
Route I — bound the tail of D directly					
Markov	mean	Yes	needs only the mean; always valid	extremely loose	[12]
Cantelli	mean, var	Yes	only two moments; tight *as* a two-moment bound	ignores independence; loose in the tail	[12]
Hoeffding	per-mission mean, support b_j	Yes	exploits independence; each mission keeps its own support; budget linear in the counts	ignores the variance	[43, Thm. 2]
Bernstein	per-mission mean, var, support b_j	Yes	exploits independence; few parameters; moment inputs linear in the counts	one shared support b_ℓ, the largest; one-sided only	[15]
Chernoff	per-mission CGF $\psi_j(s)$ (or mean + support)	Yes	tightest in the tail; count-weighted; valid for any fixed $s > 0$	needs the CGF; empirical CGF is an estimate, not a bound	[22]

- **Markov.** Markov's inequality reads

$$\Pr(D > \tau) \le \mathbb{E}[D]/\tau. \tag{20}$$

- **Cantelli.** The one-sided Chebyshev (Cantelli) bound reads, for $\tau > \mathbb{E}[D]$,

$$\Pr(D > \tau) \;\le\; \frac{\mathrm{Var}[D]}{\mathrm{Var}[D] + (\tau - \mathbb{E}[D])^2}. \tag{21}$$

Both are the *tight* bounds that the first moment and the first two moments, respectively, can give [12]. Two-point distributions attain both bounds (for the closed event $D \ge \tau$). This is exactly why the two bounds ignore the structure of a sum of independent terms, and why they are loose for such a sum.

- **Chernoff.** The exponential (Cramér–Chernoff) bound reads

$$\Pr(D > \tau) \;\le\; \inf_{s>0} e^{-s\tau} M_D(s) \;=\; \inf_{s>0} \exp\Big(-s\tau + \textstyle\sum_t \ln M_{\Delta D_t}(s) \Big), \tag{22}$$

  and it is valid for every fixed $s > 0$ [22].

- **Bernstein.** Bernstein's inequality is the special case of (22) for independent summands bounded in $[0, b]$:

$$\Pr(D - \mathbb{E}[D] > a) \le \exp\Big(-\frac{a^2/2}{\mathrm{Var}[D] + b\,a/3} \Big) \tag{23}$$

  with $a = \tau - \mathbb{E}[D]$ [15].

Unlike Markov and Cantelli, these bounds use the logarithm of the MGF, which is additive by (92). So they exploit independence. The derivation of the Markov, Cantelli and Chernoff bounds is in Appendix A.1, page 123.

4.1.5 Stochastic orderings

A comparison of the damage of a component at two days of the schedule needs a notion of "one random variable is larger than another". Several stochastic orders formalise this idea, with increasing strength [81, 108]. Let X and Y be two non-negative random variables with CDFs F_X, F_Y, survival functions $\bar{F}_X = 1 - F_X$, $\bar{F}_Y = 1 - F_Y$, and densities f_X, f_Y (when they exist).

Definition 4.2 (Usual stochastic order)**.** $X \leq_{\text{st}} Y$ if $F_X(t) \geq F_Y(t)$ for all $t \in \mathbb{R}$, or equivalently $\Pr(X > t) \leq \Pr(Y > t)$ for all t.

Definition 4.3 (Hazard rate order)**.** $X \leq_{\text{hr}} Y$ if $\bar{F}_Y(t)/\bar{F}_X(t)$ is non-decreasing in t over $\{t : \bar{F}_X(t) > 0\}$. Equivalently, the hazard rates satisfy $r_X(t) \geq r_Y(t)$ for all t, where $r(t) = f(t)/\bar{F}(t)$.

Definition 4.4 (Likelihood ratio order)**.** $X \leq_{\text{lr}} Y$ if $f_Y(t)/f_X(t)$ is non-decreasing in t over the union of their supports.

These three orders are progressively stronger [81, Ch. 1]. The implications are strict, and none of the converses holds in general:

$$X \leq_{\text{lr}} Y \implies X \leq_{\text{hr}} Y \implies X \leq_{\text{st}} Y \implies \mathbb{E}[X] \leq \mathbb{E}[Y]. \tag{24}$$

Stochastic ordering within each degradation family. For the fleet management problem, the relevant comparison is between two damages of the same component that belong to the same parametric family. An example is the damage at the end of the transitory phase and the damage at the end of the horizon.

Tables 5–7 give, for each family of Table 2, the necessary and sufficient conditions for each of the three orders.

- An entry marked "—" means that the author knows no simple closed-form characterisation.
- For the inverse Gaussian rows, the $\leq_{\text{lr}}$ conditions remain a valid sufficient criterion by (24).

Table 5: Conditions for $X \leq_{\text{lr}} Y$ (likelihood ratio order) within each family. Conditions are necessary and sufficient except where noted.

Family	X	Y	Condition
Gamma	$\text{Ga}(\alpha_1, \beta_1)$	$\text{Ga}(\alpha_2, \beta_2)$	$\alpha_1 \leq \alpha_2$ and $\beta_1 \geq \beta_2$
Gaussian	$\mathcal{N}(\mu_1, \sigma_1^2)$	$\mathcal{N}(\mu_2, \sigma_2^2)$	$\mu_1 \leq \mu_2$ and $\sigma_1 = \sigma_2$
Inv. Gaussian	$\text{IG}(\mu_1, \lambda_1)$	$\text{IG}(\mu_2, \lambda_2)$	$\lambda_2 \geq \lambda_1$ and $\lambda_1/\mu_1^2 \geq \lambda_2/\mu_2^2$

Gamma. All three orders coincide for the Gamma family [81, Sec. 1.C]. Under the closure condition (same β), they all reduce to $\alpha_1 \leq \alpha_2$. The derivation is in Appendix A.1, page 123.

Table 6: Conditions for $X \leq_{\text{hr}} Y$ (hazard rate order) within each family.

Family	X	Y	Condition
Gamma	$\text{Ga}(\alpha_1, \beta_1)$	$\text{Ga}(\alpha_2, \beta_2)$	$\alpha_1 \leq \alpha_2$ and $\beta_1 \geq \beta_2$
Gaussian	$\mathcal{N}(\mu_1, \sigma_1^2)$	$\mathcal{N}(\mu_2, \sigma_2^2)$	$\mu_1 \leq \mu_2$ and $\sigma_1 = \sigma_2$
Inv. Gaussian	$\text{IG}(\mu_1, \lambda_1)$	$\text{IG}(\mu_2, \lambda_2)$	— (sufficient: $\leq_{\text{lr}}$ conditions)

Table 7: Conditions for $X \leq_{\text{st}} Y$ (usual stochastic order) within each family.

Family	X	Y	Condition
Gamma	$\text{Ga}(\alpha_1, \beta_1)$	$\text{Ga}(\alpha_2, \beta_2)$	$\alpha_1 \leq \alpha_2$ and $\beta_1 \geq \beta_2$
Gaussian	$\mathcal{N}(\mu_1, \sigma_1^2)$	$\mathcal{N}(\mu_2, \sigma_2^2)$	$\mu_1 \leq \mu_2$ and $\sigma_1 = \sigma_2$
Inv. Gaussian	$\text{IG}(\mu_1, \lambda_1)$	$\text{IG}(\mu_2, \lambda_2)$	— (sufficient: $\leq_{\text{lr}}$ conditions)

Gaussian. All three orders coincide: $\sigma_1 = \sigma_2$ and $\mu_1 \leq \mu_2$. The derivation is in Appendix A.1, page 123.

Inverse Gaussian. For $X \sim \text{IG}(\mu_1, \lambda_1)$ and $Y \sim \text{IG}(\mu_2, \lambda_2)$, $X \leq_{\text{lr}} Y$ holds if and only if

$$\lambda_2 \geq \lambda_1 \quad \text{and} \quad \lambda_1/\mu_1^2 \geq \lambda_2/\mu_2^2. \tag{25}$$

The derivation is in Appendix A.1, page 124. Under the closure condition (same μ^2/λ), these simplify to $\mu_1 \leq \mu_2$. For the general two-parameter case, the standard references give no closed-form necessary and sufficient conditions for $\leq_{\text{hr}}$ and $\leq_{\text{st}}$. The $\leq_{\text{lr}}$ conditions serve as a sufficient criterion.

4.1.6 Maintenance strategies

Maintenance actions on a repairable component lie between two extremes. *Minimal repair* restores the component to its state just before failure ("as bad as old", ABAO). *Perfect repair*, or *replacement*, resets it to the condition of a new part ("as good as new", AGAN). Real interventions almost always lie between these two extremes, and together they are called *imperfect maintenance* [72]. This section surveys the principal modelling families.

Taxonomy of repair actions. Table 8 classifies five canonical maintenance actions by their effect on the component state.

Here D^- and D^+ denote the damage immediately before and after maintenance, and D^{new} is the damage of a new component.

Virtual age models. Kijima [48] formalised imperfect repair through the concept of *virtual age*. After the n-th repair, the component behaves as if it had the age V_n instead of its calendar age. The failure intensity at calendar time t is $\lambda(t - T_n + V_n)$, where T_n is the time of the n-th repair and $\lambda(\cdot)$ is the baseline intensity. Two variants are standard:

Table 8: Taxonomy of maintenance actions, from least to most restorative.

Action	Effect on damage D	Model
No intervention	$D^+ = D^-$	Damage unchanged
Minimal repair (ABAO)	$D^+ = D^-$	Failure intensity restored to pre-failure level; damage history preserved [17]
Imperfect repair	$D^- > D^+ > D^{\text{new}}$	Partial reduction of damage or virtual age (see below)
Perfect repair (AGAN)	$D^+ = D^{\text{new}}$	Component returned to like-new state
Replacement	$D^+ = D^{\text{new}}$	Physical component substituted; equivalent to perfect repair

- **Kijima I.** The repair acts only on the virtual age accumulated since the previous repair:

$$V_n \;=\; V_{n-1} + (1-\rho)\,(T_n - T_{n-1}), \tag{26}$$

  where $\rho \in [0,1]$ is the repair efficiency. Only the time since the previous repair becomes partly younger ("memory-one").

- **Kijima II.** The repair acts on the entire accumulated virtual age:

$$V_n \;=\; (1-\rho)\,(V_{n-1} + T_n - T_{n-1}). \tag{27}$$

  The whole history becomes younger ("infinite memory").

In both cases $\rho = 0$ gives minimal repair (ABAO) and $\rho = 1$ gives perfect repair (AGAN).

Reduction-based models. Doyen and Gaudoin [30] classify imperfect repair models by the *quantity* that the repair reduces. The classes ARA (arithmetic reduction of age) reduce the virtual age, and the classes ARI (arithmetic reduction of intensity) reduce the failure intensity. Each class has a memory: the largest number of previous failure times that enter the failure intensity [30, p. 8]. The memory-one variant carries the subscript 1, and the infinite-memory variant the subscript ∞.

No class of Doyen and Gaudoin acts on a degradation level. Mercier and Castro [57] define a reduction that acts on the degradation level itself. Table 9 compares the reduction classes.

Table 9: Reduction classes of imperfect repair (arithmetic reduction of age, ARA; of deterioration, ARD; of intensity, ARI): the reduced quantity, the laws and their sources.

Class	Reduced quantity	Laws	Source
ARA	virtual age V	ARA_1 (28) ARA_∞ (29)	[30, eq. (22), p. 12] for ARA_1 and [30, eq. (20), p. 11] for ARA_∞
ARD	degradation level D	ARD_1 (31) ARD_∞ (32)	ARD_1: the "arithmetic reduction of deterioration of order 1" of Mercier and Castro [57, §3.1, eq. (4)]; ARD_∞: neither source names it, and its name is an analogy
ARI	failure intensity λ	ARI_1 (33) ARI_∞ (34)	Doyen and Gaudoin [30]

Arithmetic Reduction of Age (ARA). The repair removes a fraction ρ of the virtual age V:

$$\mathrm{ARA}_1: \quad V^+ = V^- - \rho\,(V^- - V^{\mathrm{last}}), \tag{28}$$

$$\mathrm{ARA}_\infty: \quad V^+ = (1-\rho)\,V^-, \tag{29}$$

where V^{last} is the virtual age just after the previous repair. ARA_1 reduces only the age accumulated since the previous repair, and ARA_∞ reduces the whole virtual age. With

$$V^- = V^{\mathrm{last}} + (T_n - T_{n-1}), \tag{30}$$

ARA_1 coincides with Kijima I and ARA_∞ with Kijima II.

Arithmetic Reduction of Deterioration (ARD). The repair removes a fraction ρ of the degradation level D:

$$\mathrm{ARD}_1: \quad D^+ = D^- - \rho\,(D^- - D^{\mathrm{last}}), \tag{31}$$

$$\mathrm{ARD}_\infty: \quad D^+ = (1-\rho)\,D^-. \tag{32}$$

ARD_1 removes the fraction ρ of the degradation accumulated since the last maintenance. It acts on the degradation path, and the age is unchanged. The reference level D^{last} is the level just after the last intervention, repair or replacement. Before the first intervention, it is the initial level. ARD_∞ applies the rule of ARA_∞ to the whole degradation level, as ARD_1 applies the rule of ARA_1 to the degradation accumulated since the last intervention.

Arithmetic Reduction of Intensity (ARI). Instead of reducing the virtual age, the repair directly reduces the failure intensity:

$$\mathrm{ARI}_1: \quad \lambda^+ = \lambda^- - \rho\,(\lambda^- - \lambda^{\mathrm{last}}), \tag{33}$$

$$\mathrm{ARI}_\infty: \quad \lambda^+ = (1-\rho)\,\lambda^-, \tag{34}$$

where λ^{last} is the failure intensity just after the previous repair. ARI models are natural when maintenance targets the failure rate (for example, condition-based interventions) rather than the underlying degradation level. They are in general not equivalent to ARA or ARD models. A reduction in intensity corresponds to a unique reduction in virtual age only if the baseline intensity is strictly monotone [30].

4.1.7 Components of a battery-electric vehicle

A battery-electric road vehicle, such as a transit bus or a passenger car, is a complex repairable system. Its parts degrade at very different rates and through very different physical mechanisms. Not every part needs an explicit place in the fleet-management model of Section 5. We keep a component if it satisfies two criteria:

(C1) **Usage-driven degradation.** Its condition worsens measurably with *how* the vehicle is used. So the mission assigned on a given day produces a damage increment $\Delta D_{i\ell k}^{(j)}$ that can be quantified (Section 5). A part that ages only with calendar time, whatever the mission served, carries no information for the schedule. Its damage need not enter the model, which tracks the damage that the missions cause.

(C2) **Operational significance.** Its failure or its preventive renewal strongly affects at least one of the three quantities that the schedule balances: *safety*, *availability* or *life-cycle maintenance cost*.

We choose *not* to require that the component has a degradation model within the families of Section 4.1.5. A component can be worth considering even when the abstract model of Section 5 does not yet capture it. Such cases are listed here with the modelling extension that they would need, rather than dropped without a note.

The components that meet these criteria form two groups.

- The *electrochemical and electrical powertrain* (traction battery, electric motor, power electronics, charging interface) degrades through electrochemical ageing and through thermal and electrical cycling. Energy throughput, charge and discharge rates and temperature drive this degradation.
- The *mechanical running gear* (tires, friction brakes, wheel bearings, suspension, reduction gear) degrades through wear and fatigue. Distance travelled, vehicle mass, road quality and the profile of acceleration and braking drive this degradation.

Table 10 lists the main candidates in each group, the dominant degradation mechanism, the operational quantity that drives it, and the reason why the component is operationally significant.

Two facts of the domain shape the relative importance of these components.

1. **The traction battery dominates.** A recent predictive-maintenance study of electric buses [45, Secs. 2, 4.2] centres entirely on the battery pack as the main maintenance-critical component. The study models the end of life of the pack through the accumulated charge throughput. It shows that optimising the driving profile alone can cut the modelled capacity loss by 25%. This is direct evidence that battery damage can be steered by exactly the kind of mission-assignment decisions that our framework optimises.
2. **Regenerative braking shifts the wear burden to the tires.** Regenerative braking absorbs most of the service braking, and it reduces the friction-brake wear emissions by an estimated 60–90% [33, Sec. 6.1]. The relative wear burden therefore shifts to the tires, and the higher mass of electric vehicles increases tire wear. On motorways, the savings from regenerative braking do not compensate the added tire-wear particle emissions [33, Sec. 6.1].

Power-electronic and electronic components. Beyond the battery, the traction chain contains three electrical sub-families, and they fit the framework to different degrees.

- **Power semiconductors.** Junction-temperature-swing fatigue governs the *power semiconductors* of the inverter and of the DC–DC and on-board-charger *converters*. They fit well into the remaining-life family (treated in detail below).
- **Converter capacitors.** The *DC-link capacitors* of the converters stand out among the components that fail in the field [105, Sec. I].
  - **Mechanisms.** Small electrolytic capacitors wear out mainly by vaporisation of the electrolyte, and large ones mainly by an electrochemical reaction of the oxide layer [105, Sec. III-A]. Film capacitors lose capacitance through self-healing breakdowns of the film and through corrosion by moisture [105, Sec. III-A, Table II]. When the ripple current is high, as in electric vehicles, film capacitors can give a cheaper and smaller DC link [105, Sec. II].

Table 10: Candidate electric-vehicle components for degradation-aware modelling. Relevance flags: **S** safety-critical, **A** availability driver (its failure or renewal takes the vehicle out of service), **C** maintenance-cost driver. The "mission driver" column names the operational quantity that determines the per-mission damage increment $\Delta D_{i\ell k}^{(j)}$. Acronyms: SEI, solid electrolyte interphase; DOD, depth of discharge; C-rate, charge or discharge current divided by the capacity; IGBT, insulated-gate bipolar transistor; SiC, silicon carbide; DC, direct current; PCB, printed circuit board; BMS, battery management system; HVAC, heating, ventilation and air conditioning.

Component	**Dominant degradation mechanism**	**Mission driver**	**Rel.**
Electrochemical / electrical powertrain			
Traction battery pack	Capacity fade and impedance growth: SEI growth, lithium plating, loss of active material (cycle + calendar ageing)	Energy throughput, DOD, C-rate, temperature	A, C
Traction motor	Winding-insulation thermal ageing; bearing wear	Thermal/load cycles, current	A, C
Power semiconductors (IGBT / SiC modules in the inverter and converters)	Thermal-cycling fatigue (bond-wire lift-off, solder cracking)	Power throughput, thermal cycles	A, C
Converter capacitors (DC link)	Electrolyte vaporisation (electrolytic); self-healing breakdowns and moisture corrosion (film)	Ripple current (through the temperature), ambient temperature, voltage, humidity	A, C
Control / power PCBs (gate drivers, BMS, converter boards)	Solder-joint and via thermo-mechanical fatigue; sudden overstress failures	Thermal cycles (power on/off), vibration	A
Charging interface (inlet, connector)	Contact wear and contact-resistance growth over mating cycles	Number of charging events	A
Mechanical: running gear and chassis			
Tires	Tread abrasion (friction work at the contact patch)	Distance, vehicle mass, driving style, road surface	S, C
Brake friction elements (pads, discs)	Abrasive and thermal wear (mitigated by regenerative braking)	Number and energy of friction-braking events	S, C
Wheel bearings	Rolling-contact fatigue spalling	Distance, load	S, A
Suspension (springs, dampers, bushings)	Fatigue; loss of damping	Load cycles, road quality	A
Reduction gear / drive shafts	Wear, contact fatigue, lubricant ageing	Transmitted torque, distance	A
Auxiliaries (HVAC, battery thermal management, doors)	Wear, cycle-driven failures	Operating hours, actuation cycles	A

- **End of life.** In both types the capacitance falls or the equivalent series resistance (ESR) rises until an end-of-life limit, for example a 20% loss of capacitance for an electrolytic capacitor [105, Table III].
- **Lifetime model.** The standard model is an Arrhenius law in the temperature and a power law in the voltage [105, Eqs. (1)–(2)]. The ripple current is not a variable of this model: it dissipates power in the ESR and so raises the hot-spot temperature [105, Table I, Secs. IV-B and V, Fig. 10]. Humidity is a further critical stressor of film capacitors [105, Table II].
- **Mission.** The mission acts through the load of the converter, which sets the ripple current and raises the local ambient temperature of the capacitor [106, Sec. IV, Fig. 7].
- **Fit to the framework.** Wear-out predictions under changing stress usually add the damage linearly, by the Palmgren–Miner rule [106, Sec. III-D]. The accuracy of this linear rule is still an open question [106, Sec. IV-C]. So capacitor wear-out is a monotone accumulation driven by usage, and it fits the framework.

- **Printed circuit boards.** The *control and power printed circuit boards* (gate-driver, battery-management and converter boards) are the borderline case.
  - **Wear-out.** Temperature cycles, such as power on/off cycles or day–night cycles, fatigue the solder joints and the plated through-holes of a board [109, Table 1]. Vibration also fatigues the solder joints [109, Table 1]. With each cycle the damage accumulates, until a crack grows and the joint fails [109, Table 1]. The power on/off cycles and the vibration depend on usage, so the boards satisfy (C1). Field data from photovoltaic and wind-turbine converters rank control boards high among the failure sources [106, Sec. II-A], so the boards also satisfy (C2).
  - **Sudden failures.** Not every failure of a board comes from accumulated damage. Sudden failures come from design defects, manufacturing issues, single-event effects, overstress or misuse [106, Sec. II]. A mechanical shock, for example, loads the solder joints suddenly [109, Table 1]. For the board failures seen in the field, the causes and the dominant stressors are still open [106, Sec. II-A]. The damage-accumulation dynamics of Section 5 do not fully capture this mix of wear-out and sudden failures.
  - **Faithful model.** It would need either a compound-Poisson shock term (damage jumps of random size at random times) or a formulation in the failure intensity instead of the damage formulation of Equation (50).

We list PCBs here, with this caveat, so that the limitation is recorded and not hidden by the choice of model.

Modelling shortlist. For a first concrete instance of the abstract framework, the most informative components meet two conditions. They are safety- or cost-critical, *and* mature, monotone degradation models describe them and fit the closure and ordering analysis of Section 4.1.5. These components are the *traction battery pack*, the *tires*, the *brake friction elements*, the *wheel bearings*, the *traction-motor insulation* and the *inverter and converter power modules*.

Each of them maps onto a single damage variable $D_{i\ell k}$ per component. The operational driver in the third column of Table 10 governs its mission-dependent increment $\Delta D_{i\ell k}^{(j)}$. For example, a long highway mission produces large increments of tire wear and of deep-discharge battery damage. A stop-intensive urban mission instead multiplies the braking events and the charge–discharge

micro-cycles. This dependence on the mission is exactly the coupling that the scheduling problem of Section 5 exploits.

Worked example: traction-battery capacity fade. The battery pack is the most expensive component of an electric vehicle and the focus of its predictive maintenance [45, Secs. 2, 4.2]. So it serves as the reference instance of the abstract increment $\Delta D_{i\ell k}^{(j)}$.

- **Damage and threshold.** Its damage is the relative capacity fade (one minus the state of health), and the failure threshold τ is the largest admissible fade (the end-of-life criterion).
- **Mechanisms.** Capacity is lost through three families of side reactions: growth of the SEI (solid electrolyte interphase) film, lithium plating and gas generation. Their contributions split into loss of lithium inventory and loss of active material [52, Secs. 2.1, 4.1, Eqs. 28–29].
- **Semi-empirical models.** At the fleet level, semi-empirical models abstract this process and split the fade into a *calendar* term and a *cycling* term.
  - The calendar term grows with an Arrhenius factor $a \exp(-E_a/RT)$ in temperature and with a power law in time and state of charge.
  - The cycling term grows with the number of cycles, modulated by stress factors for temperature, C-rate and depth of discharge [44, Eqs. 1–3].

  An even simpler engineering abstraction links the end of life directly to the accumulated charge throughput [45, Sec. 4.2].
- **Cycling term.** For our framework the decisive structure is the following.
  - The cycling fade is monotone and adds up over days.
  - The daily increment is a function of the energy served on the mission, of its depth of discharge and of its temperature profile. The energy includes the recharge that restores it, so fast charging (a high C-rate) makes the same mission more damaging.
  - So the cycling fade is a monotone, mission-dependent accumulation process; the Gamma and inverse Gaussian processes of Section 4.1.5 are two models of this kind.
  - The time-varying increment parameters that the formulation already allows ($\Delta D_{i\ell k}^{(j)}$ may depend on k) absorb the non-stationary (power-law) dependence on time within the horizon. Beyond the horizon the endless schedule repeats the increment laws of the operating phase with period H_2 (Section 5.2), so a dependence on time that does not repeat is not represented there.
- **Calendar term.** The calendar term, by contrast, accrues also on idle days and depot days. So the dynamics of Section 5, which leave the state unchanged on such days, do *not* capture it. Over short horizons the calendar term can be neglected. Over long horizons the dynamics (50) must be extended with a small drift that does not depend on the activity and is added to every case, idle days included.

4.1.8 Degradation models for the shortlisted components

The other shortlisted components degrade through the same two structural mechanisms as the battery. The first is a monotone *wear or accumulation* driven by usage, and the second is the *consumption of fatigue life* under cyclic loads. So these components map onto the same two model families of Section 4.1.1. Table 11 summarises, for each component, the governing model, the operational quantity that drives the per-mission increment, and the abstract family that the model instantiates.

Table 11: Degradation models for the shortlisted electric-vehicle components and their mapping onto the abstract model families of Section 4.1.1. "Accumulation" denotes a monotone damage-accumulation process (Gamma / inverse-Gaussian); "remaining-life" denotes a cycles-to-failure model accumulated by the Palmgren–Miner rule. SOC: state of charge; LAM: loss of active material; DOD: depth of discharge.

Component	Degradation model / law	Mission driver	Abstract family
Battery pack	Calendar + cycle capacity fade: Arrhenius in T, power law in t/SOC, cycle-count term [44, Eqs. 1–3]; mechanistic SEI / plating / LAM [52, Sec. 2.1]	Energy throughput, DOD, C-rate, temperature	Accumulation (k-dependent)
Tires	Friction-work abrasion [77, Eq. 7]; factors: tire build, road surface, vehicle operation [33, Sec. 2.1.2]	Distance, mass, accel./braking, road surface	Accumulation
Brake friction elements	Archard-type wear per braking event, shown for the brake disc [80, Eqs. 21–22]; regenerative-braking mitigation [33, Sec. 6.1]	Number and energy of friction-braking events	Accumulation
Wheel bearing	Subsurface-fatigue spall propagation, continuum damage [67, Sec. 2.1.3]	Distance, speed, load	Accumulation / remaining-life
Traction-motor insulation	Arrhenius–Dakin thermal-endurance life [29]; Montsinger rule [61]; cumulative-damage extension [114, Eqs. 1–2]	Thermal / load cycles, current	Remaining-life (Miner)
Inverter power module	Coffin–Manson / Norris–Landzberg cycles-to-failure in ΔT_j [4, Eqs. 3–5]; CIPS08 [11, Eq. (1)]	Power throughput, thermal cycles	Remaining-life (Miner)

The paragraphs below treat the tires and the inverter power modules; the battery is treated above. The case study tracks these three components (Section 8). Section 3 lists the other components of the table as out of scope.

Tires. The frictional work spent at the tire–road contact patch governs the loss of tread.

- **Model.** The classical theory of Schallamach and Turner assumes that abrasion is proportional to the energy dissipated by friction [77, Eq. 7]. It derives that, at small slip, wear grows approximately with the *square* of the slip [77, Eq. 19]. So the wear rate rises steeply with the tangential forces of traction, braking and cornering.
- **Factors.** The main factors are the tire characteristics (compound, construction), the road-

surface characteristics and the vehicle operation [33, Sec. 2.1.2]. The higher kerb mass (the mass of the empty vehicle) of electric vehicles raises these contact forces. The effect is large: on motorways, the brake-wear savings of regenerative braking do not compensate the added tire-wear particle emissions [33, Sec. 6.1].

- **Fit to the framework.** Tread depth decreases monotonically from its new value to the legal limit. The damage is the tread depth lost, and the threshold τ is the new depth minus the legal limit. The per-mission increment depends on distance, load, road surface and the aggressiveness of the driving.
- **Renewal.** For bus fleets, retreading (renewing the tread of a used tire) acts as a near-AGAN replacement of the wear state. Tire rotation only redistributes wear across the positions on the vehicle, and it stays outside the per-component model.

Inverter power modules. The IGBT modules of the traction inverter fail mainly by thermo-mechanical fatigue: lift-off of the aluminium bond wires and cracking of the solder layer [4, Sec. 1]. The mismatch of the coefficients of thermal expansion under repeated junction-temperature swings ΔT_j drives this fatigue [4, Secs. 1 and 4].

- **Model.** The classical model of the number of cycles to failure is a Coffin–Manson power law [4, Eq. 3]:

$$N_f = N_0 \, (\Delta T_j)^{-n}. \tag{35}$$

An Arrhenius factor in the mean junction temperature T_{jm} refines it [4, Eq. 4]:

$$N_f = A \, (\Delta T_j)^{-n} \exp\!\big(E_a/(k_b T_{jm})\big). \tag{36}$$

Here A, $n > 0$ and the activation energy $E_a > 0$ are fitted parameters, and k_b is the Boltzmann constant. Alavi et al. write the exponent as $\alpha = -n$ and report $\alpha = -5.039$ [4, Sec. 4]. The CIPS08 model adds further factors. Bayerer et al. published it at the 5th International Conference on Integrated Power Electronics Systems (CIPS 2008) [11, Eq. (1)]:

$$N_f = K \, \Delta T_j^{\beta_1} e^{\beta_2/(T_j+273)} \, t_{\mathrm{on}}^{\beta_3} \, I^{\beta_4} \, V^{\beta_5} \, d_{\mathrm{w}}^{\beta_6}. \tag{37}$$

The factors are the temperature swing ΔT_j, the junction temperature T_j in °C, the power-on time t_{on}, the current I per bond foot on the chip, the blocking voltage V of the chip and the bond-wire diameter d_{w} [11, Secs. 2.2 and 3.1, Fig. 2]. Alavi et al. enter V in volts divided by 100 [4, Sec. 4]. Here K is a scale factor, and $\beta_1, \ldots, \beta_6$ are exponents fitted by multiple linear regression on the logarithm of the model [11, Sec. 3.2]. Bayerer et al. give two sets of exponents $\beta = (\beta_1, \ldots, \beta_6)$ [11, Eqs. (5)–(6)]:

  - with T_j the maximum junction temperature of the cycle,

$$\beta = (-3.483,\ 1917,\ -0.438,\ -0.717,\ -0.751,\ -0.564); \tag{38}$$

  - with T_j the minimum (starting) junction temperature, which removes a correlation between the variables [11, Sec. 3.4],

$$\beta = (-4.416,\ 1285,\ -0.463,\ -0.716,\ -0.761,\ -0.5). \tag{39}$$

In both sets every exponent is negative except $\beta_2 > 0$. The authors note that the relation of the voltage factor to the chip thickness does not apply to modules for traction applications, whose setup and bonding differ [11, Sec. 3.1].

- **Calibration.** The model is empirical: it is limited to the range of the test data and cannot be used for extrapolation [11, Secs. 3.1 and 3.4]. Its predictions, moved from accelerated tests to real use, can be inaccurate [4, Sec. 4]. Its coefficients depend on the device type, mainly β_1 and β_2, so a new device type needs a new calibration [4, Secs. 1 and 4]. A recent fit on 27 power-cycling tests of one discrete IGBT moved the estimates of $(\beta_1, \beta_2, \beta_3)$ to $(-2.910,\ 1083.714,\ -4.521)$ [4, Sec. 5.2, Table 2]. Its 95% confidence bounds contain the first three exponents of both sets of Bayerer et al. [4, Table 2]. All these tests used one power-on time, $t_{\text{on}} = 2\,\text{s}$, so they cannot determine β_3. For a photovoltaic inverter, the same study also modified a second empirical model, SKiM63, by a factor that depends on ΔT_j. This change cut the predicted B10 lifetime (the time at which 10% of the units have failed) from 43.79 to 13.56 years [4, Sec. 5.3 and Fig. 15].
- **Fit to the framework.** Under a realistic mix of missions, the thermal cycles have different amplitudes. The Palmgren–Miner rule sums the accumulated damage,

$$D_{\text{PM}} = \sum_i n_i / N_{f,i}, \tag{40}$$

  with failure at $D_{\text{PM}} = 1$. This places the power module clearly in the remaining-life family of Section 4.1.3, with the mission determining the transmitted power and hence the spectrum of temperature swings.

Common structure. Every shortlisted component reduces to one of the two abstract descriptions of Section 4.1.1:

- a *monotone accumulation process* (battery cycling fade, tires, brakes, bearings; for bearings, the propagation stage ends at a remaining-life threshold);
- a *remaining-life model accumulated by the Palmgren–Miner rule* (insulation, power modules).

In both, an operational driver that the schedule controls sets the per-mission damage increment $\Delta D_{i\ell k}^{(j)}$. The drivers are energy throughput and charging rate, distance and load, braking profile, or thermal cycling. This is exactly the structure that the abstract formulation of Section 5 assumes. So the electric-vehicle fleet is a faithful concrete instance of the general problem. This analysis also fixes which degradation family describes each component of an electric-vehicle fleet.

Excluded parts. Some components deteriorate almost independently of the mission served: body corrosion, interior fittings, static low-voltage electronics and the 12-volt auxiliary battery. They satisfy criterion (C2) but not (C1). Time-based overhaul outside the optimisation suits them best, so the model does not track their damage. Their fixed maintenance windows can still enter the model as exogenous availability constraints.

The calendar ageing of the traction battery is the one borderline case. The drift extension discussed in the worked example above handles it.

4.1.9 Simulation tools for battery-electric bus fleets

This subsubsection lists the simulation tools that were read, and a published check of a bus model against data from Zurich.

Tools. Table 12 lists the tools that were read for this purpose, and what each one simulates. No source read shows a tool that the field treats as the standard for a fleet of battery-electric buses with component ageing. The authors of the eflips-X framework write that, before their work, no unified framework combined all steps of bus electrification [41, Sect. 1]. The authors of Transit-Gym, a bus simulator built on SUMO (Simulation of Urban MObility, a traffic simulator), find very little literature on electric buses at the level of single vehicles [85, Sect. II.D]. Each documented use of a simulation tool for electric buses in the sources read is a single study [41, 50, 85]. The field states a method, not a tool: the traction energy follows from a physical model when the driving profile and the vehicle parameters are known [41, Sect. 1.4.1]. No tool read ages tires or inverters, and none draws component failures. BLAST-Lite ages battery cells only; it can scale the fade rate and simulate a spread of fade [65].

A published check on Zurich data. Konzept, Hitz and Reick built a model of the longitudinal dynamics of a MAN Lion's City 12 E in MATLAB Simulink [50, Sect. 1]. Its inputs are a speed profile, an elevation profile and the outside temperature. It holds the rolling, air, gradient and inertia forces, a motor efficiency map, a heat pump and a table-based cell model. It neglects self-discharge and ageing [50, Sect. 1.1]. The authors checked the model against the telemetry of buses of VBZ in winter. On a round trip of 44 km, the largest deviation of the state of charge was 1.4469 % [50, Sect. 1.2, Fig. 2]. The telemetry is not public, and the paper does not publish the model code. VBZ runs this bus type (Section 7.4).

4.2 Research gaps

This subsection lists what the sources read for this document do not cover.

- **No closed form for the accumulated damage.** None of the standard S–N scatter families is closed under summation (Section 4.1.3). So the law of the accumulated damage has no closed form, and the formulation bounds it instead (Section 5.7).
- **No fitted law for the increments.** A parametric law fitted to the measured increments ties the model to one data set and one functional form (Section 5.7). The formulation summarises the measured distribution by a few functionals and bounds the damage from them.
- **A study of electric buses on the battery only.** The predictive-maintenance study of electric buses that we read centres on the battery pack [45, Secs. 2, 4.2] (Section 4.1.7).
- **No standard simulator with component ageing.** No source read shows a tool that the field treats as the standard for a fleet of battery-electric buses with component ageing (Section 4.1.9).
- **Degradation-aware fleet management and similar applications.** This subsection will hold the gaps found in the literature on fleet management that accounts for degradation, and in similar applications.

5 Abstract Problem Formalization

We consider a fleet of F members. Each member has L components, and each component degrades stochastically.

- **Horizon.** The planning horizon has $T = H_1 + H_2$ days, the time steps of the model. The

Table 12: Simulation tools for a fleet of battery-electric buses, from the sources read (accessed 10 Nov 2026). SUMO: Simulation of Urban MObility. MATSim: Multi-Agent Transport SIMulation. FASTSim: Future Automotive Systems Technology Simulator. BLAST-Lite: Battery Lifetime Analysis and Simulation Toolsuite. SimBA: Simulation toolbox for Bus Applications. GTFS: General Transit Feed Specification, the common file format of timetables; `shapes.txt` is its optional file of road geometry. OSM: OpenStreetMap, a map database built by volunteers. Drive cycle: speed and grade over time, second by second. SOC: state of charge. HVAC: heating, ventilation and air conditioning. LFP, NMC, NCA, LTO: lithium-ion cell chemistries. CSV: comma-separated values. GPL, AGPL: GNU General Public License, GNU Affero General Public License.

Tool	Simulates	Battery buses	Timetable	Gradients	Licence
SUMO [35]	traffic flow and the motion of each vehicle, step by step	battery device: energy content, chargers on lanes, one constant auxiliary power; no HVAC model over air temperature; no ageing	GTFS; with `shapes.txt`, routes follow OSM	heights from OSM or a height map	Eclipse Public License 2.0
MATSim [56]	travel demand of simulated persons, and the traffic it makes	`ev`: charging of private cars; no bus energy model; no ageing	GTFS, through `pt2matsim`	not mentioned	GPL 2 or later
FASTSim [64]	energy of one powertrain over a given drive cycle	battery-electric vehicles, also medium and heavy duty; no bus file in the pages read; no ageing	no	grade per time step	Apache 2.0
BLAST-Lite [65]	capacity fade of battery cells	fade models of LFP, NMC, NCA and LTO cells from SOC and temperature series; buses not mentioned	no	no	BSD-style
SimBA [75]	operation of a battery-bus fleet: trip energy, charging, SOC per bus	energy per trip from a table that the user supplies; battery life only as a fixed number of years in the costs	no: a CSV list of trips	mean grade per trip, from the first and last stop	AGPL 3
eflips-X [41]	planning of a battery-bus fleet: blocks, depot, chargers, smart charging	energy tables over speed, gradient, temperature and load; SOC per block; no ageing	not stated	in the energy table	AGPL
PTV Visum [74]	transport planning at the network level; vehicle scheduling	bus scheduling with linear charging and a range in km; no ageing model described	not stated	elevation import	commercial

first H_1 days form the *transitory phase*, which starts from the current state of the fleet. The last H_2 days form the *operating phase*, which is the schedule to repeat.

- **Activities.** On each day, every member performs at most one activity: it serves one of M available missions or spends the day in the depot. A member with neither activity is idle.
- **Damage.** Serving a mission damages the components of the member. The damage follows a stochastic degradation process that depends on the mission and on the component.
- **Interventions.** On a depot day, each component receives, independently of the other components, an imperfect repair, a replacement or no intervention. An imperfect repair removes part of the accumulated damage, and a replacement resets the component to the state of a new part. A repair or a replacement is an *intervention*.

The damage, or degradation level, of component ℓ of member i on day k is a random variable $D_{i\ell k}$. Its distribution belongs to a parametric family chosen for each component. A component fails when $D_{i\ell k}$ exceeds a threshold τ. The schedule must keep the probability of this event below ε on every day.

The schedule must also be repeatable without end. For this purpose, a *loop constraint* compares each component at the end of the horizon with the same component at the end of the transitory phase. Every statistic that certifies the reliability of the component must be no larger at the end of the horizon. So, at the end of the operating phase, the fleet is in a condition at least as good as at its start.

Table 13 collects the notation used throughout this document. All variables are general and independent of any specific degradation model.

5.1 Scheduling and maintenance variables

Three families of binary decision variables encode the schedule. The *assignment variable* x_{ijk} determines which activity fleet member i performs on day k: serving mission $j \geq 1$, or spending the day in the depot ($j = 0$). Each member performs at most one activity per day,

$$\sum_{j=0}^{M} x_{ijk} \;\leq\; 1 \qquad \forall\, i,\, k, \tag{41}$$

and mission j must be covered by exactly d_{jk} members on day k,

$$\sum_{i=1}^{F} x_{ijk} \;=\; d_{jk} \qquad \forall\, j \geq 1,\, k. \tag{42}$$

A mission may need several members at once: for example, a bus line that needs d_{jk} buses in service on day k. The number may change from day to day, for example between weekdays and weekends; $d_{jk} = 0$ means that mission j is not served on day k.

A member whose assignment row is all zeros on day k is *idle*: it serves no mission and is not in the depot.

- **Members on missions.** By (41) and (42), exactly $\sum_j d_{jk}$ members serve missions on day k. Since $F > \max_k \sum_j d_{jk}$, the other $F - \sum_j d_{jk} \geq 1$ members are in the depot or idle.

Table 13: Notation and variable definitions.

Symbol	Description
Index sets	
$i \in \{1, \dots, F\}$	Fleet member
$j \in \{0, 1, \dots, M\}$	Activity ($j = 0$: depot day; $j \geq 1$: mission; a member with no activity is idle)
$k \in \{1, \dots, T\}$	Time step (day)
$\ell \in \{1, \dots, L\}$	Component
Scalar and fleet-level parameters	
F	Number of fleet members
H_1, H_2	Lengths of the transitory phase (days $1, \dots, H_1$) and of the operating phase (days $H_1 + 1, \dots, T$)
T	Horizon length, $T = H_1 + H_2$
M	Number of missions (input check: $F > M$, Section 10.1.2)
d_{jk}	Number of fleet members that mission j needs on day k (input check: $F > \max_k \sum_j d_{jk}$, Section 10.1.2)
L	Number of components per fleet member
Cost functions	
C_M	Depot-day cost: $\{x_{i0k}\}_{i,k} \to \mathbb{R}_{\geq 0}$
C_R	Repair cost: $\{z_{i\ell k}\}_{i,\ell,k} \to \mathbb{R}_{\geq 0}$
C_{rep}	Replacement cost: $\{x^r_{i\ell k}\}_{i,\ell,k} \to \mathbb{R}_{\geq 0}$
C_D	Damage-penalty cost: $u \to \mathbb{R}_{\geq 0}$
Component-level parameters	
$\tau_{i\ell}$	Failure threshold of the damage; the subscript $i\ell$ is often dropped ($\tau = 1$ in the Palmgren–Miner normalisation)
$\varepsilon_{i\ell}$	Reliability level: $\Pr(D_{i\ell k} > \tau_{i\ell}) \leq \varepsilon_{i\ell}$ for all k; the subscript $i\ell$ is often dropped
$\rho_{i\ell}$	Repair efficiency $\in (0, 1]$
Initial and reference values	
$D^{\text{start}}_{i\ell}$	Initial damage of component ℓ of member i (known distribution with mean in $[0, \tau)$; the reliability level is required from day 1 on)
$D^{\text{new}}_{i\ell}$	Damage just after a replacement (known distribution; typically near zero)
Stochastic state	
$D_{i\ell k}$	Random variable: damage of component ℓ of member i on day k
$\Delta D^{(j)}_{i\ell k}$	Random damage increment to component ℓ of member i when mission j is served on day k
$\xi_{i\ell k}$	Tracked state of component ℓ of member i on day k: the statistics of $D_{i\ell k}$ that certify its reliability and, under ARD_1, their anchors (Section 5.3)
Decision variables	
$x_{ijk} \in \{0, 1\}$	1 if member i is assigned to activity j on day k
$x^m_{i\ell k} \in \{0, 1\}$	1 if component ℓ of member i undergoes imperfect repair on day k
$x^r_{i\ell k} \in \{0, 1\}$	1 if component ℓ of member i is replaced on day k
$z_{i\ell k} \geq 0$	Damage removed by imperfect repair (in expected-damage units)
$u \geq 0$	Damage-penalty variable

- **Depot day or idle day.** Because (41) is an inequality, the choice between a depot day and an idle day is free. An idle day costs nothing, and the depot-day cost C_M prices this choice (Section 5.4).
- **No damage.** Idle days and depot days add no damage, because a component accumulates damage only on the days on which its member serves a mission (Section 5.2).
- **Explicit depot day.** A depot day must be chosen explicitly, and repairs and replacements need one.

On a depot day ($x_{i0k} = 1$), two more binary variables control the intervention on each component, independently of the other components. The *repair variable* $x^m_{i\ell k}$ indicates whether component ℓ undergoes imperfect repair, and the *replacement variable* $x^r_{i\ell k}$ indicates full replacement. Both require a depot day and are mutually exclusive:

$$x^m_{i\ell k} + x^r_{i\ell k} \;\leq\; x_{i0k} \qquad \forall\, i,\, \ell,\, k. \tag{43}$$

Several components of one member may receive interventions on the same depot day. A component on a depot day with

$$x^m_{i\ell k} = x^r_{i\ell k} = 0 \tag{44}$$

receives no intervention, and its damage does not change. So, on a depot day, each component is repaired, replaced, or rests without an intervention, and exactly one of the three cases holds.

5.2 Damage dynamics

The damage of each component evolves day by day. Its change on a day depends on the activity of the member that carries the component. We write $\Delta D^{(j)}_{i\ell k}$ for the *random damage increment* of component ℓ of member i when the member serves mission j on day k.

We assume that the distribution of each increment is known, from the degradation model of the component. It may depend on i, ℓ, j and k. On an idle day or a depot day, the component accumulates no damage.

On each day, exactly one of the following mutually exclusive cases applies to every component (i, ℓ):

(i) **Mission.** Member i serves mission $j \geq 1$ ($x_{ijk} = 1$). The damage grows by a random increment that depends on the mission and on the component:

$$D_{i\ell k} \;=\; D_{i\ell,k-1} \;+\; \Delta D^{(j)}_{i\ell k}. \tag{45}$$

(ii) **Imperfect repair.** The member is on a depot day ($x_{i0k} = 1$) and component ℓ undergoes imperfect repair ($x^m_{i\ell k} = 1$). The repair removes a fraction of the accumulated damage. The repair efficiency $\rho_{i\ell}$ and the repair law in use determine this fraction. Abstractly:

$$D_{i\ell k} \;=\; \mathcal{R}\big(D_{i\ell,k-1},\, \rho_{i\ell}\big), \tag{46}$$

where $\mathcal{R}$ denotes the repair operator. Under ARD_1 the operator also uses the damage just after the last intervention; the notation leaves this argument implicit. The formulation offers two repair operators, or repair laws, chosen per component.

- ARD_∞ (arithmetic reduction of deterioration with infinite memory) removes the fraction $\rho_{i\ell}$ of the whole damage.

- ARD$_1$ (arithmetic reduction of deterioration of order 1) removes the fraction $\rho_{i\ell}$ of the damage accumulated since the last intervention, repair or replacement (Section 5.16).

See Section 4.1.6 for more details. The repair-cost variable $z_{i\ell k}$ is the expected damage that the repair removes:

$$z_{i\ell k} \;=\; \mathbb{E}\big[D_{i\ell,k-1}\big] - \mathbb{E}\big[D_{i\ell k}\big], \qquad \text{when } x^m_{i\ell k} = 1. \tag{47}$$

On a day without a repair, the equality is not imposed. Then $z_{i\ell k}$ is a free non-negative variable, and the cost minimisation drives it to zero. Equivalently, $z_{i\ell k} = 0$ when $x^m_{i\ell k} = 0$.

(iii) **Full replacement.** The member is on a depot day and component ℓ is replaced ($x^r_{i\ell k} = 1$). The damage is reset:

$$D_{i\ell k} \;=\; D^{\text{new}}_{i\ell}. \tag{48}$$

(iv) **Idle day, or depot day with no intervention on this component.** The damage is unchanged:

$$D_{i\ell k} \;=\; D_{i\ell,k-1}. \tag{49}$$

Cases (ii) and (iii) are mutually exclusive: a component cannot be both repaired and replaced on the same day. Both require a depot day ($x_{i0k} = 1$). Since exactly one case applies on each day, one equation describes the dynamics:

$$D_{i\ell k} \;=\; D_{i\ell,k-1}\big(1 - x^m_{i\ell k}\big)\big(1 - x^r_{i\ell k}\big) + \sum_{j=1}^{M} x_{ijk}\,\Delta D^{(j)}_{i\ell k} \;+\; \mathcal{R}\big(D_{i\ell,k-1},\, \rho_{i\ell}\big)\, x^m_{i\ell k} \;+\; D^{\text{new}}_{i\ell}\, x^r_{i\ell k}, \tag{50}$$

with initial condition $D_{i\ell,0} = D^{\text{start}}_{i\ell}$.

Horizon and phases. We write the horizon as $H = [H_1, H_2]$, with $T = H_1 + H_2$ days in two phases. A single value H means

$$H_1 = H_2 = H. \tag{51}$$

The transitory phase, days $1, \ldots, H_1$, starts from the current state of the fleet. The operating phase, days $H_1 + 1, \ldots, T$, is the schedule to repeat without end. The two phases may have different lengths and different increment laws.

The increment laws of the operating phase repeat with period H_2. In the *endless schedule*, the transitory phase runs once, and then the operating phase repeats. Day $T + nH_2 + h$ carries the decisions and the increment laws of day $H_1 + h$, for

$$n \geq 0 \quad \text{and} \quad 1 \leq h \leq H_2. \tag{52}$$

The days of the transitory phase read their increment laws in one of two ways.

- **No transitory laws.** When the transitory phase has no increment laws of its own, its days read the laws of the operating phase cyclically. For example, with $H = [2, 3]$, days $1, \ldots, 5$ read the operating laws $1, 2, 1, 2, 3$. With a single value H, both phases read the same H laws, one phase after the other.
- **Separate transitory laws.** In the same example, days $1, 2$ read the transitory laws, and days $3, 4, 5$ read the operating laws $1, 2, 3$.

Degradation models of the formulation. Each component has one of five degradation models: Gaussian, inverse Gaussian, Wiener, Gamma or rainflow. Section 5.15 lists the statistics that each model tracks and its reliability row.

- **Gaussian and Wiener.** Both the Gaussian and the Wiener model use Gaussian increments. The Gaussian model tracks a variance that a repair reduces. The Wiener model fits components whose uncertainty does not depend on the route and is not reduced by a repair. Without a reason to choose the Wiener model, choose the Gaussian model.
- **Rainflow.** The rainflow model is the distribution-free pipeline of Section 5.7. It makes no assumption on the distribution of the increments. Its reliability guarantee holds for every increment law that has the measured summary statistics. The cost of this generality is a looser bound than the bound that an exact distribution function gives.

State after a replacement. A replacement installs a new part. Its damage $D_{i\ell}^{\text{new}}$ is described by the same statistics as the initial damage: a known damage when its variance is 0, a random one otherwise. The default is a new part with zero damage. On a replacement day every tracked statistic takes its replacement value, and so does every anchor (Section 5.16).

The replacement state must satisfy every row that holds on a replacement day, in the form built at the component. A linear form of a reliability row is stricter than the exact row (Section 5.10). So a replacement state that passes only the exact row would make every replacement of the component infeasible. An input check prevents this (Section 10.1.2).

5.3 Stochastic loop constraint

For the schedule to be repeatable without end, the reliability constraint $\Pr(D_{i\ell k} > \tau) \leq \varepsilon$ must hold on every day of the endless schedule, not only on the T days of the horizon. So the condition of the fleet at the end of the operating phase must be no worse than at its start. A first formalisation compares the probabilities of failure at the start and at the end of the operating phase, component by component:

$$\Pr\big(D_{i\ell T} > \tau\big) \;\leq\; \Pr\big(D_{i\ell H_1} > \tau\big) \qquad \forall\, i,\, \ell. \tag{53}$$

Together with the reliability constraint on every day, condition (53) requires that the operating phase ends with a failure probability no larger than the one it starts with.

However, a comparison of two survival functions at a single threshold is a summary of the state that loses information. By itself, it does not guarantee that the inequality still holds when the schedule is repeated. Section 5.8 shows this failure for bound-based certificates.

The failure occurs already for the exact probabilities whenever the law of the state has more than one free parameter. For a Gaussian state, a change of the mean balanced by an opposite change of the variance can satisfy (53) over one repetition, while the failure probability $\Phi\big((\mu - \tau)/\sigma\big)$ rises above ε in a later repetition.

Repeating the schedule is guaranteed to keep the failure probability below ε whenever the comparison uses a quantity with two properties:

- the quantity bounds the failure probability monotonically;
- the dynamics (50) propagate it monotonically.

One such comparison is the dominance requirement

$$D_{i\ell T} \leq_{\mathrm{st}} D_{i\ell H_1}, \tag{54}$$

in the usual stochastic order of Definition 4.2. Under ARD_∞ this requirement *chains*: it carries over from one repetition of the operating phase to the next. The reason is that the dynamics is then a coordinatewise non-decreasing map of the state and of independent random terms (Proposition 4.1). The formulation compares a few statistics of the state instead, one by one.

Tracked state. Each degradation model certifies the reliability of a component through a few statistics of its damage $D_{i\ell k}$.

- The inverse Gaussian and Gamma models track the mean.
- The Gaussian and Wiener models track the mean and the variance.
- The rainflow model tracks the mean and, except under the Markov bound, one statistic of the chosen tail bound (Sections 5.7 and 5.15).

Under the repair law ARD_1, each statistic except the Wiener variance also has an *anchor*: its value just after the last intervention (Section 5.16). The *tracked state* $\xi_{i\ell k}$ collects the statistics and their anchors on day k. Each component also has a *start of the repetition* $y_{i\ell}$. It is a vector over the same coordinates as $\xi_{i\ell k}$, anchors included: the tracked state at the start of every repetition of the operating phase. Three groups of rows tie $y_{i\ell}$ to the tracked state, one row per coordinate:

- **Start rows.** The start is at least the state of day H_1:

$$y_{i\ell} \;\geq\; \xi_{i\ell H_1} \qquad \forall\, i,\, \ell \quad \text{(componentwise)}. \tag{55}$$

- **Rows of day H_1+1.** Every row of day H_1+1 that reads the state of the day before reads $y_{i\ell}$ in place of $\xi_{i\ell H_1}$. So each rule of Section 5.3.1 applies to $y_{i\ell}$, and

$$\xi_{i\ell,H_1+1} \;\geq\; \pi_{H_1+1}\big(y_{i\ell}\big), \tag{56}$$

  with the notation of Section 5.3.1.

- **Loop rows.** The operating phase ends at most at its start:

$$\xi_{i\ell T} \;\leq\; y_{i\ell} \qquad \forall\, i,\, \ell \quad \text{(componentwise)}. \tag{57}$$

For a Gaussian component with mean μ and variance v, for example, the loop rows are $\mu_T \leq y^\mu$ and $v_T \leq y^v$, plus the same rows for the two anchors under ARD_1. The variable $y_{i\ell}$ has no day index. It may lie above $\xi_{i\ell H_1}$, so the repetitions may start higher than the state that the transitory phase reaches. This matters when the component is replaced on day H_1: the replacement fixes $\xi_{i\ell H_1}$, but not $y_{i\ell}$ (Section 5.3.3).

Remark 5.1 (Connection to the loop constraint). The probability comparison (53) requires

$$\Pr(D_{i\ell T} > \tau) \leq \Pr(D_{i\ell H_1} > \tau), \tag{58}$$

which is a *pointwise* comparison of the survival functions at the single threshold τ. This is strictly weaker than

$$D_{i\ell T} \leq_{\mathrm{st}} D_{i\ell H_1}, \tag{59}$$

which demands the inequality at every point. So the usual stochastic order is a convenient sufficient condition for (53), but not a necessary one. The loop constraint (57) of the formulation compares tracked statistics instead (Section 5.3).

5.3.1 One-sided encoding of the dynamics

Each day, every tracked statistic of a component follows one rule:

- **Mission.** A mission adds an increment.
- **Repair.** A repair applies the repair map of Section 5.16.
- **Replacement.** A replacement resets the statistic (Section 5.2).

The formulation writes each rule as a *one-sided* row: an inequality ($\geq$), not an equality. The solver may choose a value above the result of the rule, never a value below it. A value above the result of the rule carries *slack*. So a tracked statistic is an upper bound on the value that the rule gives.

> **Example.** with $\mu_{i\ell,k-1} = 0.3$ and a mission increment of 0.2, the rule gives 0.5; the rows accept $\mu_{i\ell k} = 0.5$ and also $\mu_{i\ell k} = 0.6$.

Replacement rows and anchor updates are equalities.

Fix a schedule, that is, values of every binary, and one component. The following objects are used here and in the rest of this section.

- The *full tracked state* ξ_k collects the values on day k of every tracked statistic of the component and of every anchor. ξ_0 holds the initial values and the starting anchors.
- The *day map* π_k gives, for each coordinate, the value that the rule of day k assigns: $s + \delta s_k$ and g on a day without intervention; $a\,s + (1-a)\,g$ for both s and g on a repair day; the replacement value s^{new} for both on a replacement day.
- The *reference trajectory* is $\zeta_0 = \xi_0$, $\zeta_k = \pi_k(\zeta_{k-1})$: the rows with every inequality replaced by an equality.
- The *true statistics* θ_k are the true values on day k of the tracked statistics (the mean, the variance, the Hoeffding budget or the cumulant generating function of the damage $D_{i\ell k}$) and of their anchors (their values just after the last intervention).
- The *certificate set* $\mathcal{C}_{i\ell}$ is the set of values of the tracked statistics at which the reliability row of the component holds in its exact form, side rows included. Anchors do not enter it.

For every model of the formulation, three facts hold (Section 5.15 states them model by model):

(M1) Each repair factor a lies in $[0, 1]$, and each increment δs_k is non-negative.

(M2) On day 0 the true statistics are at most the initial values and starting anchors, $\theta_0 \leq \xi_0$. On every later day the true statistic is at most the day map applied to the true statistics of the day before: $\theta_k \leq \pi_k(\theta_{k-1})$. This inequality is an equality for every statistic, except the cumulant generating function of the Chernoff bound, whose map is an upper bound (Proposition 5.10).

(M3) If values $s \in \mathcal{C}_{i\ell}$ are at least the true statistics of day k, then $\Pr(D_{i\ell k} > \tau) \leq \varepsilon$.

The set $\mathcal{C}_{i\ell}$ is closed, and it is a down-set: if $s \in \mathcal{C}_{i\ell}$ and

$$0 \leq s' \leq s \quad \text{componentwise}, \tag{60}$$

then $s' \in \mathcal{C}_{i\ell}$. The reference values are non-negative, $\zeta_k \geq 0$: the initial and replacement values are non-negative (input checks), and by (M1) every day map keeps non-negative values non-negative. Table 14 lists the reliability rows in chance-bound form. The derivation is in Appendix A.2, page 124.

Table 14: Reliability rows of the formulation in chance-bound form. $\kappa_G = \Phi^{-1}(1-\varepsilon)$, $\kappa_C = \sqrt{(1-\varepsilon)/\varepsilon}$, $\kappa = \ln(1/\varepsilon)$, $c = \kappa b_\ell/3$.

Model or bound	Row in chance-bound form	Source
Gaussian, Wiener	$\mu + \kappa_G\sqrt{v} \leq \tau$	Section 5.15
Inverse Gaussian	$\mu \leq \tau/\bar{q}$	Theorem 5.16
Gamma	$\mu \leq A_1(\beta^*\tau, \varepsilon)/\beta^*$	Proposition 5.22
Rainflow, Markov	$\mu \leq \varepsilon\,\tau$	Table 17
Rainflow, Cantelli	$\mu + \kappa_C\sqrt{v} \leq \tau$	Table 17
Rainflow, Hoeffding	$\mu + \sqrt{\kappa R/2} \leq \tau$	Table 17
Rainflow, Bernstein	$\mu + c + \sqrt{c^2 + 2\kappa v} \leq \tau$	Table 17
Rainflow, Chernoff	$K \leq s\,\tau + \ln\varepsilon$	Table 17

Lemma 5.2 (Monotone day maps)**.** *Each day map π_k is non-decreasing in each coordinate of the full tracked state, anchors included.*

The proof is in Appendix A.2, page 124.

Proposition 5.3 (Domination)**.** *Every feasible solution satisfies*

$$\xi_k \geq \pi_k(\xi_{k-1}) \quad \text{and} \quad \theta_k \leq \zeta_k \leq \xi_k \qquad \text{for } k = 1, \ldots, T. \tag{61}$$

The proof is in Appendix A.2, page 124.

On every day $k = 1, \ldots, T$ the tracked values satisfy the reliability row in the form chosen for the component. So $\xi_k \in \mathcal{C}_{i\ell}$, and $\Pr(D_{i\ell k} > \tau) \leq \varepsilon$ on the days of the horizon. The derivation is in Appendix A.2, page 124. Theorem 5.4 below extends this to every day of every later repetition of the operating phase.

Meaning of the reported values. The output of a solve reports the tracked values ξ_k, not the reference values. By Proposition 5.3, each reported statistic and anchor is an upper bound on its reference value, and so on its true statistic.

The costs computed from them are upper bounds on the costs computed from the reference values: the repair cost (Proposition 5.9) and the damage penalty (Section 5.4). Against the true costs there is one exception, for a starting anchor above the true one (Section 5.4).

The minimisation removes slack only where slack costs something.

- **Mean.** A larger mean raises the damage penalty $C_D\,u$ where u is binding (where a row that defines u holds with equality), and raises the repair cost $C_R\,z$ of the next repair, unless a replacement comes first. Under ARD_∞ it also raises the cost of the later repairs up to the next replacement; under ARD_1 the anchor takes the slack at the next intervention, and the later repairs do not change.

- **Other statistics.** A larger variance, Hoeffding budget or cumulant generating function tightens the reliability row and so restricts the schedule.

Elsewhere the solver may return any value above the reference value. With $C_D = 0$ the damage penalty is absent, and the reported states may carry more slack. Slack never affects safety (Theorem 5.4).

Big-M constants. The specification writes each one-sided row in one of two forms, chosen per component. In the *big-M form*, each rule of a tracked statistic s holds unless a binary switches it off through a constant M_s. The rows are the following:

$$s_k \geq s_{k-1} + \delta s_k - M_s\,(x_k^m + x_k^r) \qquad \text{(the carry row)}, \tag{62}$$

$$s_k \geq a\,s_{k-1} + (1-a)\,g_{k-1} - M_s\,(1 - x_k^m) \qquad \text{(the repair row)}, \tag{63}$$

$$|s_k - s^{\text{new}}| \leq M_s\,(1 - x_k^r) \qquad \text{(the replacement rows)}, \tag{64}$$

$$|g_k - s_k| \leq M_s\,(1 - x_k^m - x_k^r) \qquad \text{(the anchor rows)}, \tag{65}$$

$$|g_k - g_{k-1}| \leq M_s\,(x_k^m + x_k^r) \qquad \text{(the anchor rows)}. \tag{66}$$

In the *indicator form*, the same inequalities are Gurobi indicator constraints, switched on by the binary of the day's case. At binary points the two forms have the same feasible set.

The constant M_s is the *natural range* of s: an upper bound of s at every point that satisfies the reliability row of the component (for the mean at a Chernoff cell, at every point of the reference trajectory). For a variance, the Hoeffding budget and the Chernoff statistic, the value below is the largest value that the exact row admits at $\mu \geq 0$. For a mean, τ is an upper bound: the row itself, its side row or a smaller cap bounds the mean by τ. The Chernoff row does not contain the mean; there $\mu \leq K/s < \tau$ holds on the reference trajectory, because the input checks keep $K \geq s\mu$ (Jensen's inequality).

- τ for a mean and for its anchor.
- $V_{\max} = \tau^2/\kappa_G^2$ for a Gaussian or Wiener variance (Remark 5.24).
- $\varepsilon\tau^2/(1-\varepsilon)$ for a Cantelli variance.
- $\tau(\tau - 2c)/(2\kappa)$ for a Bernstein variance.
- $2\tau^2/\kappa$ for the Hoeffding budget.
- $s\tau - \kappa$ for the Chernoff statistic.

An anchor has the range of its statistic.

Validity of the big-M constants. Every tracked statistic and every anchor lies in $[0, M_s]$. The initial values, the starting anchors and the replacement values lie in $[0, M_s]$ too, by the input checks (Section 10.1.2). A relaxed row then cuts no point. The derivation is in Appendix A.3, page 139.

5.3.2 Perpetual safety

In the endless schedule (Section 5.2), day $T + nH_2 + h$ carries the binaries and the increment laws of day $H_1 + h$. So every repetition applies the same day maps $\pi_{H_1+1}, \ldots, \pi_T$. We write

$$\Pi_h = \pi_{H_1+h} \circ \cdots \circ \pi_{H_1+1} \tag{67}$$

for the first h days of the operating phase and $\Pi = \Pi_{H_2}$ for the whole phase.

> **Theorem 5.4** (Perpetual safety). *Let a solution satisfy every row of the problem. Then, for every component and every day $k \geq 1$ of the endless schedule, the true statistics θ_k and the reference values ζ_k are at most a tracked value of the horizon that lies in $\mathcal{C}_{i\ell}$. Therefore $\zeta_k \in \mathcal{C}_{i\ell}$ and $\Pr(D_{i\ell k} > \tau) \leq \varepsilon$ on every day $k \geq 1$.*

The proof is in Appendix A.2, page 124.

- **Models and repair laws.** The theorem holds for every model and both repair laws, because it uses only the facts (M1)–(M3) and Lemma 5.2.
- **Encodings and forms.** The theorem holds in both encodings and in every form of the reliability rows.
- **Phase lengths.** The theorem needs no relation between H_1 and H_2: the transitory phase may be shorter or longer than the operating phase, because H_1 only marks the day at which the operating phase starts.
- **Slack.** Slack in the tracked values does not weaken the theorem: the proof compares the reference trajectory with the tracked values, whatever slack they carry.

Why the anchors enter the loop. Under ARD_1 a larger anchor gives a weaker repair, so an anchor that grows over one repetition weakens the repairs of the next one. A loop row on the mean alone would accept an unsafe schedule. The derivation is in Appendix A.2, page 125.

For the same reason, the loop constraint compares the tracked statistics one by one and never a scalar function of them, such as a bound on the failure probability (Section 5.8 gives an example). The loop constraint states an order between tracked statistics; it is not a stochastic order between damage laws.

5.3.3 What the one-sided rows accept

Call a schedule *safe* for a component when the reference trajectory of the endless schedule lies in $\mathcal{C}_{i\ell}$ and in the natural ranges of the statistics on every day. The natural range of a statistic is an upper bound of its value at every point that satisfies the reliability row (Section 5.3.1). The one-sided rows relate to safety as follows.

- *They never accept an unsafe schedule* (Theorem 5.4).
- *They accept every schedule that equality rows accept*, and more. Equality rows force $\xi_k = \zeta_k$; Proposition 5.5 (a) shows that such a schedule satisfies the one-sided rows too. The first example below shows a safe schedule that only the one-sided rows accept.
- *They may reject a safe schedule*, as equality rows may. Proposition 5.5 (both parts) excludes this for a component in the exact form with one tracked statistic and the law ARD_∞. Otherwise a rejection can occur in two cases:
  - tracked statistics, anchors included, move in opposite directions over the first repetition (the second example below);
  - a linear form is stricter than the exact row.

A replacement on day H_1 causes no rejection: the start of the repetition y may lie above the

replacement state (Section 5.3).

Proposition 5.5 (Acceptance). *Fix a schedule and a component, use the exact reliability form, and let the schedule be safe for the component. Let* $\bar{\zeta} = \zeta_{H_1}$.

(a) If $\Pi(\bar{\zeta}) \le \bar{\zeta}$, *the rows of the component, the loop rows included, accept the schedule with* $\xi_k = \zeta_k$ *for every* k *and* $y = \bar{\zeta}$.

(b) If $\Pi(\bar{\zeta}) \ge \bar{\zeta}$, *the rows of the component accept the schedule.*

The proof is in Appendix A.2, page 125.

A component in the exact form with one tracked statistic under ARD_∞ accepts every safe schedule, whatever happens on day H_1. The derivation is in Appendix A.2, page 126. Under ARD_1 the anchor is a second coordinate of the state. The coordinates can move in opposite directions over a repetition, so $\Pi(\bar{\zeta})$ and $\bar{\zeta}$ may be incomparable. Then neither part applies, and it is not proven that the rows accept every safe schedule.

Example 5.6 (One statistic, accepted only by the one-sided rows). One tracked mean, law ARD_∞, $\rho = 0.5$. The operating phase is a mission ($\delta\mu = 0.2$) followed by a repair, so

$$\Pi(y) = 0.5\,(y + 0.2) = 0.5\,y + 0.1, \tag{68}$$

and $\Pi(y) \le y$ if and only if $y \ge 0.2$. Let $\bar{\zeta} = 0.1$.

- Equality rows:
$$\Pi(0.1) = 0.15 > 0.1, \tag{69}$$
so equality rows reject the schedule.
- One-sided rows: they accept it with $y = 0.2$. The tracked values over one repetition, from y, are $0.4, 0.2$, and the reliability row is checked at 0.4.
- Reference: the reference trajectory is $0.1, 0.3, 0.15, 0.35, 0.175, \ldots$. Its values at the start of each repetition rise to 0.2, and its peaks rise to 0.4. So the schedule is safe whenever $0.4 \in \mathcal{C}_{i\ell}$.

The drawback is in the reported cost: each repair is charged $\rho \cdot 0.4 = 0.2$, while the reference removal rises from 0.15 toward 0.2.

Example 5.7 (Two statistics that move in opposite directions, rejected). Cantelli bound, $\varepsilon = 0.1$ ($\kappa_C^2 = 9$), $\tau = 1$, $\rho = 0.5$, law ARD_∞. The operating phase is a mission, which adds 0.2 to the mean and 0.009 to the variance, followed by a repair. So

$$\Pi(\mu, v) = (0.5\,\mu + 0.1,\ 0.25\,v + 0.00225), \tag{70}$$

with fixed point $(0.2, 0.003)$. Let $\bar{\zeta} = (0.5, 0)$.

- Reference: over the repetitions the mean falls to 0.2 and the variance rises to 0.003. The first peak is $(0.7, 0.009)$, with
$$9 \cdot 0.009 = 0.081 \le 0.3^2 = 0.09. \tag{71}$$
Every later peak has a mean of at most 0.55 and a variance below 0.012, with
$$9 \cdot 0.012 = 0.108 \le 0.45^2 = 0.2025. \tag{72}$$

The schedule is safe.

- One-sided rows: the start rows and the loop rows need

$$y \geq \xi_{H_1} \geq (0.5, 0) \tag{73}$$

with $\Pi(y) \leq y$, so $y_v \geq 0.003$. The tracked peak is then at least $(0.7, 0.012)$, where

$$9 \cdot 0.012 = 0.108 > 0.09. \tag{74}$$

Rejected.

- Equality rows: $\Pi(\bar{\zeta}) = (0.35, 0.00225)$ has a larger variance than $\bar{\zeta}$. Rejected as well.

5.3.4 Replacements required by the loop constraint

A component may be replaced on any depot day of its member, any number of times, and a replacement costs $C_{\text{rep},i\ell}$ and nothing else (Section 5.4). The loop constraint can require at least one replacement in the operating phase, for two reasons. The first is the Wiener variance, which falls only by replacement (Section 5.15). The second is the repair law ARD_1.

Proposition 5.8 (Replacement under ARD_1)**.** *Let a component follow ARD_1 with $\rho < 1$, and let its member serve, in the operating phase, at least one mission with a positive mean increment for the component. Then every schedule that satisfies the loop constraint (57) replaces the component at least once in the operating phase.*

The proof is in Appendix A.2, page 126.

The requirement is a property of the repair law, not a side effect of the formulation. Without a replacement, each repair leaves in place the share $1 - \rho$ of the damage added since the last intervention. So the anchor rises with every repair, and the mean grows without bound over the repetitions of the operating phase.

Example. $\rho = 0.5$, and a mission adds 0.2 to the mean between two repairs; each repair leaves the mean 0.1 higher than the previous one. With $\rho = 1$ a repair returns the state to the anchor, and no replacement is needed.

When replacements are not allowed, the member of such a component cannot serve, in the operating phase, a mission with a positive mean increment for the component. If the fleet cannot cover the missions without such a mission, the problem is infeasible.

5.4 Cost function

The objective is to minimise the total cost of operating the fleet over the planning horizon. Four terms contribute to the cost:

$$\min \quad C_M\left(\{x_{i0k}\}_{i,k}\right) \; + \; C_R\left(\{z_{i\ell k}\}_{i,\ell,k}\right) \; + \; C_{\text{rep}}\left(\{x^r_{i\ell k}\}_{i,\ell,k}\right) + \; C_D\left(u\right). \tag{75}$$

We assume that all four cost functions are non-negative and non-decreasing in each argument. So the cost never decreases when the schedule has more depot days, removes more damage, replaces more components or accepts a higher aggregate damage.

The first three terms are the following.

- **Depot-day cost C_M.** The first term charges for every depot day of the fleet. It is paid once per member and depot day ($x_{i0k} = 1$), whatever the number of components repaired or replaced on that day. It prices the visit to the depot, for example the member out of service and the set-up of the work. An idle day costs nothing.
- **Repair cost C_R.** The second term is the cost of imperfect repairs: the cost of a repair grows with the damage removed, $z_{i\ell k}$.
- **Replacement cost C_{rep}.** The third term charges for every replacement.

The last term is the *damage penalty*, a regularisation term. The variable u is the largest aggregate expected damage over all members and days:

$$u \;=\; \max_{i,k}\; \phi\Big(\mathbb{E}[D_{i1k}],\; \ldots,\; \mathbb{E}[D_{iLk}]\Big), \tag{76}$$

where

$$\phi\colon \mathbb{R}^L \to \mathbb{R}_{\geq 0} \tag{77}$$

is a non-decreasing aggregation function. The formulation offers two penalty types.

- **Default type.** It takes ϕ as the sum of the expected component damages, which gives one linear row per member and day.
- **Quadratic type.** It takes ϕ as the sum of their squares, which gives one convex quadratic row per member and day. The quadratic type is used only with the exact form of the reliability rows, because the linear forms of those rows (Section 5.10) serve to keep the whole model linear.

The damage penalty sets the balance between low operating costs and an even spread of damage across the fleet. It prices the largest damage of a member, so the minimisation spreads damage across the fleet. It also removes slack from the tracked means where u is binding (Section 5.3.1).

By Proposition 5.3 and $\zeta_k \geq 0$, the tracked means satisfy

$$\mu_{i\ell k} \geq \zeta^{\mu}_{i\ell k} \geq 0. \tag{78}$$

So both penalty types computed from them are upper bounds on the same quantity computed from the reference values. The coefficient satisfies $C_D \geq 0$, because a negative C_D would reward damage.

At a component whose repair-cost coefficient is zero, the variables $z_{i\ell k}$ and their rows are dropped.

Objective modes. Let c_k be the cost of day k (the depot-day, repair and replacement terms of that day), and let

$$J_{\text{init}} = \sum_{k \leq H_1} c_k \qquad \text{and} \qquad J_{\text{op}} = \sum_{k > H_1} c_k \tag{79}$$

be the cost of the transitory phase and the cost of the operating phase. The formulation offers three objectives, and Table 15 compares them.

- **Operating average.** It is the long-run cost per day of the endless schedule, in which the cost of the transitory phase spreads over infinitely many days. It is comparable across values of H_2, whereas a raw objective over T days is not. The solver chooses the schedule of the transitory phase for feasibility and, when $C_D > 0$, for the damage penalty, because u also covers the transitory days.

Table 15: Objective modes of the formulation.

Mode	Objective	Meaning	Transitory phase
Total	$J_{\text{init}} + J_{\text{op}} + C_D\, u$	the cost of the T modelled days	priced by J_{init}
Operating average	$J_{\text{op}}/H_2 + C_D\, u$	the cost per day of the operating phase	no day cost, but still constrained and part of u
Evaluation total	$J_{\text{init}} + \frac{E-H_1}{H_2}\, J_{\text{op}} + C_D\, u$	the projected cost over an evaluation horizon of E days	priced by J_{init}

- **Evaluation total.** The E days hold the transitory phase once and then $(E - H_1)/H_2$ repetitions of the operating phase; a fraction of a repetition counts in proportion. Because it prices the transitory phase, it compares solves with different H_1. It needs $E > H_1$: for a smaller E the operating cost would have a negative weight.

The damage penalty is added once in every mode, because u is the maximum over the whole horizon.

> **Example.** $H_1 = 5$, $H_2 = 10$, $E = 365$. Then the evaluation total weights the operating cost by 36, and the operating average by 1/10.

The objective value is computed from the tracked values, so it is an upper bound on the cost of the schedule computed from the reference values (Section 5.3.1).

Repair cost. On a repair day, $z_{i\ell k}$ is the expected damage that the repair removes (Eq. (47)). The formulation writes it with the tracked mean μ and its anchor g^{μ}, with $g^{\mu} \equiv 0$ under ARD_∞:

$$z_{i\ell k} \;\geq\; \rho\left(\mu_{i\ell,k-1} - g^{\mu}_{i\ell,k-1}\right) - \rho\,\tau\left(1 - x^{m}_{i\ell k}\right), \qquad z_{i\ell k} \geq 0. \tag{80}$$

- **Repair day.** The first row reads

$$z_{i\ell k} \geq \rho\left(\mu_{i\ell,k-1} - g^{\mu}_{i\ell,k-1}\right), \tag{81}$$

  the amount that the repair map removes from the mean.

- **Any other day.** The right-hand side of the first row is at most 0, because

$$0 \leq \mu_{i\ell,k-1} - g^{\mu}_{i\ell,k-1} \leq \mu_{i\ell,k-1} \leq \tau. \tag{82}$$

  A replacement day has $x^{m}_{i\ell k} = 0$, so $z_{i\ell k} = 0$ at the optimum, and a replacement costs $C_{\text{rep},i\ell}$ only. The replaced part is discarded, so its damage does not change the price of the new part.

The variable $z_{i\ell k}$ appears in no row other than (80), and in the objective with a positive coefficient. The minimisation therefore drives it to the largest of its lower bounds.

> **Proposition 5.9** (What z measures). *In every feasible solution, on every repair day k of a component, under both laws,*
>
> $$z_{i\ell k} \;\geq\; \rho\left(\mu_{k-1} - g^{\mu}_{k-1}\right) \;\geq\; \rho\left(\zeta^{\mu}_{k-1} - \zeta^{g}_{k-1}\right), \tag{83}$$

where ζ^{μ} and ζ^{g} are the mean and its anchor on the reference trajectory (Section 5.3.1). When the starting anchor equals the true mean level after the last intervention before the horizon, the right-hand side is the expected damage that the repair removes.

The proof is in Appendix A.2, page 127.

The default starting anchor may lie above the true one (Section 5.16), and such an anchor models a weaker repair.

- **First repair.** Then, for the first repair of the horizon, when no intervention precedes it, the charged removal follows the starting anchor and may be below the true removal.
- **Later repairs.** From the first intervention on, the reference gap $\zeta^{\mu} - \zeta^{g}$ equals the true gap, the sum of the mean increments since that intervention, so the bound holds again.

Under both laws, then, the reported repair cost

$$\sum C_R \, z \tag{84}$$

is an upper bound on the expected repair cost of the schedule, with this exception for a starting anchor above the true one.

Under ARD_1 the tracked mean and the tracked anchor are both upper bounds, and their difference is still an upper bound on the reference difference. The reason is that the anchor carries the slack that the mean had at the last intervention, and the slack of the mean does not decrease until the next intervention. The bound is exact when the tracked mean has no slack.

5.5 Abstract problem formulation

The fleet management problem collects the objective (75), the scheduling constraints (41)–(43), the damage dynamics (50), the definition (47) of the repair-cost variable, the reliability constraint and the loop constraint (57):

$$\min_{x,\,x^m,\,x^r,\,z,\,u} \quad C_M\big(\{x_{i0k}\}\big) + C_R\big(\{z_{i\ell k}\}\big) + C_{\text{rep}}\big(\{x^r_{i\ell k}\}\big) + C_D(u) \tag{85a}$$

$$\text{s.t.} \quad \sum_{j=0}^{M} x_{ijk} \le 1 \qquad \forall\, i,\, k, \tag{85b}$$

$$\sum_{i=1}^{F} x_{ijk} = d_{jk} \qquad \forall\, j \ge 1,\, k, \tag{85c}$$

$$x^m_{i\ell k} + x^r_{i\ell k} \le x_{i0k} \qquad \forall\, i,\, \ell,\, k, \tag{85d}$$

$$D_{i\ell k} = D_{i\ell,k-1}(1 - x^m_{i\ell k})(1 - x^r_{i\ell k}) + \sum_{j=1}^{M} x_{ijk}\, \Delta D^{(j)}_{i\ell k} + \\ + \mathcal{R}(D_{i\ell,k-1}, \rho_{i\ell})\, x^m_{i\ell k} + D^{\text{new}}_{i\ell}\, x^r_{i\ell k} \qquad \forall\, i,\, \ell,\, k, \tag{85e}$$

$$D_{i\ell,0} = D^{\text{start}}_{i\ell} \qquad \forall\, i,\, \ell, \tag{85f}$$

$$\Pr(D_{i\ell k} > \tau) \le \varepsilon \qquad \forall\, i,\, \ell,\, k, \tag{85g}$$

$$y_{i\ell} \ge \xi_{i\ell H_1}, \quad \xi_{i\ell T} \le y_{i\ell} \quad \text{(componentwise)} \qquad \forall\, i,\, \ell, \tag{85h}$$

$$z_{i\ell k} = x^m_{i\ell k}\,\big(\mathbb{E}[D_{i\ell,k-1}] - \mathbb{E}[D_{i\ell k}]\big) \qquad \forall\, i,\, \ell,\, k, \tag{85i}$$

$$u = \max_{i,k}\ \phi\big(\mathbb{E}[D_{i1k}], \ldots, \mathbb{E}[D_{iLk}]\big), \tag{85j}$$

$$x_{ijk},\, x^m_{i\ell k},\, x^r_{i\ell k} \in \{0,1\}, \quad z_{i\ell k} \ge 0, \quad u \ge 0. \tag{85k}$$

Here $\xi_{i\ell k}$ is the tracked state and $y_{i\ell}$ the start of the repetition of Section 5.3. The rows of day H_1+1 that read the state of the day before read $y_{i\ell}$ in place of $\xi_{i\ell H_1}$. When $C_D = 0$, the variable u and row (85j) are not built (Section 5.4). The constraints have three groups.

- The fleet rows (assignment and depot days) do not depend on the degradation models.
- The common rules of the dynamics (repair laws, one-sided encoding, replacement, linear forms of the reliability rows) hold for every model.
- Each model adds its tracked statistics, day maps and reliability row (Section 5.15).

The rows of the repair cost, of the damage penalty and of the loop constraint complete the problem. All rows hold for every day $k = 1, \ldots, T$ unless a section says otherwise.

Problem (85) is a stochastic combinatorial optimisation problem. It does not fix the degradation model (the distribution of $\Delta D^{(j)}_{i\ell k}$), the repair law (the operator $\mathcal{R}$), the aggregation function ϕ or the cost structure (the functions $C_M, C_R, C_{\text{rep}}, C_D$). A concrete fleet fixes all of them. For a fleet of electric vehicles, Section 4.1.8 gives the degradation family of each component, and Section 8.1 gives linear cost functions.

5.6 Discrete-time formulation

This subsection restates the damage-accumulation models of Section 4 in the discrete-time setting of the formulation.

The fleet management setting of Section 5 samples the continuous-time processes of Table 2 once a day. On each day k, the damage of component (i, ℓ) grows by a random increment $\Delta D^{(j)}_{i\ell k}$,

whose distribution depends on the mission j served that day. The cumulative damage after k days is therefore a random walk

$$D_{i\ell k} \;=\; D_{i\ell,0} \;+\; \sum_{t=1}^{k} \Delta D_{i\ell t}, \tag{86}$$

where the increments $\Delta D_{i\ell t}$ are independent but *not* identically distributed (different missions may be served on different days). Table 16 restates the three models in this discrete-time setting.

Table 16: Discrete-time specialisation of the damage-accumulation models. Each row gives the distribution of a one-day increment ΔD and the resulting marginal of $D_k = \sum_{t=1}^{k} \Delta D_t$ when all increments share the parameters required for closure.

Model	**Increment** ΔD_t	**Marginal** D_k (homogeneous)	**Closure condition**
Gamma	$\mathrm{Ga}(\alpha_t,\, \beta)$	$\mathrm{Ga}\big(\sum_t \alpha_t,\, \beta\big)$	Same rate β
Gaussian	$\mathcal{N}(\mu_t,\, \sigma_t^2)$	$\mathcal{N}\big(\sum_t \mu_t,\, \sum_t \sigma_t^2\big)$	Always
Inv. Gaussian	$\mathrm{IG}(\mu_t,\, \lambda_t)$	$\mathrm{IG}\big(\sum_t \mu_t,\, \frac{(\sum_t \mu_t)^3}{\sum_t (\mu_t^3/\lambda_t)}\big)$	Same μ^2/λ

The closure conditions decide whether the marginal distribution of $D_{i\ell k}$ stays in the same parametric family when increments of different missions are summed. When the condition holds, the distribution of $D_{i\ell k}$ has a closed form in the cumulative parameters. This closed form is essential for an efficient evaluation of the reliability constraint $\Pr(D_{i\ell k} > \tau) \le \varepsilon$. When the condition does not hold, for example for a sum of Gamma increments with different rates, the marginal must be computed numerically or approximated.

In the fleet management problem of Section 5, the increment of each day has parameters that depend on the mission. Closure therefore requires one value of the shared parameter for all missions of a component: the rate β for Gamma, or the dispersion μ^2/λ for inverse Gaussian.

- **Gamma.** The shape parameters may vary freely across missions, and they add up.
- **Gaussian.** The mean and variance parameters may vary freely across missions, and they add up. No restriction is needed: normal random variables are closed under addition without conditions.
- **Inverse Gaussian.** The means add up, and the shared dispersion d determines the cumulative shape $\lambda_{1:k}$,

$$\lambda_{1:k} = \Big(\sum_t \mu_t\Big)^2 \Big/ d, \qquad d = \mu_t^2/\lambda_t \text{ for every } t. \tag{87}$$

5.7 Conservative surrogates for the empirical damage-increment distribution

In the remaining-life setting, the increment of mission j is the Palmgren–Miner contribution

$$\Delta D^{(j)} = \sum_i n_i / N_{f,i} \tag{88}$$

of Equation (12). In our intended use, its distribution is *measured*, not postulated. Rainflow counting is the standard method that extracts the load cycles from a load history. A rainflow count [62] of the load histories recorded for mission j gives an empirical probability density of the non-negative increment $\Delta D^{(j)}$.

We choose *not* to fit a parametric law to this density. A fit ties the model to one data set and one functional form, and so it weakens the generality that the abstract formulation seeks.

Instead, we summarise the density by a few *functionals*, that is, numbers computed from the distribution (moments, support, selected quantiles), and we replace it by a *conservative* surrogate. Here, conservative means that the surrogate never *under*states the damage. Then the reliability constraint $\Pr(D_{i\ell k} > \tau) \le \varepsilon$ and the loop constraint (57) stay valid by construction.

Two features of the problem limit the admissible options.

- **Accumulated damage.** Both constraints act on the *accumulated* damage

$$D = \sum_t \Delta D_t \tag{89}$$

  of Equation (86), not on a single increment. So the surrogate must be evaluated after summation.

- **No closure under summation.** None of the standard S–N scatter families is closed under summation (see the contrast above). So the law of D in general has no closed form, and it must be bounded or replaced by a surrogate from a family closed under convolution.

Route I, defined below, never needs the moments or the support of the accumulated damage D in advance. It uses only information *per mission*, and the schedule combines this information through the assignment counts.

Fix a component (i, ℓ) and an accumulation window, and write $D = D_{i\ell}$ for its damage over that window. Let

$$n_{ij} = \sum_t x_{ijt} \tag{90}$$

be the number of days on which member i serves mission j. Model the repeated executions of mission j on component ℓ as independent draws from an increment law of the mission. This law has mean $\mu_{\ell j}$, variance $v_{\ell j}$, support $[0, b_{\ell j}]$ and cumulant generating function

$$\psi_{\ell j}(s) = \ln \mathbb{E}\big[e^{s\Delta D^{(j)}}\big], \tag{91}$$

where $\mathbb{E}[e^{sX}]$ is the moment generating function (MGF) of X. Independence across days then gives

$$\mathbb{E}[D] = \sum_j n_{ij}\,\mu_{\ell j}, \qquad \mathrm{Var}[D] = \sum_j n_{ij}\,v_{\ell j}, \qquad \ln M_D(s) = \sum_j n_{ij}\,\psi_{\ell j}(s). \tag{92}$$

- **Linearity.** Each functional of D is therefore a sum of quantities of the missions, weighted by the counts. It is linear in the schedule.

- **Support.** The support enters through the support $b_{\ell j}$ of each mission; only the closed form of Bernstein's inequality merges the supports into one shared value (see below).

- **Repetitions.** Repetitions enter the description of the tail additively. Serving mission j a total of n_{ij} times multiplies its cumulant generating function by n_{ij}, and different missions add up. So a mission that causes little damage keeps its small $\psi_{\ell j}$ beside a mission that causes much damage; the two are not averaged.

These per-mission functionals support the bound of Route I. Route I bounds the upper tail of D directly from the functionals in (92).

Per-mission inputs keep the differences between missions. Suppose that all summands share one worst-case support

$$b = \max_j b_{\ell j}. \tag{93}$$

Then Bernstein's inequality treats every mission as the most damaging one, and it loses the differences between missions that the schedule exploits. This loss comes from the closed form of Bernstein's inequality, not from Route I. With inputs kept per term, each bound keeps the support and the tail of every mission.

- **Hoeffding.** Hoeffding's inequality reads

$$\Pr(D - \mathbb{E}[D] > a) \le \exp\big(-2a^2 / \sum_j n_{ij} b_{\ell j}^2\big) \tag{94}$$

  with $a = \tau - \mathbb{E}[D]$, where mission j enters only through its own $b_{\ell j}^2$.

- **Chernoff.** The Chernoff bound (22) becomes the count-weighted reliability constraint

$$\Pr(D > \tau) \;\le\; \inf_{s>0} \exp\Big(-s\tau + \sum_j n_{ij}\, \psi_{\ell j}(s)\Big), \tag{95}$$

  in which each mission contributes its own cumulant generating function $\psi_{\ell j}$.

For a fixed s the exponent is linear in the assignment counts, so (95) is a linear reliability constraint. The infimum couples s to the counts. For a fixed schedule it is a one-dimensional convex problem. Its minimiser $s^\star$ solves

$$\sum_j n_{ij}\, \psi'_{\ell j}(s) = \tau : \tag{96}$$

the exponentially tilted mean of D (its mean under the law reweighted by e^{sD}) equals τ. But $s^\star$ depends on the counts. So one either fixes a conservative s (every $s > 0$ gives a valid bound) or sweeps a small grid of values.

Bernstein's inequality is the only Route I bound that does not allow this per-mission treatment. The reason is the same coupling, seen from the other side: its closed form needs a *single* support constant b_ℓ in the correction term. Only the variance stays per mission.

Between replacements the damage is a weighted sum, with weights in $[0, 1]$, of the terms of the initial or replacement damage and of the increments. Bernstein's inequality needs a bound on every centred term. So the constant is

$$b_\ell = \max\{b_\ell^{\text{start}},\, b_\ell^{\text{new}},\, \max_j b_{\ell j}\}, \tag{97}$$

where b_ℓ^{start} and b_ℓ^{new} bound the terms of the initial and of the replacement damage, and are 0 for a known damage.

Explicitly, with $\kappa = \ln(1/\varepsilon)$, the reliability constraint $\Pr(D > \tau) \le \varepsilon$ becomes

$$\sum_j n_{ij}\, \mu_{\ell j} \;+\; \frac{\kappa\, b_\ell}{3} \;+\; \sqrt{\Big(\tfrac{\kappa\, b_\ell}{3}\Big)^2 + 2\kappa \sum_j n_{ij}\, v_{\ell j}} \;\le\; \tau, \tag{98}$$

a constraint whose left-hand side is *concave* in the assignment counts. An equivalent form is

$$(\kappa b_\ell/3)^2 + 2\kappa \sum_j n_{ij} v_{\ell j} \le \Big(\tau - \kappa b_\ell/3 - \sum_j n_{ij}\mu_{\ell j}\Big)^2, \tag{99}$$

together with the side row

$$\sum_j n_{ij}\mu_{\ell j} \le \tau - \kappa b_\ell/3, \tag{100}$$

which keeps the bracket non-negative.

The feasible set of (98) is reverse-convex (its complement is convex); it cannot be written as a second-order cone. In the classical chance constraint of a second-order cone program (SOCP), the variance is a convex quadratic function of the decisions. Here, independence across days makes the variance affine, and this reverses the curvature.

For a mixed-integer linear program (MILP) this curvature helps. One can replace the square root in (98) by a fixed tangent, or by the pointwise minimum of several tangents.

The closed form (98), which has no s, uses one support constant; with a support per mission, the bound keeps the minimisation over s. The derivation of these properties of (98) is in Appendix A.2, page 127.

Guaranteed bound versus estimate. For (95) to be a true bound, the per-mission ingredient must be an *upper* bound on $\psi_{\ell j}$. Two per-mission choices are enough, and both keep the support local.

- **Mean-and-support bound.** For an increment whose range is $[0, b_{\ell j}]$, so that it starts at 0, the first is
$$\psi_{\ell j}(s) \le \ln\bigl(1 + (\mu_{\ell j}/b_{\ell j})(e^{sb_{\ell j}} - 1)\bigr), \tag{101}$$
which the two-point law on $\{0, b_{\ell j}\}$ attains.
- **Empirical cumulant generating function.** It is an estimate, not a bound, built from the recorded executions of the mission; Section 7 describes it.

A mission served many times has a sharper description of its tail, because more recorded executions shrink the confidence margin (Section 7).

In summary, the formulation certifies the reliability constraint of a component with measured increments by one of five Route-I bounds, chosen per component: Markov, Cantelli, Hoeffding, Bernstein or Chernoff. The loop constraint acts on the statistics that the chosen bound tracks (Section 5.8), so it needs no surrogate law.

The five bounds of the formulation. The rainflow model of the formulation is *distribution-free*. The law of a mission increment is measured from recorded load histories by rainflow counting (Palmgren–Miner damage). It enters the model only through summary statistics: its mean and, as the bound requires, its variance, the width of its range or its cumulant generating function at a fixed point s. No parametric family is assumed.

Each bound tracks the mean μ_k of the damage on day k and at most one more statistic. The second statistic is the variance v_k, the *Hoeffding budget* R_k (the sum of the squared range widths of the terms of the damage), or the cumulant generating function $K_k = \ln \mathbb{E}\bigl[e^{sD_k}\bigr]$ at a fixed point $s > 0$.

Table 17 lists the rows, with $\kappa = \ln(1/\varepsilon)$ and $c = \kappa\, b_\ell/3$. Each row is the corresponding tail bound of this section, solved for the target ε and written in the tracked statistics. If the tracked values satisfy a row and are at least the true statistics of the damage, the bound gives $\Pr(D_k > \tau) \le \varepsilon$. The rows rest on four modelling assumptions, A0 to A3, which Section 6 states.

Table 17: Reliability rows of the five Route-I bounds, on every day k of the horizon. μ_k: tracked mean; v_k: tracked variance; R_k: tracked Hoeffding budget; K_k: tracked cumulant generating function at the fixed point s.

Bound	Tracked statistics	Reliability row
Markov	μ	$\mu_k \le \varepsilon\,\tau$
Cantelli	μ, v	$(1-\varepsilon)\,v_k \le \varepsilon\,(\tau-\mu_k)^2, \quad \mu_k \le \tau$
Hoeffding	μ, R	$(\tau-\mu_k)^2 \ge (\kappa/2)\,R_k, \quad \mu_k \le \tau$
Bernstein	μ, v	$(\tau-c-\mu_k)^2 \ge c^2 + 2\kappa\,v_k, \quad \mu_k \le \tau - c$
Chernoff	μ, K	$K_k - s\,\tau \le \ln\varepsilon$

Width of a range. The support of an increment X is the width b of an interval $[l, l+b]$ that contains X almost surely. The width has this one meaning in every bound, and a width of 0 means that the increment is known. Hoeffding's inequality uses the widths. Bernstein's inequality needs an upper bound of the centred term, and the width is one.

A width w is consistent with a variance v only if $v \le w^2/4$ (Popoviciu's inequality). The width is the only information on the range, and the range may start at any point $l \ge 0$. The inequality $\operatorname{Var} X \le w^2/4$ holds for every such position, so it is a necessary condition for the pair (variance, width). The derivations of the bound on the centred term and of Popoviciu's inequality are in Appendix A.2, page 128.

For example, increments in an interval of width 0.2 have variance at most 0.01; a two-point law on $\{0, 0.2\}$ with probability $1/2$ each has mean 0.1 and reaches 0.01.

A condition of the form $v \le \mu\,(b-\mu)$ assumes that the range starts at 0, so it is not a necessary condition when only the width is known.

Day maps of the statistics. Between replacements the damage is

$$D_k = \sum_t w_t X_t : \tag{102}$$

the X_t are the known part, the independent terms of the initial damage or of the replacement draw, and the mission increments. Each weight $w_t \in [0,1]$ is a product of factors $1-\rho$, and a term of weight 0, possible when $\rho = 1$, is dropped.

Under ARD_1, write $D^- = G + \Delta$, with G the damage just after the last intervention and Δ the weighted increments added since. G and Δ are independent by A1, and a repair gives $D^+ = G + (1-\rho)\,\Delta$. Before the first intervention, G is the part of the initial damage that the starting anchors describe (Section 5.16).

For a damage

$$D = \sum_t w_t X_t, \tag{103}$$

write

$$m(D) = \mathbb{E}D, \qquad V(D) = \operatorname{Var} D, \qquad R(D) = \sum_t w_t^2 r_t, \qquad K(D) = \ln \mathbb{E}\, e^{sD}, \tag{104}$$

with r_t the squared width of X_t.

Proposition 5.10 (Day maps of the statistics). *Let $\theta \in \{m, V, R\}$, with factor $a_\theta = 1-\rho$ for m and $a_\theta = (1-\rho)^2$ for V and R. Under A1:*

1. *a mission day adds the statistic of the increment:*

$$\theta(D+X) = \theta(D) + \theta(X) \quad \text{and} \quad K(D+X) = K(D) + K(X); \tag{105}$$

2. *under ARD_∞:*

$$\theta\big((1-\rho)D\big) = a_\theta\,\theta(D) \quad \text{and} \quad K\big((1-\rho)D\big) \le (1-\rho)\,K(D); \tag{106}$$

3. *under ARD_1:*

$$\theta(D^+) = a_\theta\,\theta(D^-) + (1-a_\theta)\,\theta(G) \quad \text{and} \quad K(D^+) \le (1-\rho)\,K(D^-) + \rho\,K(G). \tag{107}$$

The proof is in Appendix A.2, page 128.

So each tracked statistic follows the repair map $a\,\theta + (1-a)\,g$ of Section 5.16, with $a = 1-\rho$ for μ and K, and $a = (1-\rho)^2$ for v and R. Its anchor is its value just after the last intervention.

The maps of μ, v and R are exact; the map of K is an upper bound, which is what the domination argument of Section 5.3.1 needs. Hence each true statistic of D_k, written m, V, R^{t} and K^{t}, is at most the tracked statistic of the same name (Proposition 5.3).

Derivation and validity of the rows. Each row of Table 17 gives $\Pr(D_k > \tau) \le \varepsilon$ when the tracked statistics satisfy it and are at least the true statistics of D_k. The derivation also gives the following properties of the rows.

- **Markov.** The row uses the mean only and does not need A1 or A2.
- **Cantelli.** The row is equivalent to

$$\mu_k + \kappa_C\sqrt{v_k} \le \tau \quad \text{with} \quad \kappa_C = \sqrt{(1-\varepsilon)/\varepsilon}. \tag{108}$$

- **Bernstein.** The support constant b_ℓ of (98) is a constant, not a decision variable; the replacement support enters it only when replacements are allowed.
- **Chernoff.** The row bounds K by $s\tau - \kappa$, its natural range, and $K \ge 0$. So a known zero damage satisfies the row only if $s\tau \ge \kappa$, and a replacement day satisfies it only if the replacement value of K is at most $s\tau - \kappa$.

The derivation is in Appendix A.2, page 128.

The Bernstein side row. The quadratic Bernstein row alone also admits the point $\mu_k = \tau$, $v_k = 0$: a known damage equal to τ. That point is safe; for $c > 0$ it is separated from the rest of the feasible set. The side row $\mu_k \le \tau - c$ removes it and keeps the branch

$$\tau - \mu_k \ge c + \sqrt{c^2 + 2\kappa v_k} \tag{109}$$

of (98). At $\mu_k = v_k = 0$ the row needs $\tau \ge 2c$, and a positive variance is feasible only if

$$\tau > 2c = 2\kappa b_\ell/3. \tag{110}$$

Initial and replacement values of the Chernoff statistic. The statistic K_k is the cumulant generating function of the whole damage, initial damage included.

- **Known damage.** A known initial damage μ_0 gives the initial value $K_0 = s\,\mu_0$, and a known replacement damage μ^{new} gives the reset value $s\,\mu^{\text{new}}$.
- **Random damage.** A random initial or replacement damage needs its own cumulant generating function at s, which is larger.
- **Lower bounds.** The cumulant generating function of every increment at s is at least s times its mean. Also the initial value and the replacement value of K are at least s times the corresponding mean. An input check enforces these inequalities (Section 10.1.2).

The derivation, from Jensen's inequality, is in Appendix A.2, page 130.

A start at $K_0 = 0$ ignores the initial damage and can accept an unsafe schedule.

Example. $\tau = 1$, $\varepsilon = 0.1$, $s = 5$, a known initial damage $\mu_0 = 0.6$, and one mission that adds 0 or 0.5 with probability 1/2 each. The cumulant generating function of the mission at s is $\ln(0.5 + 0.5\,e^{2.5}) = 1.886$. The true failure probability is 0.5.

- With $K_0 = 0$ the row reads

$$1.886 - 5 = -3.11 \le \ln 0.1 = -2.30 \tag{111}$$

  and accepts the schedule.

- With $K_0 = s\,\mu_0 = 3$ the row reads

$$4.886 - 5 = -0.11 > -2.30 \tag{112}$$

  and rejects it.

In the same way, the Hoeffding budget of a known damage is 0, because its range has width 0, and a random initial or replacement damage needs its own budget. So the defaults of the formulation describe a known initial damage and a known replacement damage: zero variance, zero support, zero budget, and $K = s$ times the mean.

5.8 The loop constraint under the Route-I bounds

The probability comparison (53) asks for $\Pr(D_T > \tau) \le \Pr(D_{H_1} > \tau)$, so that repeating the schedule keeps the failure probability below ε without end. Under Route I we never observe these probabilities. We have only an upper bound $U_k \ge \Pr(D_k > \tau)$ from one of the bounds of Table 17, for example the count-weighted Chernoff bound (95) or the Bernstein constraint (98).

We write $U^{(n)}$ for the bound on day $H_1 + nH_2$, the end of the n-th repetition of the operating phase, so $U^{(0)} = U_{H_1}$ and $U^{(1)} = U_T$. A natural translation replaces both sides by their bounds and imposes $U^{(1)} \le U^{(0)}$. This condition is *not* sufficient for repeatability, and the reason needs a precise look.

Why $U^{(1)} \le U^{(0)}$ does not chain. The bound U is a many-to-one function of the parameters of the state, and its level sets are not invariant under the dynamics. So the relation

$$U^{(2)} \;>\; U^{(1)} \;=\; U^{(0)} \tag{113}$$

is possible: the certified bound can rise slowly over the repetitions, and the inequality over one repetition does not carry over by induction. The derivation is in Appendix A.2, page 130.

A concrete instance[1] has $\tau = 10$, $b_\ell = 3$, $\rho = 0.5$, and an operating phase of one ARD_∞ repair day followed by mission days with

$$\sum_j n_{ij}\mu_{\ell j} = 3, \qquad \sum_j n_{ij}v_{\ell j} = 3.99, \qquad \big(\mathbb{E}[D_{H_1}], \mathrm{Var}[D_{H_1}]\big) = (4, 9). \tag{114}$$

- **Cantelli.** The bound gives $U^{(0)} = 0.2000$ and $U^{(1)} = 0.1997 \le U^{(0)}$, but $U^{(2)} = 0.2151 > U^{(0)}$, and $U^{(n)} \to 0.2495$.
- **Bernstein.** A similar instance (variance 3.15 added over the operating phase) also fails at the second repetition: $U^{(0)} = 0.3012$, $U^{(1)} = 0.3006$ and $U^{(2)} = 0.3247$.
- **Loop constraint.** The loop constraint (57) rejects both, since $\mathbb{E}[D_T] = 5 > 4$.

A fixed margin $\delta > 0$, $U^{(1)} \le U^{(0)} - \delta$, does not fix this. Every such margin rejects a schedule whose bound repeats exactly, $U^{(1)} = U^{(0)}$. A small margin still admits the rise: for Cantelli with $U^{(0)} = 0.2$, instances that satisfy it and still fail exist for every $\delta < 0.088$. The defect is that the level sets are not invariant, not a constant gap.

The certificate stays valid in every repetition. This worsening is not hidden: it can be detected. Each statistic that Route I tracks follows a monotone recursion under the dynamics (50): the mean, the variance, the Hoeffding budget and the cumulant generating function at a fixed point s.

- **Increment.** Increments add to the statistic.
- **Imperfect repair.** An imperfect repair maps it from θ to $a\,\theta + (1-a)\,g$, with its anchor g and a factor $a \in [0, 1]$ (Section 5.16).
- **Replacement.** A replacement resets it.

The recursions are exact for the mean, the variance and the Hoeffding budget, and an upper bound for the cumulant generating function (see below).

Consequently U_k is a valid bound on *every* day of the endless schedule, $\Pr(D_k > \tau) \le U_k$. The true probability can exceed ε only if U_k itself does. Repeatability therefore needs a loop condition that forces $U_k \le \varepsilon$ on every such day. So the condition must act on a statistic that both determines U and propagates monotonically, not on the scalar U, which loses information.

The loop on the moments (the natural condition). For the Cantelli and Bernstein bounds, the loop constraint (57) acts on the tracked moments,

$$\mathbb{E}[D_T] \;\le\; \mathbb{E}[D_{H_1}] \qquad \text{and} \qquad \mathrm{Var}[D_T] \;\le\; \mathrm{Var}[D_{H_1}], \tag{115}$$

and, under ARD_1, on their anchors g^μ and g^v in the same way. The moments evolve as monotone recursions, and componentwise domination chains. So the certified risk does not increase across repetitions,

$$U^{(n)} \;\le\; U^{(0)} \;\le\; \varepsilon, \tag{116}$$

[1] The script `loop_routeI_instance.py` in the folder `archive/merge-2026/analysis/scripts/scoping_checks` of the repository reproduces these numbers.

and the schedule is repeatable. The derivation is in Appendix A.2, page 130.

Both inequalities in (115) are linear in the tracked moments $(\mathbb{E}[D_k], \mathrm{Var}[D_k])$. The model carries these moments as auxiliary variables, and big-M rows or indicator constraints encode their recursion linearly. So the loop adds one linear constraint per tracked moment and per anchor. These constraints are strictly stronger than the single relation $U^{(1)} \leq U^{(0)}$, and this stronger form is exactly what makes the induction valid.

The loop on the cumulant generating function under imperfect repair. If the Chernoff bound with a fixed s certifies the reliability instead, the loop acts on the tracked cumulant generating function,

$$K_T \;\leq\; K_{H_1}. \tag{117}$$

Without imperfect repair, (117) carries over by induction. An imperfect (ARD) repair does not keep this scalar exact. The tracked statistic then follows

$$K \mapsto (1-\rho)\,K \quad \text{under ARD}_\infty, \qquad K \mapsto (1-\rho)\,K + \rho\, g^K \quad \text{under ARD}_1, \tag{118}$$

with the anchor g^K. These maps are non-decreasing in (K, g^K), and the tracked K stays an upper bound on the true cumulant generating function, which is all that the Chernoff certificate needs. The derivation is in Appendix A.2, page 131.

Theorem 5.4 then applies: the loop row on K, and on its anchor under ARD_1, chains under both repair laws. The cost is slack: after a repair, the tracked K exceeds the true value. The moments need no such bound, because a repair acts on each of them through a fixed power of $1-\rho$, which keeps their recursion exact.

Summary. Under Route I the loop constraint must act on statistics that determine the bound and that propagate by themselves through the dynamics, never on the scalar bound U. The formulation imposes the loop constraint (57) on the statistics of the chosen bound; Table 18 lists them for each bound. Under ARD_1 the anchors of these statistics enter the loop too.

The loop is valid for every bound and for both repair laws. In every case the guarantee is that the *certified* risk does not worsen. Hence $\Pr(D_k > \tau) \leq \varepsilon$ on every day of the endless schedule. This is the practical meaning of repeatability for a model based on bounds.

Table 18: Statistics on which the Route-I loop constraint acts, for each bound, and the recursion that tracks them under the dynamics.

Bound	Statistics in the loop constraint	Recursion of the statistics
Markov	the mean	exact
Cantelli, Bernstein	the mean and the variance (115)	exact
Hoeffding	the mean and the Hoeffding budget	exact
Chernoff	the mean and the cumulant generating function (117)	exact for the mean; an upper bound for the cumulant generating function

5.9 Two refinements of the Route-I constraints: schedule-dependent support and piecewise-linear tightening

Two identifiable sources of slack remain in the Route-I constraints. Standard mixed-integer constructions can remove both, at a cost in binaries and rows that can be quantified.

- **Schedule-dependent support.** The first one, a schedule-dependent support, is not part of the formulation, which uses the constant support of Section 5.7.
- **Piecewise-linear tightening.** The formulation includes the second one, the piecewise-linear tightening, as the form `pwl` of its reliability rows (Section 5.10).

Neither refinement changes the loop argument of Section 5.8. The moment condition (115) acts on the exactly tracked moments, and it does not depend on how tightly the certificate is enforced on them.[2]

Schedule-dependent Bernstein support.

- **Slack.** The closed form (98) carries the single constant

$$b_\ell \;=\; \max\{b_\ell^{\text{start}},\, b_\ell^{\text{new}},\, \max_j b_{\ell j}\}. \tag{119}$$

  This constant includes the supports b_ℓ^{start}, b_ℓ^{new} of the initial and replacement draws. So a component pays the support of the most damaging mission even if the schedule never assigns that mission to it. The effect is not small, because the correction $\kappa b_\ell/3$ enters twice at zero variance: even the empty schedule satisfies (98) only if $2\kappa b_\ell/3 \le \tau$.

- **Example.** Take $\varepsilon = 0.01$ ($\kappa = \ln 100 \approx 4.605$), $\tau = 1$, two missions with supports $b_{\ell 1} = 0.02$ and $b_{\ell 2} = 0.30$, initial and replacement supports 0.02, and moments per day of mission 1 $\mu_{\ell 1} = 0.01$, $v_{\ell 1} = 4 \cdot 10^{-6}$. Consider a component that never serves mission 2.
  - The constraint with the constant b_ℓ ($\kappa b_\ell/3 = 0.4605$) leaves a mean budget of 0.079 and admits at most $n_{i1} = 7$ days of mission 1.
  - The same constraint evaluated with the supports actually present ($\kappa b_\ell/3 = 0.0307$) leaves 0.939 and admits $n_{i1} = 90$.

  The gap is a factor of 12.9, and it comes entirely from the unused $b_{\ell 2}$. If $b_{\ell 2}$ rises to 0.35, then

$$2\kappa b_\ell/3 \;=\; 1.075 \;>\; \tau, \tag{120}$$

  and the model with the constant b_ℓ becomes infeasible for a component that never serves mission 2.

- **Tightened constant.** The tightened constant is

$$b_\ell(\zeta) \;=\; \max\big\{b_\ell^{\text{start}},\, b_\ell^{\text{new}},\, \max_{j:\,\zeta_{ij}=1} b_{\ell j}\big\}. \tag{121}$$

  Here $\zeta_{ij} \in \{0,1\}$ marks the missions that member i actually serves ($\zeta_{ij} \ge x_{ijt}$ for all t; only this direction of the forcing is needed). The constant $b_\ell(\zeta)$ bounds every summand of the state, and Bernstein's inequality applies without change, on every day and in every repetition of the schedule.

- **Rows.** A monotonicity observation makes $b_\ell(\zeta)$ implementable without a nonlinear tracking of the maximum: the Bernstein row written for a larger constant implies every row

[2] Every monotonicity and equivalence claim in this subsection, both worked examples and the comparison between the union and the intersection of the tangent regions are checked, symbolically or numerically, by the scripts `refine_schedule_support.py` and `refine_pwl_tightening.py`. The scripts and their outputs are in the folder `archive/merge-2026/analysis/scripts/scoping_checks` of the repository.

written for a smaller one. Consequently, impose the row with the per-mission constant c_j *conditionally on* $\zeta_{ij} = 1$, together with one unconditional row at c_0, where

$$c_j \;=\; \kappa \max\{b_{\ell j}, b_\ell^{\text{start}}, b_\ell^{\text{new}}\}/3, \qquad c_0 \;=\; \kappa \max\{b_\ell^{\text{start}}, b_\ell^{\text{new}}\}/3. \tag{122}$$

These rows are exactly equivalent to the single row with the schedule-dependent maximum. The derivation of this equivalence and of the validity of $b_\ell(\zeta)$ is in Appendix A.2, page 131.

- **Cost.** The cost is one binary per pair of member and mission ($F \cdot M$ in total), their linking rows and the conditional certificate rows of each mission. All of them are linear in the new variables. The rows of the tangent surrogate attach to ζ_{ij} by indicator constraints or by big-M rows. Written as $2\kappa v \le \dots$, these rows have the uniform valid constant $2\tau(\tau - c_0)$ for every mission with $2c_j < \tau$; a mission with $2c_j \ge \tau$ gets $\zeta_{ij} = 0$ and no row. The exact quadratic rows must use big-M, because Gurobi's indicator constraints enforce a linear constraint [40].
- **Side effects.** Two side effects are worth recording.
  1. Big-M constants derived from the largest admissible variance must be recomputed from c_0. The feasible region has grown, and a bound taken from the old constant b_ℓ would cut it.
  2. The feasibility precondition $2\kappa b_\ell/3 < \tau$ becomes local: only c_0 must satisfy it. A mission with $2c_j > \tau$ simply forces $\zeta_{ij} = 0$; at $2c_j = \tau$ its row admits only $\mu = v = 0$. So that mission is never assigned to that component, and the whole model does not become inconsistent.
- **Effect left out.** By choice, the refinement does *not* capture one further effect. The repair weights shrink the support of each summand further, to $w_t\, b_{\ell j}$. Exploiting this needs a running maximum over products of repair factors and mission indicators that depend on the schedule, a truly nonlinear refinement. The variable ζ, defined over the whole window, captures the first-order gap: missions that are never served.

Piecewise-linear tightening of the tangent surrogates.

- **Slack of one tangent.** The linear surrogate with one fixed tangent (the device described after (98)) has a conservatism that grows quadratically with the mean. Cantelli's bound (21) is at most ε if and only if

$$\mathbb{E}[D] + \kappa_C \sqrt{\mathrm{Var}[D]} \;\le\; \tau, \qquad \text{with} \qquad \kappa_C = \sqrt{(1-\varepsilon)/\varepsilon}. \tag{123}$$

Write (μ, v) for the tracked moments. The exact feasible set is

$$\kappa_C^2\, v \;\le\; f(\mu) := (\tau - \mu)^2, \tag{124}$$

and the tangent at $\mu_r = 0$ gives the linear row $\kappa_C^2\, v \le \tau^2 - 2\tau\mu$. Since $f(\mu) - (\tau^2 - 2\tau\mu) = \mu^2$, the surrogate loses exactly μ^2/κ_C^2 of admissible variance. It reaches zero at $\mu = \tau/2$, and it excludes *every* point with $\mu > \tau/2$, a deterministic component included. The exact set still admits

$$v \;=\; (\tau - \mu)^2/\kappa_C^2 \;>\; 0 \tag{125}$$

up to $\mu = \tau$.

- **Several tangents: union, not intersection.** The refinement takes tangents at several points μ_r. Each row

$$\kappa_C^2\, v \;\le\; T_r(\mu) := (\tau - \mu_r)(\tau + \mu_r - 2\mu) \tag{126}$$

is conservative by itself, because tangents lie below the convex parabola. The way the rows are combined is the critical point. Imposing all rows *together* gives their intersection

$$\kappa_C^2 v \;\le\; \min_r T_r(\mu), \tag{127}$$

which is *more* conservative than any single tangent. The tightening is the *union* of the single-tangent regions, a disjunction:

$$\kappa_C^2 v \;\le\; \max_r T_r(\mu). \tag{128}$$

- **Encoding.** One selector binary per tangent, with indicator (or big-M) rows, gives this union:

$$\sum_r \lambda_r = 1, \qquad \lambda_r = 1 \;\Rightarrow\; \kappa_C^2 v \le T_r(\mu). \tag{129}$$

- **Recovery.** The recovery is fast, and it can be quantified exactly because f is quadratic. Where the union admits $v \ge 0$, the remaining gap of the union is

$$\min_r\, (\mu - \mu_r)^2. \tag{130}$$

This gap is quadratic in the distance to the nearest tangent point, with worst case $(\Delta/2)^2$ for a spacing Δ. So doubling the number of tangents divides it by four. The derivation is in Appendix A.2, page 132. With $\tau = 1$, $\varepsilon = 0.01$ ($\kappa_C^2 = 99$) and tangents at $\mu_r \in \{0, 0.25, 0.5, 0.75\}$, the admissible variance recovers as follows ($v \times 10^3$):

μ	0	0.2	0.4	0.5	0.6
exact $(\tau-\mu)^2/\kappa_C^2$	10.10	6.46	3.64	2.53	1.62
single tangent ($\mu_r = 0$)	10.10	6.06	2.02	0	infeasible
four tangents (union)	10.10	6.44	3.54	2.53	1.52

The union recovers 94% of the area of the feasible region that the single tangent loses.

- **Bernstein and the schedule-dependent support.** The construction applies without change to Bernstein. The parabola $(\tau - \kappa b_\ell/3 - \mu)^2$ follows the same law for the gap, and the tangents to the concave $\sqrt{(\kappa b_\ell/3)^2 + 2\kappa v}$ lie above it everywhere. The construction also combines soundly with the schedule-dependent support above: each conditional row carries its own mission constant and stays conservative for it.

5.10 Linear forms of the reliability rows

The formulation offers three forms for each quadratic reliability row. These rows are the Gaussian and Wiener row $\kappa_G^2\, v \le (\tau-\mu)^2$ with $\kappa_G = \Phi^{-1}(1-\varepsilon)$ (Section 5.15), and the Cantelli, Hoeffding and Bernstein rows of Table 17. Each has the form

$$\chi \;\le\; f(\mu), \qquad f(\mu) = c_2\,(\tau-\mu)^2 + c_1\,(\tau-\mu), \qquad \mu \le \bar{\mu}_{\text{side}}, \tag{131}$$

where χ is the variance or the Hoeffding budget, with the constants of Table 19. The third relation is the side row; it selects the branch of the parabola on which the row is a valid certificate. Since $c_2 > 0$, f is convex in μ, with $f'(\mu) = -2c_2(\tau-\mu) - c_1$.

Every form keeps the side row.

Table 19: Constants of the quadratic reliability rows (131).

Row	χ	c_2	c_1	$\bar{\mu}_{\text{side}}$
Gaussian, Wiener	v	$1/\kappa_G^2$	0	τ
Rainflow, Cantelli	v	$1/\kappa_C^2 = \varepsilon/(1-\varepsilon)$	0	τ
Rainflow, Hoeffding	R	$2/\kappa$	0	τ
Rainflow, Bernstein	v	$1/(2\kappa)$	$-b_\ell/3$	$\tau - c$

- `exact`: the row (131) itself. The feasible set $\{(\mu, \chi) : \chi \le f(\mu)\}$ lies below a convex function, so it is not convex: the row is a nonconvex quadratic constraint. Example (Gaussian row): $(\mu, v) = (\tau, 0)$ and $(0, \tau^2/\kappa_G^2)$ satisfy it, and their midpoint $(\tau/2, \tau^2/(2\kappa_G^2))$ does not, since $\tau^2/2 > \tau^2/4$. The solver Gurobi handles such rows through its nonconvex quadratic support.
- `tangent`: one linear row per day, the tangent of f at a point $\mu_r \in [0, \tau)$ chosen per component; the default is $\mu_r = \tau/2$. At $\mu_r = 0$ the Gaussian row becomes $\kappa_G^2 v + 2\tau\mu \le \tau^2$. The point $\mu_r = \tau$ is excluded: for $c_1 = 0$ the tangent at τ is $\chi \le 0$.
- `pwl`: the interval $[0, \tau]$ is split into P equal segments, by default $P = 8$. One binary per segment and day selects the segment that contains the mean, and the tangent at the midpoint of that segment caps χ. This is encoding (i) of the piecewise-linear tightening (Section 5.9), with each selector tied to its segment. With $P = 1$ the form is the single tangent at $\tau/2$, with no binaries.

Proposition 5.11 (Safety of the linear forms)**.** *For every μ_r and every μ,*

$$f(\mu_r) + f'(\mu_r)\,(\mu - \mu_r) \;=\; f(\mu) - c_2\,(\mu - \mu_r)^2 \;\le\; f(\mu). \tag{132}$$

Therefore every point that satisfies the `tangent` or the `pwl` form satisfies the `exact` form, and both linear forms lie inside the certificate set $\mathcal{C}_{i\ell}$ of Section 5.3.1.

The proof is in Appendix A.2, page 132.

Accuracy.

- **The `tangent` form.** The `tangent` form loses $c_2(\mu - \mu_r)^2$ in χ: it is exact at $\mu = \mu_r$ and loosest far from it. A tangent point near the operating mean of the component is the best choice.
- **The `pwl` form.** In the `pwl` form the loss is

$$c_2(\mu - \hat{\mu}_p)^2 \;\le\; c_2\,\tau^2/(4P^2), \tag{133}$$

with $\hat{\mu}_p$ the midpoint of the segment that contains μ. That midpoint is the nearest tangent point to μ. So the `pwl` form accepts exactly the points with

$$\chi \;\le\; \max_p\,[f(\hat{\mu}_p) + f'(\hat{\mu}_p)(\mu - \hat{\mu}_p)], \tag{134}$$

the union of the P single-tangent regions and the largest set that the P tangents allow. The cost is P binaries per component and day.

Example 5.12 (Cantelli, $\varepsilon = 0.1$, $\kappa_C^2 = 9$, $\tau = 1$, $v = 0.004$)**.** The largest admissible mean is $1 - \sqrt{9 \cdot 0.004} \approx 0.810$ with `exact`; 0.482 with `tangent` at 0 ($9v + 2\mu \le 1$); 0.714 with `tangent` at $0.5\,\tau$ ($9v \le 0.75 - \mu$); and 0.810 with `pwl` and $P = 8$. The tangent at 0 never admits a mean above $\tau/2$, even with zero variance.

The tangent point of a Bernstein row. For Bernstein with $b_\ell > 0$, the tangent point must satisfy $\mu_r < \sqrt{\tau(\tau - 2c)}$, with $c = \kappa b_\ell/3$, and the `pwl` form needs $\tau/(2P) < \sqrt{\tau(\tau - 2c)}$ for its first segment. The derivation is in Appendix A.2, page 132.

5.11 Random fatigue life in the Palmgren–Miner rule

In the Palmgren–Miner rule, the reliability constraint $\Pr(D_{\mathrm{PM},k} \ge 1) \le \varepsilon$ has no closed form in the cumulative parameters alone. The upper bounds of Section 5.7 (Markov, Cantelli, Chernoff) still apply. The mean and the variance of $D_{\mathrm{PM},k}$ add up over the increments, whatever the distributional family. So the Cantelli bound gives a conservative and tractable constraint.

The rainflow pipeline of Section 5.7 measures the law of the per-mission increment $\Delta D^{(j)}$ directly and nonparametrically. A complementary pipeline keeps the rainflow *counts* deterministic and makes the fatigue life N_f in Miner's rule (12) the random object. It has two steps.

1. Fit a scatter family of Table 3 to constant-amplitude test data or to records of failures in service. Basquin's law (11) ties the location to the stress amplitude. For the log-normal,

$$\ln N_f \;\sim\; \mathcal{N}(\mu(\sigma_a), \sigma^2), \qquad \text{with} \qquad \mu(\sigma_a) \;=\; \ln C - m \ln \sigma_a \tag{135}$$

   and a σ that does not depend on the stress. For the Weibull, the scale is $\lambda(\sigma_a) = C\sigma_a^{-m}$, with a common shape k. Run-outs (tests stopped before failure) enter the likelihood as censored observations.

2. *Derive* the increment from the rainflow histogram $\{n_c^{(j)}\}$ of the mission as

$$\Delta D^{(j)} \;=\; \sum_c n_c^{(j)} / N_f(\sigma_c). \tag{136}$$

Both pipelines follow the same idea: collect data, then approximate a distribution. They differ in the random object and in the assumptions they commit to.

- **Empirical route.** It is distribution-free, and it captures the variability of the load and of the material together.
- **Random-N_f route.** It is parametric. It pools information across stress levels, extrapolates to unobserved amplitudes through (11), and separates the load spectrum (the counts) from the material scatter (the law of N_f).

What "random N_f" means: two interpretations. The marginal law of N_f does not determine the model. The joint law of the scatter *across days* must also be chosen, and the two extreme choices lead to different mathematics. Table 20 compares the two interpretations.

(II) Unit-specific scatter. The fitted families have a scale or a shape that does not depend on the stress, so the realisation of the scatter is a single multiplicative factor,

$$N_{f,j} \;=\; A\,\bar{N}_j, \qquad A > 0 \text{ drawn once at installation,} \tag{137}$$

Table 20: The two interpretations of a random fatigue life N_f in the Palmgren–Miner rule.

	(I) Block-independent scatter	**(II) Unit-specific scatter**
Scatter across days	each execution of mission j draws a new, independent life	the component carries *one* realisation of the scatter for its entire life
Stochastic state	the moments of the Route-I pipeline	a deterministic scalar $M_{i\ell k}$ with linear dynamics
Chance constraint	Cantelli certificate (21)	the exact linear inequality (139)
Loop constraint	moment loop (115)	the linear condition (143)

with $\bar{N}_j$ the median life (log-normal: e^{μ_j}) or the characteristic life (Weibull: λ_j; Gumbel: e^{μ_j}), and $A \sim F_A$ the unit factor ($\ln A \sim \mathcal{N}(0, \sigma^2)$, $A \sim \mathrm{Wei}(k, 1)$ or $A = e^{\beta G}$, respectively). This is exactly the "random critical damage sum" of source (ii) above. Dividing the Miner sum by A is the same as comparing a deterministic sum with a random capacity.

- **Damage.** The damage becomes $D_k = M_k/A$, where M_k is the *deterministic* Miner state. Its dynamics mirror (50): a mission day adds

$$\sum_j x_{ijk}\, n_j/\bar{N}_j, \tag{138}$$

  an ARD repair maps $M \mapsto (1-\rho)M$, and a replacement resets M to zero *and draws a new* A (a new physical component carries a new factor with the same law).

- **Reliability constraint.** For a continuous F_A the reliability constraint is then *exact*, deterministic and linear in the assignment counts:

$$\Pr(D_k \geq 1) \;=\; \Pr(A \leq M_k) \;=\; F_A(M_k) \;\leq\; \varepsilon \quad\Longleftrightarrow\quad M_k \;\leq\; q_\varepsilon \;:=\; F_A^{-1}(\varepsilon), \tag{139}$$

  with the closed-form quantiles

$$q_\varepsilon \;=\; \begin{cases} e^{\sigma\Phi^{-1}(\varepsilon)} & \text{(log-normal)}, \\ (-\ln(1-\varepsilon))^{1/k} & \text{(Weibull)}, \\ (-\ln(1-\varepsilon))^{\beta} & \text{(Gumbel-minimum)}. \end{cases} \tag{140}$$

  In fact no family is needed beyond one scalar: an empirical ε-quantile of A with a confidence margin serves equally well. Without repair since the last replacement, and with n_{ij} counted from it, rewriting $M_k \leq q_\varepsilon$ as

$$\sum_j n_{ij}\, n_j/(q_\varepsilon \bar{N}_j) \;\leq\; 1 \tag{141}$$

  gives back a classical design practice: deterministic Miner on the ε-percentile lives

$$N_j^{(\varepsilon)} \;=\; q_\varepsilon \bar{N}_j, \tag{142}$$

  which are exactly the ε-quantiles of $N_{f,j}$. Here this practice is an *exact* chance constraint rather than a heuristic, in the per-day sense of (85g).

- **Loop constraint.** The loop constraint simplifies in the same way. F_A is strictly increasing on $(0, \infty)$, so the probability comparison (53) is equivalent to the single linear condition

$$M_T \;\leq\; M_{H_1}. \tag{143}$$

Unlike the scalar bound of Section 5.8, which loses information, this condition *chains*. So imposing (139) on all $k = 1, \ldots, T$ extends the per-day reliability to every repetition, replacements (which draw a new A) included. The derivation is in Appendix A.2, page 132.

Remark 5.13 (The two interpretations are not two levels of conservatism). Interpretations (I) and (II) can share the *same* marginal law per day and differ only in the dependence across days: zero or perfect correlation of the scatter. Yet they give different answers. The means coincide, while the variances satisfy

$$\mathrm{Var}_{\mathrm{II}} \,/\, \mathrm{Var}_{\mathrm{I}} \;=\; \Big(\sum_t m_t\Big)^2 \Big/ \sum_t m_t^2. \tag{144}$$

By Cauchy–Schwarz this ratio is at most the number of days, with equality for equal daily increments m_t. So under (II) the dispersion never averages out.

In the small-ε regime, (II) has by far the heavier tail. For example, take a log-normal factor with $\sigma = 0.5$ and fifty days with equal increments, with Miner sum $M = 0.6$, the median of the damage under (II). Under (I), each day draws its own factor with the same law. The failure probability $\Pr(D \geq 1)$ is then 0.153 under (II) and $2.5 \cdot 10^{-7}$ under (I). The order reverses only at high damage. In the same example, the two probabilities are equal (0.39) at $M = 0.87$. For a larger M, (I) gives the larger probability. So neither interpretation is conservative in all cases.[3]

The choice is a question of identification.

- **Unit-specific (II).** Scatter that comes from the variability between specimens (material batch, manufacturing) is unit-specific (II).
- **Block-independent (I).** Scatter that comes from the randomness of the load history within a mission is block-independent (I).

Rainflow-counted data recorded in service on a fleet mix both. A decomposition of the variance of the recorded increments into a part between units and a part within units estimates the split. When both sources matter, one writes $N_f = A\,\widetilde{N}_f$, with a unit factor and block-independent residuals.

Conservative combinations exist. One example is ε-splitting:

$$\Pr(\text{fail}) \;\leq\; \delta + \Pr(\text{fail} \mid A = a_\delta), \tag{145}$$

with a_δ the δ-quantile of A. After this step the increments are again independent across days, with moments scaled by a_δ^{-1} and a_δ^{-2}, and the Route-I method runs on the remaining budget $\varepsilon - \delta$. The calibration of such combinations is left as future work.

5.12 Implications of the orderings for the fleet problem

Under the closure conditions of Table 16, the cumulative damage $D_{i\ell k}$ depends on the schedule only through cumulative parameters.

- **One-parameter families.** The comparison of two damages is scalar: for Gamma (shared rate β), the total shape $\sum_t \alpha_t$; for IG (shared dispersion μ^2/λ), the total mean $\sum_t \mu_t$.

[3] The scripts and their outputs are in the folder `archive/merge-2026/analysis/scripts/scoping_checks/miner` of the repository. They check the exactness of (139) along a schedule with repair and replacement, the chaining of (143), the variance ratio and the example. The value under (I) comes from a discretised convolution, which bounds it between $2.45 \cdot 10^{-7}$ and $2.46 \cdot 10^{-7}$.

- **Gaussian family.** The state carries *two* cumulative parameters,

$$\Big(\sum_t \mu_t,\ \sum_t \sigma_t^2\Big). \tag{146}$$

  The variance depends on the schedule: it accumulates with the mission days served, and only an intervention reduces it. The usual stochastic order between Gaussian laws requires equal variances (Table 7). So the Gaussian comparison uses the single-threshold condition (170) or the componentwise domination of the mean and the variance, not the mean alone.

The formulation does not rely on closure for the Gamma and inverse Gaussian models, for two reasons.

- The terms of the damage need not share the closure parameter. The missions of one component may have different Gamma rates, and an inverse Gaussian term of mean a in the formulation has the dispersion $\mu^2/\lambda = \eta\, a$, which grows with a (the model is stated below).
- A repair acts on the damage path, and the repaired damage leaves the family with the shared parameter, in both cases. Indeed,

$$(1-\rho)\,\mathrm{Ga}(A,\beta) = \mathrm{Ga}\big(A,\ \beta/(1-\rho)\big) \tag{147}$$

  has another rate, and

$$c\,\mathrm{IG}(\mu,\lambda) = \mathrm{IG}(c\mu,\ c\lambda) \tag{148}$$

  multiplies the dispersion μ^2/λ by c.

For these two models the formulation therefore tracks the mean only. It bounds the failure probability over a whole class of laws that contains every possible law of the damage, and it imposes a cap on the tracked mean. The inverse Gaussian cap uses a further order.

> **Definition 5.14** (Increasing convex order)**.** For integrable non-negative X and Y, $X \le_{\mathrm{icx}} Y$ if $\mathbb{E}(X-d)_+ \le \mathbb{E}(Y-d)_+$ for every $d \ge 0$.

The quantity $\mathbb{E}(X-d)_+$ is the stop-loss transform of X at d. This order does not compare tails directly: $X \le_{\mathrm{icx}} Y$ allows $\Pr(X>\tau) > \Pr(Y>\tau)$. For example, the constant $X=1$ and the variable Y equal to 0 or 2 with probability $1/2$ each satisfy $X \le_{\mathrm{icx}} Y$, while

$$\Pr(X > 0.9) = 1 > \Pr(Y > 0.9) = 1/2. \tag{149}$$

5.13 Inverse Gaussian: a cap on the mean

The inverse Gaussian law $\mathrm{IG}(\mu,\lambda)$ with mean $\mu>0$ and shape $\lambda>0$ has the density

$$f(x;\mu,\lambda) = \sqrt{\frac{\lambda}{2\pi x^3}}\ \exp\Big(-\frac{\lambda\,(x-\mu)^2}{2\mu^2 x}\Big), \qquad x>0, \tag{150}$$

and the variance μ^3/λ; for $c>0$,

$$c\,\mathrm{IG}(\mu,\lambda) = \mathrm{IG}(c\mu, c\lambda). \tag{151}$$

The formulation gives each inverse Gaussian component one parameter $\eta > 0$. A term of mean a has the law $\mathrm{IG}(a, a/\eta) = a\,Z$, with $Z \sim \mathrm{IG}(1, 1/\eta)$. Its density is

$$\sqrt{a/(2\pi\eta x^3)}\,\exp\bigl(-(x-a)^2/(2\eta a x)\bigr), \tag{152}$$

and η is its squared coefficient of variation. Every term has this law with its own mean: each mission increment, the initial damage and each replacement draw. A known damage a is the constant term $a \cdot 1$. The terms may depend on each other in any way.

Between replacements, under either repair law, the damage is

$$D_k = \sum_t w_t\,a_t\,Z_t, \tag{153}$$

where each Z_t has the law of Z or equals 1, and each weight $w_t \in [0,1]$ is a product of factors $1-\rho$.

- **Weight zero.** A term of weight 0, possible when $\rho = 1$, is dropped.
- **Repair laws.** ARD_∞ multiplies every weight by $1-\rho$, and ARD_1 multiplies only the weights of the terms added since the last intervention.
- **Anchor below the initial mean.** When the anchor before the first intervention is below the initial mean μ_0, the initial damage $\mu_0 Z_0$ is read as the two terms $g\,Z_0$ and $(\mu_0 - g)\,Z_0$, with g the anchor.
- **Mean.** The mean $\sum_t w_t a_t$ is at most the tracked mean μ_k (Proposition 5.3).

Proposition 5.15 (Stop-loss order)**.** *Let*

$$D = \sum_t w_t\,a_t\,Z_t \tag{154}$$

with weights $w_t \in [0,1]$, means $a_t \geq 0$ and $\sum_t w_t a_t \leq \mu$, where each Z_t has the law of Z or equals 1, under any joint law. Then $D \leq_{\mathrm{icx}} \mu Z$.

The proof is in Appendix A.2, page 133.

Let q be the $(1-\varepsilon)$-quantile of Z, so $\Pr(Z > q) = \varepsilon$, and let $\bar{q} = \mathbb{E}[Z \mid Z > q]$, the conditional value at risk (CVaR) of Z at the level $1-\varepsilon$.

Theorem 5.16 (CVaR cap)**.** *Let $D \geq 0$ satisfy $D \leq_{\mathrm{icx}} \mu Z$ with $0 \leq \mu \leq \tau/\bar{q}$. Then $\Pr(D > \tau) \leq \varepsilon$.*

The proof is in Appendix A.2, page 133.

So the formulation tracks the mean of an inverse Gaussian component and imposes the linear row

$$\mu_k \leq \bar{\mu} = \tau/\bar{q} \tag{155}$$

on every day, under both repair laws. By Proposition 5.15 and Theorem 5.16, the row gives $\Pr(D_k > \tau) \leq \varepsilon$, whatever the dependence between the terms.

The quantile q follows from the distribution function (175) of Z, with $\mu = 1$ and $\lambda = 1/\eta$. The tail mean has the closed form $\mathbb{E}[Z;\, Z > q] = F_Z(1/q)$, so

$$\bar{\mu} = \tau\,\varepsilon / F_Z(1/q). \tag{156}$$

The derivation is in Appendix A.2, page 133. Table 21 gives values of the cap.

Table 21: The CVaR cap $\bar{\mu}/\tau$ of the inverse Gaussian model, for three reliability levels and five values of η.

	$\eta = 0.05$	0.25	1	4	10
$\varepsilon = 0.001$	0.491	0.242	0.101	0.0370	0.0190
$\varepsilon = 0.01$	0.570	0.322	0.155	0.0679	0.0401
$\varepsilon = 0.1$	0.693	0.477	0.299	0.183	0.141

No larger cap is safe for every law below μZ in the order of Definition 5.14. The derivation is in Appendix A.2, page 133. The schedules produce only some of the laws below μZ, so the row can reject some safe schedules.

The quantile cap τ/q, at which the single law μZ meets the target exactly, is not safe for sums.

Example. $\eta = 10$ and $\varepsilon = 0.1$, so $\tau/q = 0.473\,\tau$. Three independent missions of equal mean, with total mean τ/q, give $\Pr(D > \tau) = 0.118$. The CVaR cap is $0.141\,\tau$ there. At $\varepsilon = 0.01$ and η from 0.05 to 10, the CVaR cap $\bar{\mu}$ is 0.93 to 0.59 times τ/q.

5.14 Gamma: a sharp cap on the mean

The formulation lets each mission of a Gamma component have its own rate: an increment of mean $m > 0$ and rate β has the law $\mathrm{Ga}(\beta m, \beta)$. The initial damage and each replacement draw are Gamma terms with their own rates, or known constants. All terms are independent.

A repair acts on the damage path by the law of the component: ARD_∞ gives $D^+ = (1-\rho)\,D^-$, and ARD_1 gives

$$D^+ = D^{\mathrm{last}} + (1-\rho)\,(D^- - D^{\mathrm{last}}). \tag{157}$$

After a repair the damage is, in general, not a Gamma variable: it is a weighted sum of independent Gamma terms and known constants. The cap below holds for every such sum. The day map of the tracked mean is exact for the true mean $\mathbb{E}[D_k]$, because expectation is linear.

Let β^* be the smallest rate among the terms of the component with a positive mean, over the missions and the days of both phases, and $t = \beta^*\tau$. The formulation computes β^* from the data; no input gives it.

- A mission with mean 0 adds no term, and a known damage is a constant, which does not enter β^*.
- The rate of the replacement draw enters only when replacements are allowed.
- If no term has a rate, the damage is a known constant, and the cap below reads $\mu_k \le \tau$.

Measured in units of $1/\beta^*$, every law below has a rate of at least 1. Write $Q(a, x) = \Pr(\mathrm{Ga}(a, 1) > x)$ for the regularised upper incomplete gamma function.

Definition 5.17 (Class of weighted Gamma sums)**.** For $m \ge 0$, the class $\mathcal{G}(m)$ holds the laws of the random variables

$$S = \delta + \sum_{i=1}^{n} c_i\, Y_i \tag{158}$$

with $Y_i \sim \mathrm{Ga}(a_i, 1)$ independent, $c_i \in (0, 1]$, $a_i > 0$, $\delta \geq 0$, $n \geq 0$, and mean $\delta + \sum_i c_i a_i = m$. The term cY with $Y \sim \mathrm{Ga}(m'/c, 1)$ has mean m'; as $c \to 0$ it tends to the constant m'.

Lemma 5.18 (True states belong to the class)**.** *On every day k of a schedule, under either repair law, the law of $\beta^* D_k$ belongs to $\mathcal{G}(\beta^* \mathbb{E}[D_k])$.*

The proof is in Appendix A.2, page 134.

For $0 < m < t$, let $W(m, t)$ be the supremum of $\Pr(S > t)$ over the random variables S whose law is in $\mathcal{G}(m)$. The one-term element $c\,\mathrm{Ga}(m/c, 1)$ has the tail $Q(m/c,\, t/c)$ at t.

An element of $\mathcal{G}(m)$ is described by its *atoms*: the pairs (m_i, c_i) of a term mean $m_i = c_i a_i$ and a scale c_i, and the constant δ, read as an atom at scale $c = 0$. Terms with equal scales merge into one term, because a sum of independent Gamma variables of one rate is a Gamma variable.

Lemma 5.19 (First-order rates)**.** *Let the law of S be an element of $\mathcal{G}(m)$ with at least one term, with density f_S. Since $\delta \leq m < t$, f_S is continuous at t. For $c \in (0, 1]$ let*

$$\omega_S(c) = \frac{1}{c} \int_0^\infty \Pr(t - y < S \leq t)\, \frac{e^{-y/c}}{y}\, \mathrm{d}y, \qquad \omega_S(0) = f_S(t). \tag{159}$$

(a) Adding mean Δm at scale c (a term $c\,\mathrm{Ga}(\Delta m/c, 1)$, or the constant Δm when $c = 0$) raises $\Pr(S > t)$ at the rate $\omega_S(c)$ as $\Delta m \to 0$. Removing mean from an atom at scale c lowers it at the same rate. (b) Moving the scale of an atom (m_i, c_i), $c_i \in (0, 1)$, at fixed mean m_i changes $\Pr(S > t)$ at the rate $m_i\, \partial \omega_S / \partial c\,(c_i)$.

The proof is in Appendix A.2, page 134.

Theorem 5.20 (One term is the worst case)**.** *For $0 < m < t$,*

$$W(m, t) \;=\; \max_{c \in (0,1]} Q\left(\frac{m}{c},\, \frac{t}{c}\right). \tag{160}$$

The proof is in Appendix A.2, page 134.

Lemma 5.21 (Monotone in the mean)**.** *$W(m, t)$ is non-decreasing in $m \in (0, t)$.*

The proof is in Appendix A.2, page 136.

For $A \in [0, t)$ let

$$w(A) = \max_{c \in (0,1]} Q(A/c, t/c). \tag{161}$$

- w is continuous and non-decreasing in A.
- $w(A) < 1/2$ for every $A < t$.
- $w(A) \to 1/2$ as $A \to t$.

The derivation is in Appendix A.2, page 136. So, for $\varepsilon < 1/2$, the *sharp cap* $A_1(t, \varepsilon)$ is the largest $A \in [0, t)$ with $w(A) \leq \varepsilon$, and it lies below t. For $\varepsilon \geq 1/2$ no largest value exists, because every $A < t$ qualifies. The cap is then a value below t that the computation fixes.

The formulation tracks the mean of a Gamma component and imposes, on every day and under both repair laws, the linear row

$$\mu_k \;\le\; \frac{A_1(\beta^*\tau,\,\varepsilon)}{\beta^*}. \tag{162}$$

Proposition 5.22 (The sharp cap is safe)**.** *If the tracked mean μ_k satisfies (162) and $\mu_k \ge \mathbb{E}[D_k]$, then $\Pr(D_k > \tau) \le \varepsilon$, for any mix of rates.*

The proof is in Appendix A.2, page 136.

The sharp cap and the exact one-rate cap. $\hat{A}$ is the exact cap of a single Gamma law of rate β^*, and $A_1 \le \hat{A}$, because $c = 1$ is in the maximum. Let $t_1(\varepsilon)$ be the value of t at which $\partial_c Q(\hat{A}/c, t/c)$ at $c = 1$ changes sign: $t_1 = 0.436$, 0.448 and 0.614 for $\varepsilon = 0.001$, 0.01 and 0.1.

- **Above t_1.** On a grid of 200 values of t in $[t_1, 10^5]$, no $c < 1$ gives a larger tail than $c = 1$, so $A_1 = \hat{A}$ there. This is a numerical check, not a proof; the computation of the cap does not rely on it, because it tests $w(\hat{A}) \le \varepsilon$ before it uses $\hat{A}$.
- **Below t_1.** $A_1 < \hat{A}$.

For $\varepsilon = 0.01$:

$t = \beta^*\tau$	0.01	0.1	0.3	1	10
$A_1/\hat{A}$	0.142	0.641	0.961	1	1

When every term has the same rate and no repair occurs, the true state is a single Gamma law and $\hat{A}$ is exact for it. With several rates, or with repairs, the true state is a weighted sum, and below t_1 the exact one-rate cap is not safe.

Example. $\varepsilon = 0.01$ and $\beta^*\tau = 0.1$, so $\hat{A} = 0.0055012$. A new part serves one mission of mean $\hat{A}/\beta^*$ and rate $4.56\,\beta^*$. Its mean meets the exact one-rate cap, but its tail is $1.565\,\varepsilon$. The sharp cap there is $A_1 = 0.641\,\hat{A}$.

Below the threshold. For $t \le t_1(\varepsilon)$,

$$A_1(t, \varepsilon) = r^*(\varepsilon)\, t. \tag{163}$$

The derivation is in Appendix A.2, page 136. The mean cap is then $A_1/\beta^* = r^*(\varepsilon)\,\tau$, whatever the rates: $r^* = 0.00355$, 0.0353 and 0.331 for $\varepsilon = 0.001$, 0.01 and 0.1.

The choice of β^*. The mean cap

$$A_1(\beta^*\tau, \varepsilon)/\beta^* = \tau\, A_1(t, \varepsilon)/t \tag{164}$$

is non-decreasing in β^*. The derivation is in Appendix A.2, page 136. Lemma 5.18 holds for every β^* at most the smallest rate. So the smallest rate gives the largest safe cap of this form.

The class $\mathcal{G}(m)$ also contains laws that no schedule produces, so below t_1 the row can reject some safe schedules. The row keeps the mean of each mission. β^* only bounds how dispersed each term may be.

5.15 Loop constraint for each degradation model

The loop constraint (57) is one rule for every model: each tracked statistic, and its anchor under ARD_1, must be no larger at the end of the horizon than at the end of the transitory phase. Table 22 lists the tracked statistics and the reliability row of each model of the formulation. Every model accepts both repair laws, and Theorem 5.4 applies to each of them. We drop the (i, ℓ) subscripts for clarity.

Table 22: Tracked statistics and reliability rows of the five degradation models of the formulation, on every day k of the horizon. Under ARD_1 each tracked statistic also has an anchor, except the Wiener variance. The loop constraint (57) covers every tracked statistic and every anchor. $\kappa_G = \Phi^{-1}(1-\varepsilon)$, with $\varepsilon < 0.5$.

Model	Tracked statistics	Reliability row
Gaussian	mean μ, variance v	$\kappa_G^2\, v_k \le (\tau - \mu_k)^2, \quad \mu_k \le \tau$
Wiener	mean μ, variance v	as for the Gaussian model
Inverse Gaussian	mean μ	$\mu_k \le \tau/\bar{q}$ (Theorem 5.16)
Gamma	mean μ	$\mu_k \le A_1(\beta^*\tau, \varepsilon)/\beta^*$, Eq. (162)
Rainflow	mean μ and the statistic of the bound	Table 17

Gamma. With one shared rate β and no repair, the damage is $\mathrm{Ga}(A_k, \beta)$, where A_k is the cumulative shape on day k. Its survival function is $\Pr(D > \tau) = Q(A, \beta\tau)$, with Q the regularised upper incomplete gamma function of Section 4.1.5. Since $Q(a, x)$ is strictly increasing in a for fixed $x > 0$, a loop on the shape would then be a scalar inequality.

One caveat concerns repairs. The *pathwise* ARD repair $D \mapsto (1-\rho)D$ leaves the shared-rate sub-family, since

$$(1-\rho)\,\mathrm{Ga}(A, \beta) = \mathrm{Ga}\big(A,\, \beta/(1-\rho)\big). \tag{165}$$

A repair modelled in parameter space, as the shape reduction $A \mapsto (1-\rho)A$ at fixed rate β, matches ARD in expectation,

$$\mathbb{E}[D^+] = (1-\rho)\,\mathbb{E}[D^-]. \tag{166}$$

But it is a different operator on the paths, and it can accept an unsafe schedule.

> **Example.** $\tau = 1$, $\varepsilon = 0.01$, $\rho = 0.5$ and one rate $\beta = 0.01$, so the exact one-rate cap is $\hat{A} = 0.0024877$. A new part serves a mission of shape $\hat{A}$ on day 1, is repaired on day 2, and serves a mission of shape $0.5\,\hat{A}$ on day 3. The shapes in parameter space are $\hat{A}$, $0.5\,\hat{A}$ and $\hat{A}$, so every cap row holds. But the true tail on day 3 is 0.0133, that is, $1.33\,\varepsilon$.

The formulation therefore repairs the damage path, tracks the mean, and certifies reliability by the sharp cap (162), which is safe for every weighted sum of Gamma terms (Proposition 5.22). Its loop constraint acts on the mean and, under ARD_1, on the anchor of the mean. Facts (M1)–(M3) of Section 5.3.1 hold. The derivation is in Appendix A.2, page 136.

The Gaussian family is closed under both readings of the repair,

$$(1-\rho)\,\mathcal{N}(\mu, \sigma^2) = \mathcal{N}\big((1-\rho)\mu,\, (1-\rho)^2\sigma^2\big). \tag{167}$$

Gaussian. Let

$$D_{H_1} \sim \mathcal{N}(\mu_{H_1}, \sigma_{H_1}^2) \quad \text{and} \quad D_T \sim \mathcal{N}(\mu_T, \sigma_T^2). \tag{168}$$

The survival function is

$$\Pr(D > \tau) = \Phi\big((\mu - \tau)/\sigma\big), \tag{169}$$

where Φ is the standard normal CDF. Since Φ is strictly increasing, the probability comparison (53) is equivalent to

$$\frac{\mu_T - \tau}{\sigma_T} \leq \frac{\mu_{H_1} - \tau}{\sigma_{H_1}}, \tag{170}$$

or equivalently

$$(\tau - \mu_T)/\sigma_T \geq (\tau - \mu_{H_1})/\sigma_{H_1}. \tag{171}$$

Note that $\sigma_T = \sigma_{H_1}$ does *not* follow from serving the same missions in both phases. Without interventions the variance accumulates,

$$\sigma_T^2 = \sigma_{H_1}^2 + \sum_{k=H_1+1}^{T} v_k^{\text{inc}} > \sigma_{H_1}^2, \tag{172}$$

where v_k^{inc} is the variance of the increment of day k (0 on a day without a mission). Equality requires that the repairs or replacements of the operating phase (which scale the variance by $(1-\rho)^2$ or reset it) remove exactly the variance that the mission days add. In that case (170) reduces to $\mu_T \leq \mu_{H_1}$.

In general, condition (170) couples the mean and the standard deviation: a sufficiently lower mean can compensate a higher variance at T. Condition (170) constrains only the single scalar $(\mu - \tau)/\sigma$ of a two-parameter state. So, by itself, it does not make the schedule repeatable (see Section 5.8).

The componentwise condition $\mu_T \leq \mu_{H_1}$ and $\sigma_T^2 \leq \sigma_{H_1}^2$ restores repeatability; it is the analogue of (115) for the exact law. It implies (170) whenever $\mu_{H_1} < \tau$, and it chains because both moments propagate monotonically under the dynamics. This componentwise condition is the loop constraint (57) of the Gaussian model, together with the rows on the two anchors under ARD_1.

In the formulation, a mission increment of a Gaussian component is $\mathcal{N}(\mu^{\text{inc}}, v^{\text{inc}})$, the initial damage is $\mathcal{N}(\mu_0, v_0)$, and each replacement draw is $\mathcal{N}(\mu^{\text{new}}, v^{\text{new}})$. A known damage has variance 0. These terms are mutually independent (assumption N1). A repair acts on the damage path by the law of the component.

The Gaussian law gives negative damage a small probability. The input checks $\mu \geq 3\sqrt{v}$ for the initial damage and for each increment keep this probability at most $\Phi(-3) = 0.135\,\%$ for each of these terms.

> **Proposition 5.23** (The state stays Gaussian)**.** *Under N1, on every day of a schedule $D_k \sim \mathcal{N}(m_k, V_k)$, where (m_k, V_k) follow the day maps of the mean and the variance, with factors $1-\rho$ and $(1-\rho)^2$, and with anchors equal to the mean and the variance just after the last intervention.*

The proof is in Appendix A.2, page 137.

So ARD_1 is exact for this model. Its variance map uses the factor $(1-\rho)^2$ and the variance anchor. For $D \sim \mathcal{N}(m, V)$,

$$\Pr(D > \tau) = 1 - \Phi\big((\tau - m)/\sqrt{V}\big) \le \varepsilon \tag{173}$$

exactly when $m + \kappa_G\sqrt{V} \le \tau$, with $\kappa_G = \Phi^{-1}(1-\varepsilon)$. For $\varepsilon < 0.5$, so that $\kappa_G > 0$, and with $\tau - \mu \ge 0$, this is equivalent to the squared row of Table 22.

Validity. Let $(m_k, V_k) \le (\mu_k, v_k)$ be the true moments (Proposition 5.23 and Proposition 5.3), and let (μ_k, v_k) satisfy the row. Then $\Pr(D_k > \tau) \le \varepsilon$. The derivation is in Appendix A.2, page 137.

Remark 5.24 (The level ε and the range $V_{\max}$). $V_{\max} = \tau^2/\kappa_G^2$ is the largest variance that the Gaussian row admits, at $\mu = 0$. So it is the natural range of the variance, and the big-M constant of its rows (Section 5.3.1).

$V_{\max}/\tau^2$ is 0.18 at $\varepsilon = 0.01$, 0.61 at 0.1, 3.6 at 0.3 and about 1600 at 0.49. It grows without bound as $\varepsilon \to 0.5$, and at $\varepsilon \ge 0.5$ the squared row does not describe the reliability requirement, because $\kappa_G \le 0$. Hence the condition $\varepsilon < 0.5$ for Gaussian and Wiener components. The range is large only close to 0.5.

The other models and bounds have no limit below $\varepsilon = 1$: for example, the variance cap $\tau^2\varepsilon/(1-\varepsilon)$ of the Cantelli row is finite for every $\varepsilon < 1$. The variance ranges of the rainflow rows behave like $V_{\max}$ at the other end: the Cantelli and Bernstein variance ranges and the Hoeffding range $2\tau^2/\kappa$ grow without bound as $\varepsilon \to 1$.

Facts (M1)–(M3) of Section 5.3.1 hold. The derivation is in Appendix A.2, page 137.

Wiener. The damage is a Wiener process with drift, observed once a day. A mission adds a Gaussian increment with a mean that depends on the mission and with the variance σ^2, the same for every mission. The reason is that σ describes the material of the component, not the route. The initial damage is $\mathcal{N}(\mu_0, v_0)$ with $v_0 \ge 0$, and each replacement draw is $\mathcal{N}(\mu^{\mathrm{new}}, v^{\mathrm{new}})$. These terms are mutually independent (assumption W1).

In the formulation, a repair acts on the mean only; this is a modelling choice. The repair shifts the damage by a known amount: $D^+ = D^- - \rho\, m^-$ under ARD_∞ and $D^+ = D^- - \rho\,(m^- - g^\mu)$ under ARD_1, with $m^- = \mathbb{E}D^-$. The law stays Gaussian, the variance is unchanged, and only a replacement lowers it.

Under W1 the damage is $\mathcal{N}(m_k, V_k)$ on every day, with (m_k, V_k) given by these maps: a mission adds an independent Gaussian term, and a repair or a replacement acts as stated.

The reliability row is the Gaussian one, with the same validity argument, forms and remark on $V_{\max}$. The rows of the Wiener model are safe also when a repair acts on the damage path, as in the Gaussian model. The derivation is in Appendix A.2, page 137.

Facts (M1)–(M3) hold as for the Gaussian model, with the factor 1 for the variance, which has no anchor. The loop row on the variance forces a replacement in the operating phase whenever the member serves a mission there. Without a replacement,

$$v_T \ge v_{H_1} + n\,\sigma^2 > v_{H_1} \tag{174}$$

after $n \ge 1$ mission days. No input check enforces this. When replacements are not allowed, the member of a Wiener component cannot serve a mission in the operating phase.

Inverse Gaussian. The CDF of $\mathrm{IG}(\mu, \lambda)$ admits the closed form

$$F_{\mathrm{IG}}(x;\, \mu, \lambda) \;=\; \Phi\!\left(\sqrt{\frac{\lambda}{x}}\Big(\frac{x}{\mu} - 1\Big)\right) \;+\; e^{2\lambda/\mu}\, \Phi\!\left(-\sqrt{\frac{\lambda}{x}}\Big(\frac{x}{\mu} + 1\Big)\right). \tag{175}$$

For

$$D_{H_1} \sim \mathrm{IG}(\mu_{H_1},\, \lambda_{H_1}) \quad \text{and} \quad D_T \sim \mathrm{IG}(\mu_T,\, \lambda_T), \tag{176}$$

the probability comparison (53) reads

$$F_{\mathrm{IG}}(\tau;\, \mu_T, \lambda_T) \;\geq\; F_{\mathrm{IG}}(\tau;\, \mu_{H_1}, \lambda_{H_1}). \tag{177}$$

This is an analytical but nonlinear inequality in the four parameters $(\mu_{H_1}, \lambda_{H_1}, \mu_T, \lambda_T)$. Under the closure condition (same μ^2/λ), the $\leq_{\mathrm{lr}}$ results of Table 5 guarantee that $\mu_T \leq \mu_{H_1}$ is a sufficient condition.

The formulation does not use this comparison, because its damage is not an inverse Gaussian variable in general (Section 4.1.5). It tracks the mean, imposes the CVaR cap of Theorem 5.16, and loops on the mean and, under ARD_1, on the anchor of the mean. Facts (M1)–(M3) of Section 5.3.1 hold. The derivation is in Appendix A.2, page 138.

Rainflow. The tracked statistics and the rows are those of Section 5.7. Facts (M1)–(M3) of Section 5.3.1 hold. The derivation is in Appendix A.2, page 138. The loop constraint covers the mean, the second statistic of the bound and, under ARD_1, their anchors.

The *loop* constraint must not be translated into the conservative bounds of Section 5.7. Imposing $U^{(1)} \leq U^{(0)}$ on a scalar bound U does not make the schedule repeatable. The loop acts instead on the tracked statistics of the bound, for example through the componentwise moment condition (115), whose rows are linear in the tracked statistics (Section 5.8).

5.16 Connection of the repair laws to the formulation

The abstract repair operator $\mathcal{R}(D^-, \rho)$ of Section 5 covers the ARD models and replacement. In particular:

- ARD_∞: $\mathcal{R}(D^-, \rho) = (1 - \rho)\, D^-$, the default repair law of the formulation;
- ARD_1:
$$\mathcal{R}(D^-, \rho) = D^- - \rho\,(D^- - D^{\mathrm{last}}), \tag{178}$$
requiring the additional state variable D^{last};
- Replacement / AGAN: $\mathcal{R}(D^-, \rho) = D^{\mathrm{new}}$ (captured by the separate replacement variable $x^r_{i\ell k}$ in the formulation).

The formulation offers both repair laws for every degradation model, chosen per component. The choice of the repair law affects the damage dynamics (50), the definition of the repair-cost variable $z_{i\ell k}$ and the tractability of the resulting optimisation problem.

ARI models do not fit directly into the formulation of Section 5, which tracks the damage. They would need a reformulation in terms of the failure intensity instead of the damage. No law of the formulation acts on a virtual age.

Anchors. Under ARD_1 the formulation tracks, for each statistic of the damage, an *anchor*: the value of the statistic just after the last intervention, repair or replacement. On an intervention day the anchor takes the new value of its statistic. On any other day it keeps its value.

> **Example.** mean 0.6 and anchor 0.2 before a repair with $\rho = 0.5$. The repair gives the mean $0.6 - 0.5\,(0.6 - 0.2) = 0.4$ and the anchor 0.4. On the next day the gap between the mean and the anchor is 0, and it grows again with each mission.

Before the first intervention of the horizon, the anchor is the value just after the last intervention before the horizon. When that value is unknown, the formulation takes the initial value of the statistic. Each statistic is non-decreasing between interventions (fact (M1) of Section 5.3.1), so the true value lies between the value of a new part and the initial value. A larger anchor gives a weaker repair, so the initial value never overstates what a repair achieves.

> **Example.** initial mean 0.5, $\rho = 0.5$, and a repair on day 1 before any mission. With the anchor 0 the mean drops to 0.25. With the anchor 0.5 it stays at 0.5, and the repair removes only damage accumulated within the horizon.

Repair maps of the tracked statistics. A model tracks moments or other summaries of the damage D, not D itself. A repair maps a tracked statistic θ with anchor g to $a\,\theta + (1-a)\,g$, with a factor $a \in [0,1]$ and $g = 0$ under ARD_∞.

- **Mean.** $a = 1 - \rho$.
- **Variance and Hoeffding budget.** $a = (1-\rho)^2$.
- **Cumulant generating function of the Chernoff bound.** $a = 1 - \rho$ gives an upper bound (Proposition 5.10).
- **Wiener variance.** It is the exception: a repair leaves it unchanged ($a = 1$), and it has no anchor (Section 5.15).

The derivation of the factors of the mean and the variance is in Appendix A.2, page 138. These maps are non-decreasing in the statistic and in its anchor, as fact (M1) and Lemma 5.2 require.

Laws per model. Every model of the formulation accepts both laws. Table 23 gives the reason for each model. Under ARD_1 with $\rho < 1$, the loop constraint requires a replacement in the operating phase of a component that gains damage there (Proposition 5.8).

6 Assumptions and Constraints

This section lists the assumptions on which the formulation rests. For each assumption it gives a reason, the consequence of a failure, and the place where the assumption is used. The input checks of the library enforce the assumptions that concern the domain of the inputs (Section 10.1.2).

6.1 Assumptions of the reliability rows

The first group concerns the empirical (rainflow) bounds of Section 5. The rows rest on four modelling assumptions.

Table 23: Repair laws accepted by each degradation model, with the reason.

Model	ARD_∞	ARD_1	Reason or note
Gaussian	yes	yes	both laws keep the state Gaussian, with exact moments (Proposition 5.23)
Inverse Gaussian	yes	yes	the cap holds for any repair weights and any dependence between the terms (Proposition 5.15 and Theorem 5.16)
Wiener	yes	yes	on the mean only; the variance changes only by replacement
Gamma	yes	yes	both laws keep the state a weighted sum of Gamma terms (Lemma 5.18), and the sharp cap holds for every such sum (Proposition 5.22)
Rainflow, every bound	yes	yes	under both laws, Chernoff uses a conservative recursion for the cumulant generating function (Proposition 5.10)

- **A0 (non-negative damage).** Every increment, the initial damage and every replacement draw are non-negative.
- **A1 (independence).** The mission increments are mutually independent, and independent of the initial damage and of every replacement draw. Each replacement installs a new draw, independent of everything else. Every bound except Markov needs A1.
- **A2 (bounded ranges; Hoeffding and Bernstein).** Each mission increment lies in an interval of known width. The initial damage is a known part plus independent terms, each in an interval; its Hoeffding budget is the sum of their squared widths, and its support is the width of the range of their sum. The replacement draw is described in the same way. A known damage has budget and support 0.
- **A3 (repetition).** The row of the bound holds on every day $k = 1, \ldots, T$, and after day T the operating phase repeats with period H_2, schedule and increment laws included. This is the setting of Theorem 5.4.

A0 is needed by every bound, and it is the only assumption of the Markov bound. A1 is needed by every bound except Markov, and A2 by the Hoeffding and Bernstein bounds. If an assumption fails, the row of a bound that needs it no longer implies $\Pr(D_k > \tau) \leq \varepsilon$.

6.2 Assumptions on the damage process

> **Assumption 1. Known increment laws.** The distribution of every increment is known, and it may depend on the member, the component, the mission and the day. It comes from the degradation model of the component. If the law is wrong, the tracked statistics are wrong, and so is the failure probability that the rows certify. Used in Section 5.2.

> **Assumption 2. No damage on idle and depot days.** On an idle day or a depot day, a component accumulates no damage. The dynamics leave the state unchanged on such days. A part that ages with calendar time needs a separate term (Assumption 3). Used in Section 5.2.

Assumption 3. Calendar ageing is neglected. The calendar term of the battery fade accrues also on idle days and depot days. Over short horizons it can be neglected. Over long horizons the dynamics would need a small drift that does not depend on the activity. Without the drift, the model underestimates the damage of a long horizon. Used in Section 8.2.4.

Assumption 4. Known initial and replacement damage. The initial damage has a known distribution with mean in $[0, \tau)$, and the reliability level is required from day 1 on. The damage just after a replacement is known as well, and its default is zero. A component at its threshold has failed already, so a mean of τ or more is not a valid start. Used in Section 5.2.

Assumption 5. The replacement state satisfies every row. The replacement state satisfies every row that holds on a replacement day, in the form built at the component. A linear form of a reliability row is stricter than the exact row. If the replacement state passes only the exact row, every replacement of the component is infeasible. Used in Section 5.2; an input check enforces it (Section 10.1.2).

Assumption 6. Unknown anchor before the horizon. When the value just after the last intervention before the horizon is unknown, the formulation takes the initial value of the statistic. A larger anchor gives a weaker repair, so this choice never overstates what a repair achieves. If the true anchor is smaller, the schedule is cautious, but it stays safe. Used in Section 5.16.

Assumption 7. Independent interventions. On a depot day, each component receives its intervention independently of the other components. This lets the dynamics of each component be written alone. If interventions were coupled the rows of one component would depend on the others. Used in Section 5.

Assumption 8. The operating phase repeats. The increment laws of the operating phase repeat with period H_2, and the operating phase repeats without end. A dependence on time that does not repeat is not represented. If the laws change from one repetition to the next, the certificate of the first repetition does not carry over. Used in Section 5, in the loop constraint.

6.3 Assumptions on the fleet and the costs

Assumption 9. Spare members on every day. The fleet has more members than the missions need on any day: $F > \max_k \sum_j d_{jk}$, and $F > M$. With $F = \sum_j d_{jk}$, no member could be in the depot on day k, and no repair could take place on that day. Used in Section 5; an input check enforces it (Section 10.1.2).

Assumption 10. Non-negative, non-decreasing costs. All four cost functions are non-negative and non-decreasing in each argument, and $C_D \geq 0$. So the cost never decreases when the schedule has more depot days, removes more damage, replaces more components

or accepts a higher aggregate damage. A negative C_D would reward damage. Used in Section 5.4.

6.4 Assumptions of single models

Assumption 11. Independent terms in the Gaussian, Wiener and Gamma models. The terms of the damage are mutually independent: the increments, the initial damage and each replacement draw (assumptions N1 and W1, and the independence of the Gamma terms). The cap of the inverse Gaussian model holds for any dependence between its terms. If the terms of one of the other three models depend on each other, the exact law of the sum is not the one that the row uses. Used in Section 5.15.

Assumption 12. Gaussian damage is practically non-negative. The input checks $\mu \geq 3\sqrt{v}$ keep the probability of a negative term at most $\Phi(-3) = 0.135\,\%$ for each term. The Gaussian law is an approximation of a non-negative damage. If the check fails, the model gives negative damage a probability that is not small. Used in Section 5.15.

Assumption 13. Reliability level below one half for Gaussian and Wiener. Components with a Gaussian or Wiener law have $\varepsilon < 0.5$. At $\varepsilon \geq 0.5$ the squared row does not describe the reliability requirement, because $\kappa_G \leq 0$. The range of the variance also grows without bound as $\varepsilon \to 0.5$. Used in Section 5.15 (Remark 5.24).

Assumption 14. Wiener variance and repair. The variance σ^2 of a Wiener increment is the same for every mission, because σ describes the material of the component, not the route. A repair acts on the mean only; this is a modelling choice. If the variance depends on the mission, or if a repair also lowers the variance, the Wiener rows are not the right ones. Used in Section 5.15.

Assumption 15. One shared support constant for Bernstein. The Bernstein row uses one constant b_ℓ for the whole component. It is the largest of the supports of the initial damage, of the replacement draw and of the increments of all missions. If one term has a larger support, the row is not valid. A large constant can make the row infeasible, because the row needs $\tau > 2\kappa\, b_\ell/3$ (Section 11). Used in Section 5.

Assumption 16. One scatter factor per installed unit. The scatter of a fatigue life is one multiplicative factor, drawn once at installation, and a replacement draws a new factor. The fitted families of the S-N scatter have a scale or a shape that does not depend on the stress. If the scatter changes with the stress level, a single factor does not describe it. Used in Section 5.11.

6.5 Assumptions of the case study

Assumption 17. Free period; bus type decoupled from place. The length of a period is not fixed, and every rate is given per physical unit. The bus type is decoupled from the place: realistic bus types run on the real lines of a real depot. If a rate does not scale with its unit, a change of the period changes the result. If the type does not fit the lines, the data of the type do not apply. Used in Section 8.2.1.

Assumption 18. Each line is served alone. The number of buses of a line is estimated with no bus on two lines in one day and with no reserve. Trolleybus lines are treated as lines of one battery-electric bus type. If buses are shared between lines or kept in reserve, the demand d_{jk} is different. Used in Section 7.3.

Assumption 19. Parallel battery packs and the repair law of the battery. The battery packs are wired in parallel, so that the repair of k of n equally aged packs is ARD_∞ with $\rho = k/n$. This is an inference, because the maker does not state it. The law is exact for the mean, not for the spread: with independent packs the variance falls by the factor $1 - \rho$, not $(1 - \rho)^2$. If the packs are not in parallel, ρ is different. Used in Section 8.2.4.

Assumption 20. Spread of the battery fade. The Gamma law of the battery has the rate $\beta = 1/(c^2\tau)$, which matches the spread of the damage at the threshold. Before the threshold it overstates the spread, and the observed coefficient of variation c overstates the spread under equal use. So the schedule is cautious. Used in Section 8.2.4.

Assumption 21. One tire stands for its set. The cell models one tire of its set. The legal limit holds for every tire, so by the union bound a target ε for the set needs the level ε/n in the cell. If the cell used the level ε, the set could exceed its target. Used in Section 8.2.4.

Assumption 22. Inverter cycles per stop. Each stop gives two temperature cycles, one in acceleration and one in braking, and half of the stops are uphill. The acceleration at stops is $1.0\,\mathrm{m/s^2}$. These values are assumptions, not measurements. If they are wrong, the damage of a stop is wrong. Used in Section 8.2.4.

7 Data and Inputs

The project uses two kinds of input. The first kind is the input file of the library. The second kind is the data of the case study of Section 8.

7.1 Input file of the library

The input file of the library holds the fleet, the missions, the degradation model of each component, the costs and the run options. Its schema is the section “Input File Schema” of the software specification. The reasons for the checks that the library applies to the inputs are in Section 10.1.2, and the assumptions on the inputs are in Section 6.

7.2 Empirical inputs of the rainflow model

The rainflow model needs statistics of the damage of each mission. Of the two ingredients of the Chernoff row (Section 5.7), the mean-and-support bound is a guaranteed bound. The second ingredient is an estimate from recorded executions of a mission.

- **Empirical cumulant generating function.** The second is

$$\widehat{\psi}_{\ell j}(s) = \ln\Big(\frac{1}{m}\sum_{r=1}^{m} e^{s\Delta D_r^{(j)}}\Big), \tag{179}$$

  built from the m recorded executions of mission j. It is an *estimate*, not a bound, so it must carry a one-sided confidence margin.

Repeating a mission tightens both ingredients: more executions sharpen $\widehat{\psi}_{\ell j}$, $\mu_{\ell j}$ and $b_{\ell j}$, and they shrink the margin.

7.3 Depots and lines

Three depots are candidates (Table 24).

- **Hardau and Hagenholz** are the two bus garages of VBZ in the city of Zurich [103]. Hardau includes a second hall, Herdern.
- **Bassersdorf** is the depot of the bus contractor EUROBUS welti-furrer AG, which runs 15 lines for VBG (Verkehrsbetriebe Glattal AG) [98]. VBG is a management company: contractors run the buses from their own depots, and the buses belong to them [99, p. 25].

Battery-electric buses run today from these depots as follows.

- **Bassersdorf.** VBG had 14 battery-electric buses among 121 buses on 31 Dec 2025 [99, p. 4], all on lines 759 and 768 of this depot [97]. Line 759 has been all-electric since the end of February 2023, with eight buses: a pilot bus of 2021 and seven more [95]. They are Mercedes-Benz eCitaro buses with 264 kWh, and they charge at the terminus Zürich Flughafen by a pantograph that comes down from a mast (opportunity charging) [94]. Line 768 has run Mercedes-Benz eCitaro G articulated buses (over 18 m) since 2025. They have 550 kWh usable, and they charge in the depot by a CCS (Combined Charging System) plug in about 4 h [96]. By difference, line 768 has six of them (our inference; VBG does not state it).
- **VBZ.** VBZ has 59 battery-electric buses, built in 2022: 15 HESS lighTram 10 Plug (10.80 m), 22 MAN Lion's City 12 E (480 kWh) and 22 MAN Lion's City 18 E (640 kWh), all charged in the depot [101]. VBZ uses them on neighbourhood and standard city lines [104]; the sources read do not say on which lines.

Data and method. The line features of Tables 24–26 are our computation from the following data.

- **Timetable.** We use the national timetable in GTFS (General Transit Feed Specification, the common file format of timetables), feed version 20260527, valid from 14 Dec 2025 to 12 Dec 2026 [84]. We keep only the trips of the operator of the depot (VBG or VBZ). The days are Tuesday 16 June, Sunday 21 June and a Saturday: 20 June 2026 for Bassersdorf,

27 June 2026 for the city garages. On 20 June, line 31 has extra short trips (378 trips against 291 on 27 June), so that day is not typical for the city. For each direction, the main pattern is the most frequent sequence of stops on the weekday.

- **Road length.** The length follows the OpenStreetMap (OSM, a map database built by volunteers) bus route relation of the same line, cut at the first and the last stop [68]. A relation is accepted when it passes all stops in order, every intermediate stop within 50 m, both termini within 150 m, and no gap between two road pieces exceeds 10 m; among the accepted relations, the shortest wins. This holds for 29 of 30 directions at Bassersdorf and for 37 of 47 directions at the city garages. The other directions use straight lines between stops, a lower bound on the length. The operators do not confirm the OSM lengths.
- **Official road geometry.** The ZVV (Zürcher Verkehrsverbund, the public-transport authority of the canton of Zurich) publishes its timetable in GTFS on the open-data portal of the city of Zurich, under the licence CC0 (public domain) [115]. Unlike the national feed, it has a file `shapes.txt` with the road geometry: about one million points, each with its distance along the road (checked on 10 Nov 2026). Its main shapes of line 759 measure 14.07 and 13.56 km. For lines 759 and 768 they agree with the OSM lengths within 1.6 % (our comparison). So official road geometry exists besides OSM; the tables of this section use OSM.
- **Heights.** The heights come from the profile service of swisstopo (the Swiss federal office of topography), height model COMB, with one sample about every 10 m [32]. We resample every 20 m and smooth by a moving average over 100 m. The ascent of a direction is the sum of its rises, and the steepest grade is the largest height change over 100 m of road. The height model gives the terrain, not the road deck, so bridges and underpasses give false steps; grades above about 8 % need a check on a map.
- **Mean speed.** With ℓ_0, ℓ_1 the lengths of the two directions and t_0, t_1 their running times, the mean speed is $(\ell_0+\ell_1)/(t_0+t_1)$. A running time is the median, over the weekday trips of the main pattern, of the time from the first departure to the last arrival. It includes the stops on the way, but not the layover at the termini.
- **Buses per line.** Let N_{jk} be the number of trips of line j on day k. Let a link be a pair of these trips (a, b) with $\mathrm{arr}_a + 3\,\mathrm{min} + e_{ab} \le \mathrm{dep}_b$. Here e_{ab} is the time of the empty run from the end of a to the start of b: zero at the same stop, else 1.3 times the straight distance at 20 km/h. Let m_{jk} be the largest number of links in which every trip has at most one successor and at most one predecessor. Our estimate of d_{jk} is the smallest number of buses that serve all trips of the line,

$$\hat{d}_{jk} \;=\; N_{jk} - m_{jk}. \tag{180}$$

  It takes each line alone: no bus serves two lines in one day, and there is no reserve. With a layover of 0 or 6 min instead of 3 min, line 759 needs 7 or 8 buses, and line 768 needs 6 or 8. The GTFS field `block_id` does not give the day-long blocks of a bus, so it cannot replace this estimate.
- **Vehicle-km per day.** For each trip of the day, the straight length from stop to stop is multiplied by the ratio of road length to straight length of the main pattern of its direction. Empty runs to and from the depot are not counted.

How the depots differ.

Table 24: The three candidate depots. VBZ: Verkehrsbetriebe Zürich; VBG: Verkehrsbetriebe Glattal. The upper rows come from the operators [97, 98, 103]. Lines measured: the lines that the operator lists for the depot and that have trips of that operator in the national timetable (Hardau: 24 of 26; Hagenholz: 8 of 9). Battery-electric buses: in service today. Vehicles: the number of vehicles that the operator states for the depot. Bassersdorf charger: plan of 2021 for line 759 [93, p. 1]. Hardau includes the Herdern hall; VBZ electrifies Hagenholz in two stages. The lower rows are our computation by the method of Section 7.3. A rural line has fewer than 1.5 stops per km and serves villages only (our rule). Ascent: in one direction. Speed and stops per km: range over the lines. The steepest grade counts only the directions measured on OSM roads. The 24 Hardau lines are listed in the file `case_study/zurich_city_line_features.csv` of the project repository.

	Bassersdorf	**Hardau**	**Hagenholz**
Operator	EUROBUS, for VBG	VBZ	VBZ
Place	outside the city	city of Zurich	city of Zurich
Lines measured	15	24 (6 trolleybus)	8
Battery-electric buses	on lines 759, 768	not stated per garage	not stated
Vehicles (operator)	not found	about 180	not stated
Depot chargers	1 of 40 kW	105 of 100 or 150 kW	not stated
Rural lines	2 (769, 797)	0	0 (743: countryside)
Lines leaving the city	depot outside	8	3
Lines with ascent ≥ 100 m	1 (769: 196 m)	13 (31: 242 m)	1 (80: 160 m)
Height range (m)	418–598	397–624	397–534
Steepest grade	10.2 % (769)	13.3 % (70)	13.0 % (80)
Mean speed (km/h)	9.9–31.5	9.9–24.5	17.0–32.4
Stops per km	1.14–4.08	2.25–4.96	1.71–3.04
Buses, weekday, $\sum_j \hat{d}_{jk}$	48	160	54
Vehicle-km, weekday	7,401	30,590	11,289

Table 25: Lines of the Hagenholz garage (VBZ). d0 and d1 are the two directions; d0 starts at the first terminus named. Climb: the larger ascent of the two directions. Buses: our estimate $\hat{d}_{jk}$ of (180) on Tuesday 16, Saturday 27 and Sunday 21 June 2026. All values are our computation (Section 7.3); all lengths follow OSM roads. The full table is the file `case_study/zurich_hagenholz_line_features.csv` of the project repository.

Line	Route	Length (km)	Stops	Speed	Climb	Buses
		d0 / d1	per km	(km/h)	(m)	Tue/Sat/Sun
37	Zürich, Mühlacker – Zürich, ETH Hönggerberg	3.01 / 2.92	3.04	19.8	78	2 / 2 / 1
61	Zürich, Mühlacker – Wallisellen, Glatt (Bus)	9.28 / 8.97	2.41	21.1	56	8 / 6 / 5
62	Zürich, Waidhof – Zürich, Schwamendingerplatz	8.10 / 7.45	2.64	20.7	48	6 / 4 / 4
69	Zürich, ETH Hönggerberg – Zürich, Milchbuck	4.07 / 4.16	2.19	23.5	67	5 / 3 / 4
75	Zürich, Seebacherplatz – Zürich, Schwamendingerplatz	7.40 / 7.35	2.85	17.0	64	11 / 9 / 6
80	Zürich Oerlikon, Bahnhof Nord – Zürich, Triemlispital	11.80 / 11.76	2.42	19.6	160	15 / 11 / 8
743	Stettbach, Bahnhof – Maur, See	10.37 / 10.12	1.71	32.4	53	3 / 2 / 2
745	Stettbach, Bahnhof – Fällanden, Wigarten	5.17 / 5.16	2.13	27.0	24	4 / 0 / 0
Sum						54 / 37 / 30

Table 26: Lines of the Bassersdorf depot (EUROBUS welti-furrer AG for VBG). Columns as in Table 25; buses on Tuesday 16, Saturday 20 and Sunday 21 June 2026. Lines 759 and 768 run with battery-electric buses today. *Straight lines between stops: a lower bound on the length. The full table is the file `case_study/zurich_line_features.csv` of the project repository.

Line	Route	Length (km)	Stops	Speed	Climb	Buses
		d0 / d1	per km	(km/h)	(m)	Tue/Sat/Sun
739	Zürich Flughafen, REGA – Zürich Flughafen, Bahnhof	2.08 / 2.13	1.90	25.3	10	2 / 0 / 0
742	Rümlang, Bahnhof – Zürich, Seebach	4.65 / 4.44	1.98	27.3	46	2 / 2 / 2
749	Bassersdorf, Bahnhof Süd – Dietlikon, Hinentalstrasse	4.84 / 4.88	1.85	27.8	54	2 / 0 / 0
759	Wangen b. Dübendorf, Dorfplatz – Zürich Flughafen, Bahnhof	14.08 / 13.56	1.99	21.8	77	8 / 7 / 4
766	Bassersdorf, Bahnhof – Kloten, Bahnhof	4.65 / 4.55	2.28	25.1	27	1 / 0 / 0
768	Zürich Flughafen, Bahnhof – Zürich Oerlikon, Bahnhof	5.66 / 5.62	2.31	21.1	54	6 / 4 / 4
769	Breite b. Nürensdorf, Winterthurerstr. – Bassersdorf, Bahnhof	4.42 / 8.59	1.31	30.0	196	3 / 0 / 0
771	Wallisellen, Schäfligraben – Wallisellen, Bahnhof	2.02 / 2.10	3.88	20.6	45	3 / 3 / 2
772	Wallisellen, Sportzentrum – Wallisellen, Bahnhof	2.33 / 2.08	4.08	17.6	28	2 / 2 / 2
773	Wallisellen, Frohheimstrasse – Wallisellen, Bahnhof	1.54 / 1.28	2.84	21.1	35	1 / 0 / 0
774	Wallisellen, Schulhaus Bürgli – Wallisellen, Bahnhof	0.97 / 1.16	3.75	16.0	41	2 / 2 / 0
781	Glattbrugg, Giebeleichstrasse – Zürich Oerlikon, Bahnhof	3.89 / 4.28	2.94	19.6	22	6 / 3 / 3
787	Brüttisellen, Obere Wangenstr. – Zürich Oerlikon, Bahnhof	9.73 / 9.59	1.97	20.0	56	5 / 5 / 3
795	Rümlang, Chilestieg – Rümlang, Ifangstrasse	2.15 / 2.63*	2.51	9.9	49	2 / 0 / 0
797	Oberhasli, Dorf – Rümlang, Bahnhof	4.29 / 6.22	1.14	31.5	58	3 / 3 / 2
Sum						48 / 31 / 22

- **Battery-electric buses today.** The bus type is assumed (Section 8.2.1), so a depot need not run battery-electric buses today. Only at Bassersdorf, however, can the estimate (180) be checked against counts of battery-electric buses per line.
- **Kinds of lines.** Bassersdorf has urban lines into Zürich Oerlikon (768, 781, 787), suburban lines and two rural lines (769, 797); only line 769 climbs 100 m or more. Here an urban line has at least 40 % of its stops in the city and a mean speed of at most 22 km/h (our rule). Hardau has busy lines through the centre, short neighbourhood lines, steep hill lines and 8 lines to suburban municipalities, but no rural line; 13 of its lines climb 100 m or more. Hagenholz has one countryside line (743, to Maur) and one steep line (80).
- **Trolleybus lines.** Six Hardau lines are trolleybus lines (buses fed by an overhead wire), and the Hagenholz lines 69 and 80 are to become trolleybus lines [103]. The case study treats them as lines for one battery-electric bus type.
- **Size.** On a weekday, Bassersdorf needs 48 buses, Hagenholz 54 and Hardau 160 (our estimate). A model run at Hardau can take a subset of its 24 lines.
- **Data.** The same national timetable covers all three depots.

The choice of the depot is open (Section 1.2).

7.4 Bus types

Each component model needs a fixed list of inputs (Section 8.2.4). We ranked the battery-electric city bus types by the number of these inputs that the sources read give (our count, Table 27). A type scores one point for each input given, and half a point for a partial value.

- **Battery, 6 points:** chemistry, gross capacity, usable capacity or depth-of-discharge rule, pack or module layout, cell maker, stated life or warranty.
- **Tires, 4 points:** tire size, empty mass, gross mass, axle loads.
- **Inverter, 3 points:** drive type and motor power, inverter maker, semiconductor type.
- **Energy, 1 point:** a measured energy use per km, with its conditions.

Recommendation. We recommend the Mercedes-Benz eCitaro (12 m) and the eCitaro G (18 m, articulated).

- **Battery data.** The eCitaro family has the most complete battery data of all types: chemistry, pack size and layout, cell maker and a cycle-life claim [27, 28][24, p. 10].
- **Tire inputs.** The data sheet gives the tire size, the gross mass and the axle loads [24, pp. 4, 9]. The Swiss vehicle register gives the empty mass of 211 eCitaro and 163 eCitaro G buses [18].
- **One family.** The eCitaro G shares the battery packs, the tire size and the drive with the eCitaro [24, pp. 4, 6, 10]. So one parameter set covers both lengths.
- **Case-study lines.** The eCitaro runs on line 759 and the eCitaro G on line 768 of the Bassersdorf depot [94, 96].
- **Gap.** The sources read give no measured energy use of either type.

The Solaris Urbino 12 electric is the alternative for 12 m if a measured energy use and a named

Table 27: Bus types ranked by the number of model inputs that the sources read give (our count; 14 points in all). [a]3 points for the build of 2026 with the ZF AxTrax 2 LF axle; 1 point for the builds with the ZF AVE 130 axle. The rank reflects the sources read, not the full documentation of the makers. Types without a maker document read (for example Iveco, Ebusco, Yutong and the Hess battery-electric buses) are not ranked.

Rank	Type	Battery	Tires	Inverter	Energy	Total	Main gaps
1	Mercedes-Benz eCitaro G, 18 m	6	4	3[a]	0	13	measured energy use; inverter of the buses in service
2	Mercedes-Benz eCitaro, 12 m	5	4	3[a]	0	12	measured energy use; usable energy; inverter of the buses in service
3	Solaris Urbino 12 electric	4	4	2.5	1	11.5	cell maker; warranty; which inverter goes with which motor
4	MAN Lion's City 12 E	5.5	4	1	0	10.5	inverter maker and semiconductor; measured energy use
5	MAN Lion's City 18 E	5	3	1	0	9	as the 12 E; axle loads
6–12	BYD, Proterra and New Flyer (USA); Irizar 12 and 18 m, Volvo, VDL, Solaris Urbino 18 electric	0–4	1–4	1–2	0–1	4–7	battery data, masses or axle loads

inverter maker (Medcom) matter more than the cell maker and the battery-life statements [90, p. 11].

Data of the recommended types.

- **Empty mass.** The Swiss vehicle register, state of 1 Nov 2026, gives a registered empty mass of 13,450–15,250 kg for 211 eCitaro buses and 19,650–22,100 kg for 163 eCitaro G buses [18]. This mass includes a driver of 75 kg [86, Art. 7 para. 1], so the bus alone is 75 kg lighter. The type approvals leave the empty mass blank, because it is fixed at the inspection of each vehicle [19, approval 2MB442, remark Z18]. The register names no operator. Seven eCitaro of 2023 at 13,450 kg and six eCitaro G of 2025 at 22,000 kg are registered in the postcode area that includes Bassersdorf; they are probably the buses of lines 759 and 768 (our inference from year, count and place).
- **Gross mass, axle loads, tires.** The eCitaro has a gross mass of 20,000 kg, with 7,500 kg on the front axle and 13,000 kg on the drive axle; the eCitaro G has 29,000 or 30,000 kg [24, p. 9]. Both have tires 275/70 R22.5, with 315/60 R22.5 as an option on the front axle [24, p. 4].
- **Battery packs.** The NMC3 generation (cathode of lithium nickel manganese cobalt oxide), built from the end of 2022, has packs of 98 kWh [27, 28]. A pack holds 9 modules of 600 cylindrical cells of type 21700, so 5,400 cells of 4.93 Ah, made by Akasol. A 12 m bus carries 4 to 6 packs, and an 18 m bus 4 to 7 [27][24, p. 10]. Akasol "assumes 4,000 charging cycles", depending on the depth of discharge and the use (a claim of the maker) [27, 28]. The NMC4 generation of 2026 has packs of 111 kWh [24, p. 10].
- **Drive and inverter.** The eCitaro and eCitaro G buses approved in Switzerland up to 2025 have the ZF AVE 130 axle, with two ZF AI300V2 wheel-hub motors of 126 or 141 kW each [19]. No type approval names an inverter maker, and no source read documents the inverter of this axle. The eCitaro sold in 2026 has the ZF AxTrax 2 LF axle [24, p. 6]. This axle has two stand-alone 800 V inverters with SiC (silicon carbide) semiconductors [113, pp. 2, 5, 7]. So SiC inverters are documented only for the build of 2026, not for the buses in service.

Measured energy use. As a substitute for the eCitaro, we use a magazine test of one Solaris Urbino 12 electric [90, p. 11]. Like the early eCitaro, this bus has a ZF AVE 130 axle. Its empty mass is 13,900 kg (maker value), and its NMC battery has 300 kWh nominal. The energy was measured at the battery output; it covers traction and air conditioning, and a share of the charging losses.

- **Whole test:** 1.126 kWh/km over 235.4 km, at 5–12 °C, partly in heavy rain.
- **City route, about 70 % load:** 1.023 kWh/km, at about 12 °C, dry, heating on.
- **City route, full load:** 1.525 kWh/km, at about 5 °C, in rain.

The test covers one bus, it is not peer-reviewed, and the magazine describes the method only briefly.

The VBZ fleet as the local alternative. If the case study uses a VBZ garage, the local battery-electric types are the MAN Lion's City 12 E and 18 E (Section 7.3).

- **Empty mass.** The register gives 14,570–15,100 kg for 42 Lion's City 12 E and 21,950–22,600 kg for 32 Lion's City 18 E [18].
- **Battery.** Each pack holds 12 exchangeable modules; the 12 E carries 4 to 6 packs, the 18 E 6 to 8 [54, pp. 9–10]. The usable share is 65 % or 90 % of the capacity, by the operating strategy [54, p. 9].
- **Inverter and energy.** No source read names the inverter. One study reports measured values for a VBZ Lion's City 12 E on a round trip of 44 km in winter: 57.07 kWh for the drive and 11.98 kWh for the auxiliaries [50, Table 1] (Section 9.4.1).

7.5 Simulation data and gaps

The data below feed the proposed simulation chain of Section 9.4.1.

Data. Table 28 lists the inputs of the chain. The operation of the buses can be simulated with public data, for the VBZ garages and for the VBG lines. Timetable, road shapes, elevation, measured running times, blocks and air temperature are open, and each was confirmed by download. The ZVV timetable in GTFS contains road shapes for every trip, with about one million points and their distance along the road [115]. Passenger loads are open for VBZ lines only [102]. The parameters of the bus and the real condition of its components are not public.

Gaps and how to estimate them.

- **Vehicle parameters.** Empty mass, drag area, rolling resistance, efficiency maps and HVAC power over temperature set the energy per km. Estimate them from the maker data and registered masses of Section 7.4. Check them against the energy split that Konzept et al. measured on VBZ buses: 57.07 kWh for the drivetrain and 11.98 kWh for the auxiliaries on the 44 km round trip [50, Table 1].
- **Speed inside a segment.** Only the stop times are public. Konzept et al. used operator telemetry, which is not public [50, Sect. 1.2]. Build synthetic drive cycles (step 4) and check the energy per km against the published values.
- **Passenger loads of the VBG lines.** No open data exist at stop level. Our proposal: scale the load profile of a similar VBZ line.
- **Spread of the load between single trips.** The VBZ data give yearly means of single trips, computed from counters in about 20 % of the vehicles [102]. Our proposal: draw the load around the mean, for example with Poisson boardings; no source read gives the spread.
- **Meaning of the block identifier.** The meaning of the field `UMLAUF_ID` of the Ist-Daten is taken from its name. On 10 Nov 2026, the platform opentransportdata.swiss could not be reached from the project's workstation, so its documentation of the Ist-Daten was not read. Its archive host served the monthly files [70]. For lines 759, 787 and 31, the number of block identifiers on 1 Oct 2026 equals the vehicle estimate of Section 7.3; for lines 768 and 89 it is about twice that estimate. So one identifier may cover only part of a day.
- **Charging plan and pack temperature.** Our proposal: charge at the nominal power from arrival until full, or with the "balanced" strategy of SimBA [75]. Assume a pack temperature near 25 °C, and add a seasonal case.

Table 28: Inputs of the simulation chain and their public sources. "Confirmed" means downloaded, in whole or in part, and counted, on 10 Nov 2026. VBZ: Verkehrsbetriebe Zürich. VBG: Verkehrsbetriebe Glattal. ZVV: Zürcher Verkehrsverbund. GTFS: General Transit Feed Specification. CC0: Creative Commons Zero, a dedication to the public domain. CC BY: Creative Commons Attribution. ODbL: Open Database License. OSM: OpenStreetMap. SOH: state of health, the remaining capacity over the initial capacity. Dwell time: the time that a bus stands at a stop.

Input	Available	Source	Licence	Confirmed
Timetable, stops, road shapes	yes, VBZ and VBG lines	ZVV GTFS [115]	CC0	yes, by byte ranges; every trip has a shape
Elevation	yes	swisstopo profile service and swissALTI3D [32]	"proprietary" (licence field); terms not read	yes: one profile and one 2 m tile
Running and dwell times	VBZ until 29 Jul 2023; all operators since then	VBZ Soll-Ist [100]; Ist-Daten [70]	CC0; open use, source named	yes: one week of VBZ (4 MB sample); the whole day 1 Oct 2026 of all operators
Vehicle blocks	yes; not in the GTFS feed	same two sources	as above	yes: 8 blocks on line 759, 1 Oct 2026
Passenger loads per trip and stop	VBZ: yearly means; VBG: none found	VBZ Fahrgastzahlen [102]	CC0	yes (4 MB sample); VBG lines absent
Air temperature	yes, hourly since 1980	MeteoSwiss, stations Zürich-Fluntern and Kloten [58]	CC BY	yes: hourly, 1 Jan to 9 Nov 2026, no gap
Traffic signals	positions only	OSM [69]	ODbL 1.0	yes: 104 signals near Zürich-Oerlikon; the count per route failed
Vehicle parameters	in part	Section 7.4	–	–
Charger power and places	in part	Section 7.3	–	–
Condition of the components (SOH, tread depth, inverter failures)	no public data found	–	–	–

- **Condition of the components.** Without operator data, the simulation cannot test the degradation laws (see below).

8 Problem Formalization: Concrete Case Study

This section specialises the abstract problem of Section 5 to one fleet of battery-electric city buses in Zurich. The data of the case study are in Section 7, and its assumptions are in Section 6. Of the components in the shortlist of Section 3, the case study tracks three: the traction battery, the tires and the power modules of the traction inverter. Section 3 also names the components that the case study leaves out.

8.1 Optimization problem for a fleet of electric vehicles

Table 29 lists the additional symbols that appear when the abstract formulation of Section 5 is specialised to a concrete fleet of electric vehicles. All symbols of Table 13 remain valid. The entries below either instantiate abstract quantities or add new ones.

Table 29: Additional notation for the electric-vehicle fleet specialisation (extends Table 13).

Symbol	Description
Cost parameters	
C_M	Cost of a depot day, paid once per member and depot day (scalar)
C_D	Damage-penalty coefficient (scalar)
$C_{R,i\ell}$	Cost of imperfect repair per unit of expected damage removed
$C_{\mathrm{rep},i\ell}$	Cost of a replacement of component ℓ of member i

8.1.1 Cost function

With the cost parameters of Table 29, the abstract objective of Section 5 takes the form:

$$\min \quad C_M \sum_{k=1}^{T}\sum_{i=1}^{F} x_{i0k} \;+\; \sum_{k=1}^{T}\sum_{i=1}^{F}\sum_{\ell=1}^{L} C_{R,i\ell}\, z_{i\ell k} \;+\; \sum_{k=1}^{T}\sum_{i=1}^{F}\sum_{\ell=1}^{L} C_{\mathrm{rep},i\ell}\, x^{r}_{i\ell k} \\ +\; C_D\, u. \tag{181}$$

The first three terms are weighted sums over the planning horizon. The first term counts depot days, and the second grows with the damage that each repair removes. The third term counts replacements, and the last one penalises the largest aggregate expected damage through u (see (76)).

8.2 Case study: battery-electric city buses in Zurich

This subsection sets up one realistic instance of the problem of Section 5, in the form of Section 8.1. The fleet is a set of battery-electric city buses (buses that run on their traction battery only) that serve the lines of one bus depot in or near Zurich. The depot, its lines, their timetables, their road lengths and their height profiles are real, and they come from public data. The bus types are real types in Swiss service, with their registered masses and the public data of their makers. The rest is assumed: one bus type serves every line of the depot, and the number of buses per line and the component coefficients are estimates (Sections 7.3 and 8.2.4).

8.2.1 Aim and setting

- **Aim.** The case study is a realistic instance of the general problem. Its lines differ in length, in stops per km, in speed and in climbs (Tables 24–26). So they wear the battery, the tires and the inverter of a bus at different rates (Section 8.2.4). The schedule gains when it moves buses between lines that wear them differently. For example, a bus that has served line 759 (14 km per direction) can move to line 774 (about 1 km per direction) and so delay its next intervention.
- **Missions.** A mission j is a bus line. In period k, line j needs d_{jk} buses in service, and the coverage row (42) assigns exactly that many. We estimate d_{jk} from the timetable, for a weekday, a Saturday and a Sunday (Section 7.3).
- **Period.** Section 5 calls the time step k a day. In the case study the length of a period is not fixed: it can be a day, a week or a month. So every rate is given per physical unit (km, kWh, stop, day). The increment of a period is the rate times the amount of that unit in the period. For example, a tire wear rate per 1,000 km and the km that a bus runs on its line in one week give the wear increment of that week.
- **Bus type and place.** The bus type is decoupled from the place. Realistic bus types, in service anywhere, run on the real lines of a real depot. So the depot need not run that type today. For example, the Mercedes-Benz eCitaro of Section 7.4 can serve the lines of a garage of Verkehrsbetriebe Zürich (VBZ, the transport company of the city of Zurich), although VBZ runs other types.
- **Public data only.** Every input comes from public data: timetables, road geometry, heights, the Swiss vehicle register, data sheets of the makers and publications of the operators. The case study uses no internal data of an operator.

8.2.2 Maintenance of the battery

- **Maintenance.** The maintenance of the battery takes a specific form. Replacing a subset of battery modules removes a corresponding fraction of the damage of the pack. This matches the mean map of the ARD_∞ operator $\mathcal{R}$, with ρ the fraction of modules renewed, but not its action on the damage path. With independent modules the variance falls by the factor $1-\rho$, not $(1-\rho)^2$, so a model that tracks the variance cannot use the variance map of Section 5.16 for this action. A full replacement of the pack is the AGAN action x^r.

8.2.3 Maintenance focus of battery-electric buses

The case study tracks three components of each battery-electric bus (BEB): the traction battery, the tires and the power modules of the traction inverter. The choice applies the two criteria of Section 4.1.7: (C1) usage-driven degradation and (C2) operational significance. The evidence comes from fleet data and fleet reports:

- BEB fleets in Lublin (Poland), Zhenjiang and Shenzhen (China), Foothill Transit, Long Beach and AC Transit (California), Duluth (Minnesota), Toronto (Canada) and Thuringia (Germany);
- a fleet of trolleybuses that run on a traction battery where the overhead line is missing (Russia);
- two Swiss studies: a battery-bus trial in Zurich and a planning study for the mountain

lines of the Upper Engadine.

Table 30 gives the evidence per component. Two limits apply to all of it.

- **Warranty.** In most fleets with cost data, the battery and the electric drive were under warranty, and the reports remove warranty work from the costs [31, p. 37], [88, p. 94]. So the cost shares understate these two systems.
- **Definitions.** The fleets define a failure in different ways. So we compare components within one fleet, not numbers across fleets (our reading).

Components tracked.

- **Traction battery.** It has the broadest field evidence of availability loss and replacement (Table 30), so it meets (C2). It is also the only component with fade measured in a fleet. Its fade grows with the energy throughput of the missions (Section 4.1.8), so it meets (C1).
- **Tires.** They wear faster on BEBs in the two fleets with numbers. Tread depth is a measurable damage with a legal limit, so it bears on safety (C2). Its driver is the distance under the mass of the bus (C1).
- **Inverter power modules.** The field evidence is thin, and no fleet splits the power-electronics failures into modules, capacitors or boards. Their failure stops the bus: the recalled transistor fault can cause a loss of power steering and drive power [91] (C2). Power cycling at each start and stop fatigues the modules (Section 4.1.8). One maker states that the many starts and stops of city buses raise the power-cycling demand on the traction inverter [8] (C1). Their damage follows the stops, not the distance, so the schedule sees a line feature that the other two components do not see (our reading).

Components left out.

- **Doors, charging equipment and the 24 V system.** They fail often (Table 30). But the Weibull shape is below 1 for all eight systems of the Lublin fleet, from 0.838 to 0.911 [66, Table 8]. So their failure rates fall with age. Our reading: these are not wear-out failures that a damage model describes. The causes named are winter weather for the doors and discharge while parked for the 24 V batteries [66, Sec. 2], not the damage of a mission. Part of the charging equipment is infrastructure, not the bus. The traction battery also has a shape below 1 in Lublin, but its failures there are mostly contactor faults [66, Sec. 2]; its capacity fade, which the model tracks, is a separate process with fleet measurements.
- **Brakes.** Regenerative braking takes most of the service braking, and the fleets report less brake work than on diesel or gas buses (Table 30). So the brakes fail (C2) in a BEB fleet.
- **DC-link capacitors.** No source shows field wear-out of the DC-link capacitor in any vehicle. Model studies predict lives beyond the design life: about 40–50 years at 1% failed for a high-speed train [111, accepted manuscript, pp. 12–14], and about 1,500,000 km for most capacitors of a battery-electric van, against a requirement of 300,000 km or 15 years [21, accepted manuscript, pp. 3, 18]. One maker's example cycle limits the life of its bus inverter by the power semiconductors, not by the capacitor [6].

Table 30: Field evidence on the components of battery-electric buses (BEB), and the decision of the case study. The Weibull scale and shape refer to the distance between failures of one system in the Lublin fleet; a shape below 1 means a failure rate that falls with age. Shares of "fault mentions" are our computation from the counts of the nine faults listed for Zhenjiang. HV: high voltage; SOH: state of health, the remaining capacity over the initial capacity.

Component	Field evidence	Wear-out evidence	Case study
Traction battery	Lublin: one of the three lowest Weibull scales, 15,957 km [66, Table 8]. Zhenjiang: 41% of the fault mentions [63, Table 1, p. 9]. AC Transit: available 57% and 61% of the time against 94% and 90% for diesel buses; more than half of the lost days from HV batteries and charging [2, p. 19], [3, p. 19]. Shenzhen: replaced after 2–2.5 or 3–4.5 years [88, p. 70]	SOH loss of 4.06 ± 1.19 points per year in 110 trolleybuses [53, Table 9, p. 21]	tracked
Tires	Foothill Transit: 5,920 and 6,116 miles per tire for two BEB fleets against 10,796 and 10,640 for gas buses; tires 17% of the maintenance cost of one BEB fleet [46, pp. 53, 78]. Shenzhen: tire maintenance about 30% more costly than on diesel buses, because of the weight [88, p. 68]	tread loss almost linear in distance (diesel buses) [36, Sec. 3.1]	tracked
Inverter power modules	Toronto: inverter 10% and 3% of the propulsion defects of two fleets [89, Charts 6 and 8]. Duluth: inverters inside the electric-drive downtime, 9.1% of the planned days [47, Table 5]. Recall of 238 buses: an inverter transistor may overheat and fail [91]. Trolleybuses: power electronics second in downtime [53, Fig. 12]	power-cycling fatigue in the maker's tests [110, Sec. 1]; no field wear-out data	tracked
Doors	Lublin: lowest Weibull scale, 14,154 km, 40% below the diesel buses (23,713 km) [66, Tables 8–9, p. 15]. Zurich trial: doors among the failures [13, p. 9]	Weibull shape 0.888 [66, Table 8]	left out
Charging equipment	Zhenjiang: 21% of the fault mentions [63, Table 1, p. 9]. Lublin: Weibull scale 16,424 km [66, Table 8]	Weibull shape 0.856 [66, Table 8]	left out
24 V system	Lublin: Weibull scale 23,254 km; batteries discharged while parked [66, Table 8, Sec. 2]	Weibull shape 0.838 [66, Table 8]	left out
Brakes	Thuringia: brake service intervals doubled [78, p. 13]. Foothill Transit: brakes 1.1–2.4% of the cost against 5.4–5.7% for gas buses [46, Tables 14 and 27]	Lublin: sensor and adjuster faults, not pad wear [66, Sec. 2]	left out
DC-link capacitors	No field data on the capacitor in any vehicle; rail converters show early-life failures only [39]	model studies only [21, 111]	left out

8.2.4 Component models

This subsection gives one model per component: the damage and its threshold τ, the degradation family, the mean increment per period as a formula of the line features, the repair, the replacement, the initial state and the main gaps. Table 31 collects the values. The line features come from Tables 25 and 26. Three symbols are common to all components: L_{jk}, the km that one bus runs on line j in period k; t_k, the number of days of period k; and s_j, the stops per km of line j. The worked values are for one weekday on lines 759 and 768. A value derived by the project is marked "our estimate" or "our computation".

Traction battery.

- **Damage and threshold.** The damage is the capacity fade $D = 1 - \mathrm{SOH}$, with SOH the state of health (remaining capacity over initial capacity). The threshold is $\tau = 0.20$: the end of life (EOL) at 80% SOH is the "market definition", and Swiss planning assumes one battery replacement per bus life of 12–14 years [49, p. 28]. The VBZ trial report also splits the installed capacity with a degradation reserve of 20% [13, p. 34]. An alternative is $\tau = 0.30$: in Thuringia the planned life is 6–8 years and 4,000 cycles, and the probable life is 8–12 years down to 70% remaining capacity [78, p. 10].
- **Family.** Gamma, with one rate β per cell. The true fade is monotone, and Gamma increments are non-negative. A Gamma increment has variance μ/β, so one β fits every line and every period length. We set $\beta = 1/(c^2\tau)$, which matches the spread $c\tau$ of the damage at the threshold, where the reliability row binds; before the threshold it overstates the spread. The only fleet spread found is a coefficient of variation $c = 1.19/4.06 = 0.29$ of the yearly SOH loss over 110 trolleybuses [53, Table 9, p. 21]. So $\beta = 1/(0.29^2 \cdot 0.20) \approx 60$ (our computation). This spread also contains different use, because the annual km and the share of km on battery differ between the vehicles; so c overstates the spread under equal use (our reading).
- **Increment.** For a bus on line j in period k, our estimate of the mean increment is

$$\mu_{jk} = t_k\, c_{\mathrm{cal}} + k_{\mathrm{EFC}}\, \frac{L_{jk}\, e_j}{E_{\mathrm{nom}}}, \qquad e_j = e_0 + k_\theta\, \theta_j + \frac{P_{\mathrm{HVAC}}}{v_j}. \tag{182}$$

  - c_{cal} is the calendar fade per day, and k_{EFC} the fade per equivalent full cycle (EFC: charge throughput over the nominal capacity).
  - e_j is the energy per km drawn from the battery; $E_{\mathrm{nom}} = 264\,\mathrm{kWh}$ is the nominal energy of the line-759 buses (Section 7.3).
  - θ_j is the mean absolute grade of the round trip, in percent: the ascent plus the descent of both directions over their length.
  - v_j is the mean speed in km/h, and P_{HVAC} the mean power of heating, ventilation and air conditioning (HVAC) in kW.

  The coefficients (Table 31) are our computation.

  - c_{cal} and k_{EFC} are marginal rates of the fade models of a large LFP (lithium iron phosphate) cell and of an NMC cell that NREL (the US National Renewable Energy Laboratory) publishes as code [65]. They hold at 25 °C, the temperature at which the eCitaro keeps its cells [27]. The maker's claim of 4,000 cycles [27] gives $5 \cdot 10^{-5}$ per cycle, calendar fade included.

  - e_0 and k_θ fit two Zurich lines of the VBZ trial bus: about 0.74 kWh/km at a mean gradient of 1.2% and 0.91 kWh/km at 3.8% (chart values read by us) [13, p. 35].
  - $P_{\mathrm{HVAC}} = 4.8$ kW is an average auxiliary power of 8 kW [37, Sec. 4.1] less 40%: with its heat pump, the eCitaro needs about 40% less HVAC energy than the diesel Citaro [28]. The VBZ trial bus heated with diesel fuel, so P_{HVAC} comes on top of the fit.

  On line 759 the formula gives 0.95 kWh/km, 0.87 EFC and $6.2 \cdot 10^{-5}$ per weekday, that is 2.6% per 100,000 km (our computation). A fleet of 105 European buses lost 2.4% or 7.1% per 100,000 km, by two methods of estimation; "Either value is possible" [83, p. 5]. So the central coefficients are a low-fade choice. At this rate $\tau = 0.20$ comes after about 8.9 years: above the makers' expected 6–8 years [49, p. 28], and inside the probable 8–12 years in Thuringia [78, p. 10].

- **Limits of the increment.** The energy fit rests on two Zurich lines of one lighter 12 m bus with a diesel heater [13, p. 35], so k_θ is an order of magnitude (our reading). The library adds damage only on mission periods, so the calendar fade of the depot periods is lost; it is small against the uncertainty of c_{cal} (our reading). The eCitaro G of line 768 needs its own e_0, k_θ and $E_{\mathrm{nom}} = 550$ kWh usable; no source read gives its energy use.
- **Repair.** A change of some packs or modules. The maker states that its modular packs can be repaired and overhauled during their first life [25], and in Shenzhen the makers often replaced only some cells [88, p. 70]. So one maker offers it and one fleet practises it; no source shows it as established or measures its gain. The law is ARD_∞ with $\rho = k/n$ for k of n equally aged packs: $\rho = 0.17$ for one of six packs of 98 kWh [27], and 0.25 for one of four. This rests on our inference that the packs are wired in parallel; the maker does not state it. The law is exact for the mean, not for the spread: with independent packs the variance falls by the factor $1 - \rho$, not $(1 - \rho)^2$ (Section 4.1.7, worked example). One module of a series string gives a much smaller ρ, about 0.03 (our estimate). One pack costs about $C_{\mathrm{rep}}/6 \approx 10{,}000$ EUR plus labour (no source); at $D = 0.15$ it removes 0.025, so $C_R \approx 400{,}000$ EUR per unit of fade (our computation). The real cost is per pack, so this linear C_R holds only near the chosen D.
- **Replacement.** A new pack, with $\mu_{\mathrm{new}} = 0$. Its cost is about 60,000 EUR, range 40,000–110,000 EUR (our estimate). In a German cost comparison, one battery replacement raises the discounted capital cost of a 12 m depot-charged bus of 2023 by about 56,000 EUR (our computation from the table of [73, p. 377]). Chinese operators report 30–50% of the purchase cost of the bus [55, p. 5]. No source read gives the downtime.
- **Initial state.** $\mu_0 = 0.10$ (range 0.05–0.20) for buses 2–4 years old: the mean SOH of the trolleybus fleet was 89.98% at the start of its record [53, Table 10]. Formula (182) gives about 0.08 for a line-759 bus in service since February 2023 (our computation). The initial Gamma term with the same c has rate $1/(c^2\mu_0) = 119$ at $\mu_0 = 0.10$.
- **Gaps.** The measured fade of the eCitaro in service; the gain and the cost of a partial repair; a pack price for buses; the energy use of both eCitaro types on Zurich lines; the effect of opportunity charging (line 759) against depot charging (line 768) on the fade.

Tires. Each bus has two tire cells: the steer axle with $n = 2$ tires and the drive axle with $n = 4$ tires (twin rear tires, as in the fleet that gives the wear rates [36, Sec. 2]).

- **Damage and threshold.** The damage is the tread depth lost in the main grooves, in

mm, at the worst groove [36, Sec. 2]. A city-bus tire of the eCitaro size 275/70 R22.5 has a new depth of 19.5 mm (steer) or 20.4 mm (drive) [38, p. 38]. An operator replaced its bus tires at about 2 mm [36, Sec. 2], so $\tau = 17.5$ mm (steer) and 18.4 mm (drive). The legal minimum is 1.6 mm for every vehicle [86, Art. 58 para. 4]; it would give 17.9 and 18.8 mm.

- **Family.** Inverse Gaussian with $\eta = c^2 = 0.09$, where $c = 0.30$ is the spread of the wear rate within one tire set; between tire sets it is 0.19 [36, p. 6]. The increments are non-negative. The cap of the inverse Gaussian model holds for any dependence between the terms (Proposition 5.15 and Theorem 5.16). So it covers a wear rate that is random per tire but fixed over its life. The alternative is Gamma with $\beta = 1/(c^2\tau)$: 0.635 (steer) and 0.604 (drive) per mm. At $\varepsilon = 0.01$ the cap is $0.48\,\tau$ (our computation; between the values for $\eta = 0.05$ and $\eta = 0.25$ in Table 21). So a plan without new depth readings uses about half of the tread; the spread between tires causes this, not the family. The cell models one tire of its set. The legal limit holds for every tire, so by the union bound a target ε for the set needs the level ε/n in the cell (our derivation).
- **Increment.** Our estimate of the mean increment of axle set l is

$$\mu_{ljk} = r_l \, f_{\mathrm{BEB}} \, L_{jk} \, q_j. \tag{183}$$

  - r_l is the wear rate of new 275/70 R22.5 tires on diesel buses of regional routes: 0.15 (steer) and 0.16 (drive) mm per 1,000 km [36, Table 6].
  - $f_{\mathrm{BEB}} = 1.35$ (range 1.3–1.8) is the factor of a BEB (our estimate). It rests on the tire cost in Shenzhen, about 30% above diesel buses [88, p. 68], and on the miles per tire at Foothill Transit, where the gas buses ran 1.82 and 1.74 times as many miles per tire as the two BEB fleets [46, pp. 53, 78] (our computation). The Foothill ratio is confounded by the routes: the report names potholes and broken curbs [46, p. 53].
  - $q_j = 1$ is the route factor. The speed factor of the European emission inventory method is flat below 40 km/h [16, Fig. B1], and every case-study line is slower, so no cited relation separates the lines.

  On line 759 this gives 0.049 mm (steer) and 0.052 mm (drive) per weekday. The threshold comes after about 85,000 km, about one year on line 759 (our computation).
- **Repair.** Regrooving cuts new grooves into the rubber under the worn tread. In Switzerland only tires marked as regroovable may be regrooved [86, Art. 60 para. 3]. The law is ARD_∞ with $\rho \approx 0.2$ (range 0.17–0.25): ρ is the restored depth over the damage at the regroove (our derivation). The restored depth is at most 3 mm [38, p. 44], or 3–4 mm [59, slide 4]. This law is an approximation. Real regrooving restores a fixed depth, once per tire, and only when 3–6 mm of tread remain [38, pp. 44–45]. The model allows a proportional repair at any time and any number of times. A regroove costs about 12% of a new tire [59, slide 7], so $C_R \approx 0.04$ times the price of a new tire per mm and tire (our computation).
- **Replacement.** A new tire, or on the drive axle a retread at about 50% of the price of a new tire [59, slide 7]. The Varese operator fits retreads on the rear axle only [36, Sec. 2]. The replacement value is $\mu_{\mathrm{new}} = 0$. No source read gives a tire price in CHF.
- **Initial state.** No source gives the tread depths of a running fleet. If tires are replaced at τ and wear at a steady rate, the damage of a tire at a random time is uniform on $[0, \tau)$, with mean $\tau/2$ (stationary renewal; our derivation). The operator's last depth readings, with zero variance, are better.
- **Gaps.** f_{BEB} from tread readings of battery and diesel buses on the same lines; tire prices

in CHF; the noise of one tire's own wear path, for plans with new readings; the passenger load per line; the tread depth of a retread.

Inverter power modules.

- **Reference inverter.** No source read documents the inverter of the eCitaro buses in service (Section 7.4). The reference is an inverter of the Semikron SKAI 2 HV family: insulated-gate bipolar transistors (IGBT) with sintered chips and aluminium–copper bonds, up to 800 V DC [79]. Its maker publishes a power-cycling model for this chip technology [110, Table 3] and a design target for traction inverters of heavy-duty vehicles [8]. More than 50,000 inverters of this family run in Chinese city buses [9]. No source read names a bus model with this inverter, so the case-study bus is a composite: this inverter in an eCitaro.
- **Damage.** The damage is the Miner sum $D = \sum_i n_i / N_{f,i}$ over the cycles of the junction-temperature swing ΔT_j, for the chip with the largest sum. N_f is the maker's life curve at 15% failure probability, with the end of life at a 20% rise of the forward voltage [110, Sec. 1.2]:

$$N_f = A_0 \, A_1^{\xi} \, \Delta T_j^{\alpha - \xi} \, \exp\!\Big(\frac{E_a}{k_B T_{jm}}\Big) \, \frac{C + t_{\mathrm{on}}^{\gamma}}{C + 2^{\gamma}}, \qquad \xi = \exp\!\Big(-\frac{\Delta T_j - T_0}{\lambda_T}\Big), \tag{184}$$

  with T_{jm} the mean junction temperature in K and t_{on} the heating time in s. The parameters for sintered chips are $A_0 = 2.05 \cdot 10^{11}$, $A_1 = 60$, $T_0 = 38\,\mathrm{K}$, $\lambda_T = 17\,\mathrm{K}$, $\alpha = -4.3$, $E_a = 2.54 \cdot 10^{-20}\,\mathrm{J}$, $C = 1.44$ and $\gamma = -1.21$ [110, Table 3]. A factor 0.33 on N_f applies to SiC devices up to 1200 V [110, Sec. 2.5]. The maker fitted the model on aluminium bonds; aluminium–copper bonds likely last longer, so the model is likely conservative here (our inference).
- **Threshold.** The spread of life between modules is one factor per module, shared by all its periods: the unit-specific scatter (II) of Table 20. So it enters τ, not the increments. With a Weibull shape k of module life, a module fails before D reaches τ with probability $1 - \exp(-\ln(1/0.85)\,\tau^k)$. Setting this probability to 1% gives (our derivation)

$$\tau = \big(\ln 0.99 / \ln 0.85\big)^{1/k}, \tag{185}$$

  that is $\tau = 0.573$ for $k = 5$ and $\tau = 0.814$ for $k = 13.5$. Shapes from 13.5 to 24 fit one industrial module at a swing of 81 K (our computation from [23, Table IV]); $k \approx 4$–5 is our reading of the spread of the maker's tests at 30 K [110, Fig. 3]. This is the ε-splitting of Remark 5.13 with $\delta = 0.01$: the total failure probability is at most $0.01 + \varepsilon$ (union bound).
- **Family.** Rainflow (Palmgren–Miner damage), as Section 4.1.8 gives for power modules, with the Hoeffding bound (see the choice of the bound below).
- **Increment.** Our estimate of the mean increment is

$$\mu_{jk} = \delta_{\mathrm{stop}} \, G_j \, s_j \, L_{jk} \, F_k. \tag{186}$$

  - $\delta_{\mathrm{stop}} = 2/N_f(\Delta T_{\mathrm{ref}}) = 3.6 \cdot 10^{-7}$ is the damage of one stop on a flat road. We assume two cycles per stop, one in acceleration and one in braking, as in a car study [51, Fig. 19], a lowest junction temperature of 60 °C and $t_{\mathrm{on}} = 10\,\mathrm{s}$.
  - $\Delta T_{\mathrm{ref}} = 40\,\mathrm{K}$ is our estimate. It makes $D = 1$ after the maker's design target, "60000 and more operating hours during life" [8], at 43–49 stops per hour (stops per km times

mean speed of lines 759 and 768; our computation). No source read gives the swing per stop of a bus inverter. With the maker's 10 km per operating hour [8], the rate is 21.5 stops per hour; then $\Delta T_{\mathrm{ref}} = 45.5\,\mathrm{K}$ and the damage per km doubles.

- $G_j = \frac{1}{2}\big[N_f(\Delta T_{\mathrm{ref}})/N_f((1+x_j)\Delta T_{\mathrm{ref}}) + N_f(\Delta T_{\mathrm{ref}})/N_f((1-x_j)\Delta T_{\mathrm{ref}})\big]$ is the grade factor (our estimate), with $x_j = g\,\theta_j^{\uparrow}/a$. Half of the stops are uphill and half downhill on the mean uphill grade $\theta_j^{\uparrow}$ (the ascent of both directions over half the round trip), with $g = 9.81\,\mathrm{m/s^2}$ and an acceleration $a = 1.0\,\mathrm{m/s^2}$ at stops (assumption). So $G_j = 1.16$ on line 759 and 1.38 on line 768.
- $F_k = \exp\big(E_a/k_B \cdot (1/T_{jm,\mathrm{ref}} - 1/T_{jm,k})\big)$ corrects for the coolant temperature of period k: a factor 1.15 or 0.86 for 10 K more or less (our computation). No source read links the coolant temperature to the ambient temperature.

So the damage is $8.3 \cdot 10^{-7}$ per km on line 759 and $1.16 \cdot 10^{-6}$ on line 768, that is $2.0 \cdot 10^{-4}$ and $2.65 \cdot 10^{-4}$ per weekday (our computation). A car study gives $4.6 \cdot 10^{-7}$ to $1.5 \cdot 10^{-6}$ per km on two test cycles (our computation from [51, Table VII]), the same order.

- **Uncertainty.** The ratio between lines rests on the damage per stop and on the slope of (184); it is the more reliable part. The level rests on one calibration. A swing 10% larger or smaller changes the damage by a factor 1.8 or 0.5, and a lighter load can lower it by one to two orders of magnitude. So the level is uncertain by up to two orders of magnitude (our estimate).
- **Repair.** None found, so $\rho = 0$. Active thermal control lowers the future increments, not the damage already done (our reading).
- **Replacement.** A new inverter, with $\mu_{\mathrm{new}} = 0$. No source read gives its cost or its downtime.
- **Initial state.** Zero for a new inverter; else the days in service times the mean daily increment, for example 0.27 after 3.75 years on line 759 (our computation).
- **Gaps.** The swing per stop of a bus inverter; the stop rate behind the design target; the Weibull shape of traction modules at small swings; the variance of the increment; the cost and the downtime of a replacement; the inverter of the buses in service.

Repairs, replacements and the loop constraint. The loop constraint needs every component that gains damage in the operating phase to come back, in each repetition, by a repair or a replacement (Section 5.3.4).

- **Battery and tires.** Their ARD_∞ repairs can close the loop. For the tires this rests on the approximation above: the model may regroove the same tire many times.
- **Inverter.** It has no repair, so the loop constraint needs a replacement of the inverter in every repetition of the operating phase. Replacements must then be allowed; in the package `fleet_management` one flag, `allow_replacement`, allows them for the whole fleet.
- **Length of the repetition.** The battery and the inverter last for years, the tires about one year on line 759. When the operating phase is much shorter, a schedule that repeats it overstates the rate of their interventions (our reading; Section 1.2).

Choice of the tail bound for the inverter. The rainflow model offers the five bounds of Table 17. We compare the three that fit the inputs of the inverter.

Table 31: Parameters of the three component models. Values without a citation are our estimate or our computation (Section 8.2.4). Weekday values are for one bus on line 759 / line 768; the battery and tire values use the 12 m bus on both lines. SOH: state of health; EOL: end of life; EFC: equivalent full cycle; HVAC: heating, ventilation and air conditioning; c: coefficient of variation; k: Weibull shape of module life.

	Traction battery	**Tires (per axle set)**	**Inverter power modules**
Damage D	capacity fade $1 - \mathrm{SOH}$	tread depth lost, mm	Miner sum on the 15% life curve [110]
Threshold τ	0.20, EOL at 80% SOH [49, p. 28]; alternative 0.30 [78, p. 10]	steer 17.5, drive 18.4 mm: new depth [38, p. 38] minus 2 mm [36, Sec. 2]	0.573 ($k = 5$), 0.814 ($k = 13.5$), Eq. (185)
Model in the library	Gamma, $\beta = 60$	inverse Gaussian, $\eta = 0.09$; or Gamma, $\beta = 0.635$ / 0.604 per mm	rainflow, Hoeffding; support $b = 1.725\,\mu$
Spread	$c = 0.29$ between buses [53, Table 9]	$c = 0.30$ within a set, 0.19 between sets [36, p. 6]	$k = 13.5$–24 [23, Table IV]; $k \approx 4$–5 [110, Fig. 3]
Increment	Eq. (182): $c_{\mathrm{cal}} = 2.7 \cdot 10^{-5}$ per day, $k_{\mathrm{EFC}} = 4.0 \cdot 10^{-5}$ per EFC [27, 65]; $e_0 = 0.66$ kWh/km, $k_\theta = 0.065$ kWh/km per % [13, p. 35]; $P_{\mathrm{HVAC}} = 4.8$ kW [37, Sec. 4.1], [28]	Eq. (183): $r_l = 0.15$ / 0.16 mm per 1,000 km [36, Table 6]; $f_{\mathrm{BEB}} = 1.35$ [88, p. 68], [46, pp. 53, 78]; $q_j = 1$	Eq. (186): $\delta_{\mathrm{stop}} = 3.6 \cdot 10^{-7}$ at $\Delta T_{\mathrm{ref}} = 40$ K, from 60,000 h [8]; N_f from [110, Table 3]; $G_j = 1.16$ / 1.38
Mean increment per weekday	$6.2 \cdot 10^{-5}$ / $6.2 \cdot 10^{-5}$	steer 0.049 / 0.046 mm; drive 0.052 / 0.050 mm	$2.0 \cdot 10^{-4}$ / $2.65 \cdot 10^{-4}$
Repair	packs or modules; ARD_∞, $\rho = 0.17$ (one of six packs)	regrooving; ARD_∞, $\rho \approx 0.2$ [38, pp. 44–45], [59, slide 4]	none; $\rho = 0$
Repair cost C_R	about 400,000 EUR per unit of fade, at $D = 0.15$	about 0.04× the price of a new tire, per mm and tire [59, slide 7]	—
Replacement and C_{rep}	new pack, about 60,000 EUR (40,000–110,000) [73, p. 377], [55, p. 5]	new tire (1× price) or retread on the drive axle (0.5× price) [59, slide 7]	new inverter; cost not found
Initial state μ_0	0.10 (0.05–0.20) [53, Table 10]	uniform on $[0, \tau)$, mean $\tau/2$; or the last reading	0 if new; else days in service × mean daily increment

- **Inputs.** No source gives the variance of the inverter damage under one use. The support follows from a worst day: $b = 1.5 \cdot 1.15\,\mu$, with 50% more stops than planned and a coolant 10 K warmer (our assumption). Hoeffding's inequality [43] needs only the mean and the support. Cantelli and Bernstein need the variance. For them we bound it by the support: an increment X lies in $[0, b]$, so $\mathbb{E}[X(b - X)] \geq 0$ gives $\operatorname{Var} X \leq \mu(b - \mu)$, the Bhatia–Davis bound. The range starts at 0 here, so this bound holds (paragraph *Width of a range* of Section 5.7).
- **Margins.** Table 32 gives the share of τ that each row keeps as a margin (our computation).
- **Dependence on ε.** Cantelli's bound on the tail falls only like the inverse square of the margin; the bounds of Hoeffding and Bernstein fall exponentially in it. So, as ε falls, the margin of Cantelli grows about like $\varepsilon^{-1/2}$, and the other two only about like $(\ln(1/\varepsilon))^{1/2}$.
- **Bernstein against Hoeffding.** With the variance bounded through the same support, Bernstein keeps almost the same margin as Hoeffding. It is tighter only with a measured variance well below $\mu(b - \mu)$.

So the case study uses Hoeffding: it needs no variance, and it keeps only 5–7% of τ as a margin. A measured variance would need a simulation of the life model (184) over load records of the lines (Section 9.4.1).

Table 32: Share of the threshold $\tau = 0.57$ that the reliability row of each bound keeps as a margin at the last admissible period, for the inverter power modules (our computation). The damage grows by equal weekday increments without repair: mean $2.0 \cdot 10^{-4}$ on line 759 and $2.65 \cdot 10^{-4}$ on line 768, support b equal to 1.725 times the mean, and a variance of at most $\mu(b - \mu)$ for Bernstein and Cantelli.

		$\varepsilon = 0.01$		$\varepsilon = 0.001$	
Bound	**Statistics needed**	759	768	759	768
Hoeffding	mean, support	4.8%	5.5%	5.9%	6.7%
Bernstein	mean, variance, support	4.8%	5.6%	5.9%	6.8%
Cantelli	mean, variance	14.7%	16.7%	39.3%	43.6%

9 Evaluation Criteria and Success Metrics

This section says how a schedule, the formulation and the case study are judged. Section 1 lists the evaluation questions that are still open.

9.1 Metrics

Table 33 lists the quantities with which the project judges a schedule and a solve.

The dynamics rows are one-sided. So the tracked values, and the costs computed from them, are upper bounds on the values of the reference trajectory (Section 5.3.1).

9.2 Baselines

The project has one baseline in the library and one proposed baseline.

Table 33: Metrics of a schedule and of a solve.

Metric	Definition	Where
Cost of a schedule	The objective (75), in one of three modes: the total cost of the T modelled days, the operating average (cost per day of the operating phase), or the projected cost over an evaluation horizon of E days.	Section 5.4, Table 15
Damage penalty	The largest aggregate expected damage u over all members and days, Equation (76).	Section 5.4
Failure probability per component	The probability $\Pr(D_{i\ell k} > \tau)$ that the damage passes the threshold. Each reliability row keeps it at most ε. For the Gamma models, the validators recompute it with an exact tail or by Monte Carlo sampling.	Table 14, Section 10.1.9
Gap of the solver	With the default MIP gap of 0.1, the status `optimal` means that the best solution exceeds the best bound by at most 10 % of its own value.	Section 10.1.5
Solve time and status	The time of a solve. A solution found before the time limit is reported with the status `time_limit`. A warm start changes the time of a solve, not the model.	Sections 10.1.5 and 10.1.7
Ranking value of a sweep	The operating average $\bar{J}_{\mathrm{op}}$, or the projected cost P_E when the sweep varies both horizons.	Section 10.1.6

- **Greedy heuristic.** The library builds a schedule with a greedy heuristic (Section 10.1.7). The heuristic tries to satisfy the rows of the model and does not try to give a low cost. Its schedule is the reference for the schedule of the solver.
- **Condition-based threshold policies.** A research direction is to compare the schedules of the formulation with simple condition-based threshold policies, which repair or replace a component when its state passes a threshold. This subsection will define these policies and will compare their cost and their failure probability with those of the formulation.

9.3 Evidence so far

Three checks give evidence on the formulation and on the data of the case study.

Exhaustive check of the loop rows. A check of all schedules of 42 small test fleets (176 912 schedules; 8 Nov 2026) compared the rows with the repeated exact trajectory. The rows refuse none of the safe schedules and accept no unsafe one. Loop rows that compare day T with day H_1 instead (without the start of the repetition) refuse 1512 of these safe schedules, all with a replacement on day H_1.

Numerical comparison of the bounds. The choice among the Route I bounds depends on how far into the tail the constraint lies. A reliability constraint with small ε lies several standard deviations above $\mathbb{E}[D]$, and there the Chernoff bound is much tighter than the Cantelli bound. A numerical experiment compared the bounds on sums of $k \in \{30, 100\}$ independent increments with one law on $[0, 1]$. It used five laws: the uniform law, Beta$(2, 2)$, Beta$(0.5, 5)$, and the two-point laws on $\{0, 1\}$ with $\Pr(1) = 0.5$ and $\Pr(1) = 0.05$. For each case the threshold τ gives an

exact tail $\Pr(D > \tau)$ close to 10^{-4}, and each bound was divided by this exact tail.

- **Chernoff.** With the exact cumulant generating function and the best s, the Chernoff bound exceeded the tail by a factor between 4 and 12, so it stayed within about one order of magnitude. With only the mean and the width of the range (the mean-and-support bound), it exceeded the tail of the three continuous laws by a factor between 1000 and 3200.
- **Cantelli.** The Cantelli bound exceeded the tail by a factor between 330 and 710, more than two orders of magnitude, for both values of k.
- **Bernstein.** With one support constant $b = 1$, Bernstein's bound exceeded the tail by a factor between 15 and 560. It was tighter than Cantelli in nine of the ten cases; the exception was Beta$(0.5, 5)$ with $k = 30$, whose increments are small compared with the width 1. It became tighter as k grew: for the uniform law its factor fell from 232 to 83.
- **Hoeffding and Markov.** With width 1, Hoeffding's bound exceeded the tail by a factor between 8 and 6500. It was close to Chernoff only for the two-point law with $\Pr(1) = 0.5$, whose variance is the largest that the width allows; in the other eight cases it was looser than Cantelli. Markov's bound exceeded the tail by a factor between 2200 and 8600.[4]

So Cantelli, the simplest bound, can compete with Bernstein only for short accumulation windows and shallow tails; otherwise it is a coarse fallback that needs only the mean and the variance.

Checks against operator figures.

- **Length of line 759.** VBG gives "über 27 Kilometer" (over 27 km) [94]; our round trip is $14.08 + 13.56 = 27.64$ km.
- **Distance per year, line 759.** VBG gives about 635,000 km per year with diesel buses, on the timetable of 2021 [93, p. 1]. Our estimate is $250 \cdot 1{,}935.1 + 52 \cdot 1{,}865.5 + 63 \cdot 1{,}055.8 \approx 647{,}000$ km, with 250 weekdays, 52 Saturdays and 63 Sundays and holidays.
- **Buses of lines 759 and 768.** VBG has 8 battery-electric buses on line 759 [95] and 14 on the two lines [99, p. 4][97]. Our weekday estimate (180) gives 8 and $8 + 6 = 14$.
- **Hardau.** Our weekday estimate, 160 buses, lies below the about 180 vehicles that VBZ states for the garage [103].

9.4 Validation and simulation

The validators of the library check a schedule against its input and its model. Section 10.1.9 describes them. One limit of the Monte Carlo validator follows.

- **Monte Carlo validator.** Its result is an empirical stress test and not a proof: zero failures in n runs does not show that the true failure rate is below $1/n$. It raises no error

[4] This is a numerical illustration, not a proof. The script `tail_experiment.py` and its output are in the folder `archive/merge-2026/analysis/scripts/scoping_checks` of the repository. The exact tail comes from the Irwin–Hall formula (the exact law of a sum of uniform variables), from the binomial law, or from a lattice convolution with a relative error below 0.5%; no sampling is used. For the two-point laws the sum takes integer values, and the bounds are compared with $\Pr(D \geq \tau)$. The output also covers tails close to 10^{-2}, 10^{-6} and 10^{-8}: near 10^{-2} Bernstein was looser than Cantelli in four of the ten cases, and near 10^{-6} and 10^{-8} it was tighter in all cases. Asymptotically the gap is structural: Cantelli decays only polynomially, as $\mathrm{Var}[D]/(\tau - \mathbb{E}[D])^2$, whereas (22) decays exponentially in the deviation.

for a violation of the schedule rows. The mode `both` runs the replay and the Monte Carlo validators together, and it reports the schedule through the replay validator.

9.4.1 Simulation for validation

The validators of the library check that a schedule is consistent with its input and with its model (Section 10.1.9). The structural validator checks the rows. The Gamma validators recompute the failure probability of the model's own increment process, with an exact tail or by Monte Carlo sampling (repeated random draws). None of them simulates the buses: every increment comes from the input, not from the operation of a bus on its line. A simulator closes this gap. It derives the damage of each component from the trips, speeds, loads and temperatures of each bus, and it draws failures. It then counts how often a component passes its limit and compares the count with the risk level ε of the schedule.

Section 4 reviews the simulation tools, and Section 7 gives the data of the simulation.

Proposed chain. Our proposal is to write the chain in our own Python code. It takes the physics from published practice [41, 50] and the battery fade from BLAST-Lite [65].

- **Ageing needs own code.** No tool read ages tires or inverters or draws failures.
- **Few inputs.** Each bus and day needs only its trips, distances, stops, grades, loads and temperatures.
- **Measured times.** Measured stop times exist for almost all trips. On line 759, 3,512 of the 3,599 arrivals of 1 October 2026 carry the status of a measured time [70]. So a traffic simulation is not needed for realistic running times.

SUMO stays an optional check of the speed profiles under traffic. Traffic matters: in Transit-Gym, the energy rate of an electric bus on one trip changed by a factor of about 2.3 between the original background traffic and a demand 20 % lower [85, Table I]. Table 34 gives the chain step by step. For example, a bus that serves one line for a week and then another line gets the blocks, speeds and loads of each line in turn.

Cost of the chain. Steps 4 to 7 run at one time step per second. One bus-day of about 250 km at 20 km/h has about 45,000 time steps. A fleet of 48 buses over one year then needs about $8 \cdot 10^8$ time steps per Monte Carlo run (our estimate). A cache lowers this cost: a segment with the same drawn time, load and temperature gives the same energy.

What the simulation can test. If steps 7a to 7c use the coefficients of Section 8.2.4, the simulator and the schedule share the same component coefficients. Then the simulation tests the simplifications of the scheduling model under realistic operation: one mean increment per line and period, independent increments, the tail bounds and the linear forms. It does not test the coefficients or the degradation laws. That test needs operator data on real buses: states of health from the battery management system, tread depths and inverter failures. Every result of the simulation should state this limit.

Table 34: Proposed simulation chain (our proposal). Bus-day: the operation of one bus on one day. Block (German *Umlauf*): the sequence of trips that one bus serves in one day. Drive cycle: speed and grade over time, second by second. SOC: state of charge. HVAC: heating, ventilation and air conditioning. Junction temperature: the temperature of the semiconductor chip.

Step	What it does	Tool and data
1. Bus-days	For each period and bus, take the line from the schedule. For each day, draw one block of that line and day type (weekday, Saturday, Sunday).	own code; blocks from [70] or from the vehicle estimate of Section 7.3
2. Segments	Split each trip into stop-to-stop segments with length and grade profile.	own code; road shapes [115]; heights [32]
3. Travel times	Draw the time of each segment and each stop from the measured times of the same segment, line, hour and day type.	own code; [70, 100]
4. Drive cycle	Build accelerate, cruise and brake phases that cover the segment in the drawn time. As an option, add stops at traffic signals.	own code; signals [69]; SUMO as a check
5. Energy, power	Rolling, air, grade and inertia forces; drive and recuperation efficiency; HVAC power from the air temperature; constant auxiliaries. Mass: empty mass plus 68 kg per passenger [41, Sect. 3.3.2].	own code with the equations of [50, Eqs. 1–2], or FASTSim; loads [102]; temperature [58]
6. SOC, charging	Integrate the battery power over the day. Add depot charging, and terminus charging where it exists. Flag a block whose SOC falls below a minimum.	own code; SimBA or eflips-X as alternatives
7a. Battery	Capacity fade from the SOC and temperature series of each day.	BLAST-Lite, cell model scaled to the pack
7b. Tires	Tread wear per second from the slip energy (force squared over normal load), scaled so that the fleet mean equals the wear rate of Section 8.2.4.	own code
7c. Inverter	Phase current, then junction temperature, rainflow count and Miner sum with the power-cycling model of Section 8.2.4.	own code
8. Failures	For each bus, draw a fade-rate factor (battery), a wear-rate factor (tires) and a module strength (inverter, Weibull law). A component fails when its damage passes its limit. Apply the planned repairs and replacements with their repair laws. A failure before the planned action is a violation.	own code
9. Monte Carlo	Repeat steps 3 to 8, for example 1,000 times, with a weather year drawn from the hourly records since 1980. Count, for each component and period, how often the limit is passed, and compare the share with ε.	own code; [58]

10 Algorithmic Considerations

This section holds the algorithmic choices of the project: how the mixed-integer program is built and solved, and which tools surround the solve. The software specification states the construction of the program, and this section gives the reasons for it.

10.1 Implementation details

The formulation of this document is implemented in the Python package `fleet_management`. The package builds the mixed-integer program of Section 5 for a given fleet and solves it with the commercial solver Gurobi.

The package covers the five degradation models of Table 22, both repair laws, the five Route-I bounds and the three forms of the reliability rows. It also offers tools around the solve: sweeps over the horizon lengths, warm starts, plots of a schedule, and a check of a result against its input.

The software specification `spec/spec.tex` is the reference for the implementation. It states the formulation in full, with every row, the input and output files and the tools. The code follows it. Where this document and the specification differ in a detail, the specification holds.

The parts below give the reasons behind the implementation choices of the specification.

10.1.1 Formulation choices

The items below give the reasons for a few choices of the formulation.

Remark 10.1 (One row instead of three). Row (43) has the same binary solutions as the three rows $x^m_{i\ell k} \le x_{i0k}$, $x^r_{i\ell k} \le x_{i0k}$ and $x^m_{i\ell k} + x^r_{i\ell k} \le 1$. Its linear relaxation is tighter: the point

$$x_{i0k} = x^m_{i\ell k} = x^r_{i\ell k} = 0.5 \tag{187}$$

satisfies the three rows but not (43). With $x^m_{i\ell k}, x^r_{i\ell k} \ge 0$ and $x_{i0k} \le 1$, row (43) describes the convex hull of the four binary solutions

$$(x_{i0k}, x^m_{i\ell k}, x^r_{i\ell k}) \in \{(0,0,0), (1,0,0), (1,1,0), (1,0,1)\}. \tag{188}$$

- **Two forms of the rows.** The rows have two forms with the same feasible set at binary points (Section 5.3.1).
  - **Big-M row.** A binary switches the row off through a large constant M.
  - **Indicator constraint.** A row that the solver enforces only when a binary is 1.
- **Variables that are not built.** A variable that feeds only a cost term with a zero coefficient is not built, and neither are the rows that define it. For example, with $C_D = 0$ the variable u and its rows are dropped.
- **Repair cost in the operating average.** In the operating average, the repair-cost variable is not built on the transitory days, because their cost does not enter the objective. The repair cost of those days is computed after the solve, from the tracked mean and its anchor.
- **Rows of the McCormick envelope that are not built.** A McCormick envelope is the standard set of linear rows for the product of a bounded variable and a binary. Its upper rows, $z \le \rho\,(\mu - g^\mu)$ and $z \le \rho\,\tau\,x^m$, would only remove points that are never optimal, so they are not built.

A solution that is not optimal (for example, the best one found at the time limit) may carry a larger z. Its reported cost is then larger, never smaller.

Choice of the default form. The big-M form is the default. Gurobi accepts a binary as integral within its integrality tolerance `IntFeasTol` (default 10^{-5}). A big-M row can therefore leak by at most $2 \cdot 10^{-5} M_s$, because the carry row and the anchor rows contain the sum $x_k^m + x_k^r$ of two binaries. Because M_s is the range of the statistic itself, this is a relative error of at most $2 \cdot 10^{-5}$ per row. The leaks of the carry rows of successive days add up, to at most $2 \cdot 10^{-5} T$ over the horizon. Indicator constraints have no such leak, and Gurobi usually needs more time to solve them. Which form solves this model faster has not been measured.

10.1.2 Reasons for the input checks

The specification validates the input before it builds the model, and a violation raises an error that names the key and the component. A check of one model runs only at the components of that model. Each item below gives a rule and, after the dash, its reason.

Keys, shapes and entries.

- Every key is known, and every required key is present. — A misspelled or missing key must not change the problem without a message.
- Each value has one of the shapes of its key. — Silent broadcasting by the array library (the automatic extension of an array to a larger shape) could read a value for another component.
- At a component where a key applies, every entry is a finite number, or a string for a selector. — A missing value at a component must not take a default silently.
- At the three keys without a default (the optional variance cap and the rates of the initial and the replacement damage), `null` at a component means that the key is not given there. — These keys can be given at some components of a model and not at others, and an array needs an entry at every component; for example, the optional variance cap at one Gaussian component only.
- An unknown value of a selector is an error at every component, also where the reliability row is linear and the form is ignored. — Reading an unknown value as `exact` would turn a linear model into a nonconvex one without a message.
- Selector values are case sensitive, like key names. — Older inputs name the law ARD_∞ with the value `ARD1`; a comparison that ignores the case would read it as `ard1`, the other law, without a message.
- An integer key accepts a number with zero fractional part, such as 3.0, and refuses any other number, such as 2.5, and a flag. — Numerical tools often write integers as floating-point numbers, above all in HDF5 files (a binary file format for numerical data); a flag is not a number, although Python reads it as the integer 0 or 1.

Sizes and selectors.

- $F > \max_k \sum_j d_{jk}$. — Mission j needs d_{jk} members on day k; with $F = \sum_j d_{jk}$ no member could be in the depot on day k, and no repair could take place on that day.

- $F > M$. — A profile with three axes is read as (L, M, H_*) or as (F, L, M), and the two shapes coincide only if $F = L = M = H_*$. If on some day every mission has $d_{jk} \geq 1$, this check follows from the previous one; it matters when some d_{jk} are 0.
- $H_1, H_2 \geq 1$. — Each phase has at least one day.
- With a positive C_D and the quadratic penalty, every quadratic reliability row is in its exact form. — The quadratic penalty is a quadratic row, and the linear forms exist to give a linear model (Section 5.4).

Reliability, repair and initial state.

- $\tau > 0$. — The threshold is a positive degradation level.
- $\varepsilon \in (0, 1)$, and $\varepsilon < 0.5$ at Gaussian and Wiener components. — A probability lies in $(0, 1)$; the normal quantile $\kappa_G = \Phi^{-1}(1 - \varepsilon)$ of the Gaussian and Wiener rows is positive only below 0.5; at $\varepsilon \geq 0.5$ the squared row does not describe the requirement (Remark 5.24).
- $\rho \in (0, 1]$. — A repair removes a positive fraction of the level, at most all of it.
- The initial mean satisfies
$$0 \leq \mu_0 < \tau. \tag{189}$$
— A component at its threshold has failed already.
- Initial and replacement variances, supports and budgets are non-negative. — They describe a variance, a width or a squared width.
- The relative tangent point lies in $[0, 1)$, and the number of `pwl` segments is at least 1. — At the point τ the tangent row reduces to $\chi \leq 0$ (Gaussian, Wiener, Cantelli, Hoeffding) or admits no point (Bernstein with $b > 0$), and a value outside $[0, 1]$ has no tangent point in $[0, \tau]$.
- Each starting anchor lies between 0 and the initial value of its statistic. — Each statistic is non-decreasing between interventions (fact (M1) of Section 5.3.1), so its level after the last intervention cannot exceed its initial level.
- With the shortcut for a new part, every replacement value is 0. — The shortcut means a new part, and a non-zero value would be discarded without a message.

Natural ranges and replacement states.

- Every initial value, starting anchor and replacement value lies in the natural range of its statistic (Section 5.3.1). — The big-M rows take the natural range as their constant, and this constant is valid only for values in the range (Appendix A.3, page 139): with a value outside it, a switched-off row can cut feasible points.
- When replacements are allowed, the replacement state satisfies every row that holds on a replacement day, in the form built at the component (for `pwl`, the cap of the segment that contains the replacement mean), its side row, and the optional variance cap. — The rows hold on the day of a replacement, so a replacement state that violates one of them makes every replacement infeasible (Section 5.2).

Increments.

- The mean of an increment satisfies

$$0 \le \mu^{\mathrm{inc}} < \tau \tag{190}$$

  for every mission and day. — A mission with mean τ or more fails the component in one day; the mean 0 is allowed, so that a mission that does not wear a component can be written as 0.

- Where the mean of an increment is 0, its variance, support and cumulant generating function are 0. — A non-negative increment with mean 0 is 0 almost surely, so it has no variance, no range and a zero cumulant generating function.

- Variances, supports and cumulant generating functions of increments are non-negative, and a transitory profile comes with its operating profile. — A variance and a width are not negative, and the lookup of the increment laws needs the operating laws after the transitory phase (Section 5.2).

Model-specific checks.

- Gaussian: $\mu \ge 3\sqrt{v}$ for the initial damage, for every increment and, when replacements are allowed, for the replacement draw. — A Gaussian term is then negative with probability at most about $0.13\,\%$, so the damage stays non-negative in practice.

- Inverse Gaussian: $\eta > 0$. — The squared coefficient of variation of the inverse Gaussian terms must be positive.

- Wiener: $\sigma > 0$ and $v_0 \ge 0$. — The diffusion constant is positive; a known initial damage has variance 0 and is a valid input.

- Gamma: every given rate is finite and positive. — The rate of a Gamma law is positive, and the smallest rate sets the cap (Section 4.1.5); an omitted rate of the initial or replacement damage means a known damage, which has no Gamma law and no rate.

- Optional variance cap: positive, and at least the initial variance and, when replacements are allowed, the replacement variance. — A cap below the replacement variance makes every replacement infeasible, and a cap below the initial variance forces an intervention on day 1.

- Bernstein: every variance is at most a quarter of the squared width of its range, for increments, the initial damage and the replacement draw. — Popoviciu's inequality (Section 5.7): a law on a range of width w has variance at most $w^2/4$, so a larger variance contradicts the width.

- Bernstein: $\tau > 2\kappa\, b_\ell/3$. — Otherwise the certificate admits no positive variance: it is infeasible at zero damage, and at equality only the point

$$\mu = v = 0 \tag{191}$$

  survives, so that the big-M rows break.

- Bernstein with a linear form: the tangent point, or the midpoint $\tau/(2P)$ of the first `pwl` segment, lies below $\sqrt{\tau(\tau - 2c)}$. — Otherwise no point with $v > 0$ satisfies the row (Section 5.10).

- Chernoff: $s > \ln(1/\varepsilon)/\tau$. — The statistic K is not negative, so the row $K - s\tau \le \ln\varepsilon$ needs $s\tau \ge \ln(1/\varepsilon)$; with a smaller s every schedule is infeasible, and at equality only a component without damage is feasible.

- Chernoff: the cumulant generating function of every increment, the initial value, the starting anchor under ARD_1 and, when replacements are allowed, the replacement value are at least s times the corresponding mean. — Jensen's inequality (Section 5.7); the two starting anchors describe the same damage after the last intervention, and the defaults satisfy the inequality.

Run options and costs.

- The evaluation horizon, when given, exceeds H_1. — The projected cost needs at least one operating day beyond the transitory phase; for a smaller horizon the operating cost would have a negative weight (Section 5.4).
- Numerical run options lie in their ranges, and flags are flags. — A value outside its range must raise an error and must not be changed silently.
- All costs are finite and non-negative. — A negative cost would reward a depot day, a repair, a replacement or damage.

Tolerance of the checks.

- A non-strict inequality $a \le b$ passes when it holds up to $10^{-12}\max(1, |a|, |b|)$. — The rounding of floating-point numbers can break an exact comparison on valid data. For example, with $s = 5$ and $\mu_0 = 0.14$, the Chernoff initial value $K_0 = 0.7$ fails $K_0 \ge s\mu_0$ without a tolerance, because $5 \cdot 0.14 = 0.7000000000000001$ in floating point. The rounding error grows with the size of the numbers, so the tolerance is relative; the term 1 keeps the tolerance 10^{-12} near 0.
- A strict inequality has no tolerance. — It excludes its boundary on purpose: for example, a component with $\mu_0 = \tau$ has failed already.
- A negative value of the run option `mip_gap` (the relative gap at which Gurobi stops) that passes through the tolerance is stored as 0. — Gurobi refuses a negative gap. Other values that pass through the tolerance reach the model unchanged, for example an initial variance of -10^{-13}; the feasibility tolerance of Gurobi, 10^{-6}, absorbs them.

10.1.3 Computation of the inverse Gaussian cap

The cap $\bar{\mu}$ is computed once per component, before the model is built. Its numerical choices have the following reasons.

- **Distribution function.** F_Z is a sum of two positive terms, and $\ln F_Z$ is computed from their logarithms. So the sum loses no digits, and the factor $e^{2/\eta}$ of (175) does not overflow when η is small.
- **Survival function.** $1 - F_Z$ is a difference of two positive terms, and $\ln(1 - F_Z)$ is computed from their logarithms. The subtraction $1 - F_Z$ would lose the relative accuracy when ε is small, because F_Z is then close to 1 at the quantile.
- **Quantile.** The quantile is the root of $\ln \Pr(Z > e^u) = \ln \varepsilon$ in $u = \ln q$. The root search `brentq` of SciPy (a scientific library of the Python language) finds it on an interval $[-50, \ln b]$. By Cantelli's inequality (21) with $\operatorname{Var} Z = \eta$, the right end satisfies $\Pr(Z > b) \le \varepsilon/2$. So the function changes sign on the interval. The derivation is in Appendix A.3, page 138.

- **Tail mean.** The closed form $\mathbb{E}[Z;\, Z > q] = F_Z(1/q)$ needs no numerical integration, and it is evaluated in logarithms too.
- **Accuracy of the quantile.** The root search is more accurate than the quantile function `invgauss.isf` of SciPy. The table gives the relative error of the survival function at each computed quantile, against a survival function computed with 60 significant digits.

	`invgauss.isf`	root search
$\eta = 10^{-6}$, $\varepsilon = 0.5$	$1.6 \cdot 10^{-6}$	$2 \cdot 10^{-13}$
$\eta = 10^{-3}$, $\varepsilon = 10^{-12}$	$1.4 \cdot 10^{-5}$	$5 \cdot 10^{-14}$

- **Checks.** On a grid of 11 values of η from 10^{-3} to 10^{3} and 9 values of ε from 10^{-6} to 0.9, the quantile agrees with `invgauss.isf` to a relative $2.2 \cdot 10^{-12}$. On the same grid the closed-form tail mean agrees with a numerical integral to $4 \cdot 10^{-14}$. For η from 10^{-6} to 10^{6} and ε from 10^{-12} to 0.999, the computation never fails, and every cap lies in $(0, \tau/q]$. A Monte Carlo sample of $2 \cdot 10^{6}$ draws of Z gives the conditional tail mean 2.61699 against the computed $\bar{q} = 2.61568$ at $\eta = 0.5$ and $\varepsilon = 0.1$. At $\eta = 2$ and $\varepsilon = 0.05$ it gives 5.76704 against 5.76507.

10.1.4 Computation of the Gamma cap

The cap A_1 is computed once per component, before the model is built, by bisection on A with an inner maximum over c. Three facts justify the computation, and $w(A_1) \leq \varepsilon$ holds at the returned value. The derivation is in Appendix A.3, page 139.

The numerical choices of the computation have the following reasons.

- **One-rate cap.** A bisection on the first argument of Q finds the exact one-rate cap $\hat{A}$, the root of $Q(\hat{A}, t) = \varepsilon$. Its interval keeps $Q \leq \varepsilon$ at the lower end and $Q > \varepsilon$ at the upper end, and the bisection returns the lower end. So $Q(\hat{A}, t) \leq \varepsilon$, and the numerical error lies on the safe side.
- **Grid and its extensions.** The maximum over c starts from a logarithmic grid of 401 values of c. When the best grid point is the smallest value of the grid, the maximum may lie below the grid. A new grid of 401 values then covers the next factor 100 below, at most 10 times. After that the computation stops with an error: a maximum below the last grid would be underestimated, and the cap would be too large.
- **Golden-section search.** A golden-section search shrinks an interval around a single peak by the factor 0.618 per step. The function of c has a single peak, by the second of the three facts. So 60 steps between the neighbours of the best grid point reduce the interval by the factor $0.618^{60} \approx 3 \cdot 10^{-13}$. The search returns the largest value found, so it never returns less than the best grid value.
- **Tolerances and cost.** The bisection for $\hat{A}$ stops at a relative width 10^{-12}, and the bisection on A at 10^{-9}. Each step of the bisection on A computes w once. One cap takes about 30 ms and about 16 evaluations of w.
- **Levels of at least one half.** For $\varepsilon \geq 1/2$ the test $w(A) \leq \varepsilon$ holds without computing w, because $w(A) < 1/2$ for every $A < t$. Near $A = t$ the maximum over c moves towards $c \to 0$, where Q approaches $1/2$, so the grid would need many extensions. The bisection returns a value close to t: $A_1/t = 0.999999999069$ at $\varepsilon = 0.5$.
- **Cache.** The cap is computed once for each pair (t, ε) in a run and then reused. The input

check of the replacement state and the row of the model use the same cap, and components with the same pair share it. So every use after the first costs nothing.

- **Accuracy.** The table compares the computation with independent ones. The brute force evaluates 20,001 values of $s = t/c$, refines the best one and bisects on A to 10^{-13}.

Value	Reference	ε	t	Largest difference
$\hat{A}$	`brentq`, tolerance 10^{-15}	10^{-6} to 0.99	10^{-6} to 10^{4}	$8.8 \cdot 10^{-13}$ (relative)
A_1	brute force	0.001 to 0.3	10^{-4} to 1000	$6.7 \cdot 10^{-10}$
A_1	brute force	10^{-6} and 10^{-8}		$2.2 \cdot 10^{-10}$
A_1	brute force	0.3 to 0.499	10^{-6} to 10^{4}	$7.4 \cdot 10^{-10}$

  In the last row no grid reaches its last extension. At nine pairs with $A_1 < \hat{A}$, $w(A_1)/\varepsilon = 1.000000000$ and $w\big(A_1(1 + 10^{-6})\big)/\varepsilon = 1.000001$. So the computed cap is safe, and a cap larger by a relative 10^{-6} is not.

10.1.5 Outputs

- **Solution and status.** The solution arrays are present whenever Gurobi has found at least one solution, and then the status tells how the solve ended. For example, a solution found before the time limit is reported with the status `time_limit`. With the default MIP gap of 0.1 (MIP means mixed-integer program), the status `optimal` means that the best solution exceeds the best bound by at most 10 % of its own value, that is, by at most about 11 % of the bound.
- **Tracked statistics.** The output carries every tracked statistic and anchor, so that a validator can check every loop row. The dynamics rows are one-sided, so these values, and the costs computed from them, are upper bounds, not exact values (Section 5.3.1).
- **Objective value.** When the variable u has no slack, the objective value of the solve equals the cost of the objective mode computed from the output. Otherwise it is larger by C_D times that slack.
- **Result file.** The extension and the directory of the result file are checked before the model is solved, so that a long solve is not lost.
- **Numbers that are not finite.** YAML and JSON files (two plain-text data formats) write NaN (not a number), $+\infty$ and $-\infty$ as `null`. Standard JSON has no notation for these values, and the two text formats follow one rule. HDF5 files store floating-point numbers in binary form and keep these values.
- **Objective without a value.** HDF5 has no `null`, so an HDF5 file does not store the objective of a solve without a solution. Every reader treats a missing key as `null`, so the file carries the same information as a YAML or JSON file.
- **One reader.** One function, `read_result`, reads a result file of every format for every tool: the schedule plot, the validators and the dashboards. These tools need the same reading rules, for example NaN at a `null` entry of an array, so the rules have one implementation. The function sits in the module of the writers, so the rules for writing and for reading a result file are in one place.

10.1.6 Horizon sweeps

A single solve uses one horizon pair $H = [H_1, H_2]$. A *horizon sweep* solves one scenario for several pairs and compares the solved cases. It ranks the cases by the operating average

$$\bar{J}_{\text{op}} = J_{\text{op}}/H_2, \tag{192}$$

the cost per day of the repeating regime, which is comparable across values of H_2 (Section 5.4). A sweep over both horizons with an evaluation horizon E ranks by the projected cost

$$P_E = J_{\text{init}} + \frac{E - H_1}{H_2}\, J_{\text{op}}, \tag{193}$$

which is the cost of the transitory phase, then of the operating phase repeated until day E. This criterion also prices the transitory phase, so it compares different values of H_1.

- **What a proof certifies.** A case counts as proven when Gurobi reports `optimal` at the MIP gap requested for that case. Such a case is optimal within that gap, not exactly optimal, and the sweep report records the requested gap of each case. The status certifies the objective that the solve minimised: $\bar{J}_{\text{op}} + C_D\, u$ or $P_E + C_D\, u$, while the ranking value is $\bar{J}_{\text{op}}$ or P_E alone. So the sweep ranks by cost and uses the damage penalty only inside each solve.
- **Early stop.** With the default threshold, a case qualifies for the early stop when Gurobi has met the gap requested for it. A case that does not qualify, for example one that stopped at the time limit above its requested gap, is recorded, but it cannot trigger a stop.
- **Parallel cases.** Each running solve uses one Gurobi licence token, so a licence with one token allows one case at a time. The parallel cases do not use each other's results. So the parallel option is refused together with warm starts between cases, which need the preceding results. It is also refused together with the early stop, which needs the preceding cases before it starts the following ones.
- **Report.** The report is a mapping of plain types, written by a safe writer of YAML (a plain-text data format), so it contains no arrays and no program objects. If a job ends before the run is complete, the checkpoint file is a valid report of the cases evaluated so far.

10.1.7 Warm starts

A warm start changes the time of a solve, not the model: it does not change the feasible set or the objective.

- **Day mapping.** A start taken from a previous result maps its days to the days of the new problem.
  - The transitory days keep their index.
  - The operating days repeat the operating phase of the source cyclically, so a shorter operating phase can seed a longer one.
  - When the new transitory phase is longer than the source's, its extra days all take the first operating day of the source.

  When the source has the same sizes F, M, L, the mapped schedule copies whole days of the source, so it keeps the one-activity rows and the depot-day rows of every day. It keeps

the mission coverage of every day whose numbers d_{jk} equal those of the source day that it copies. It need not satisfy the dynamics or the loop rows of the new horizons.

- **Invalid source.** A source whose horizons are not integers of at least 1, or whose arrays do not have the days of these horizons on their last axis, raises an error. The day mapping needs the horizons of the source, and values taken from the new problem in their place would map the days wrongly without a message.
- **Start.** A start sets values of the binaries only. Gurobi tries to complete it by itself, with limited effort, and discards a start that it cannot make feasible. The greedy heuristic returns its start also when its loop pass counts failures, and it requests the completion of the specification. That completion can then end with the status `infeasible`, with an irreducible infeasible subset of rows.
- **Completion report.** In the mode `hint` the completion never runs, although the greedy heuristic requests it. The report then gives the status `not_requested`, the status of every completion that does not run, so no further status is needed. Its flag `requested` still shows the request of the source.
- **Hints.** Gurobi uses hints to guide its heuristics and its branching during the whole solve. A hint needs no feasible point, so it also helps when the mapped schedule does not fit the horizons of the problem and Gurobi discards it as a start.
- **Relaxation start.** The relaxed solution need not be a feasible point of the original model. It gives integer values only, and the original model must find its own first solution.
- **Greedy heuristic.** The heuristic builds a schedule that tries to satisfy the rows of the model. It does not try to give a low cost. After its construction pass the missions are fixed, so the components are independent except through the depot days of a member.
  - **Rows in the excess.** The excess of a component counts the violations of the reliability row, of its side row and of the optional variance cap. The tracked values are at least the reference values (Proposition 5.3), and each of these rows sets upper limits on them. So a schedule whose reference trajectory breaks one of these rows has no feasible completion.
  - **Reference trajectory.** The excess is computed on the reference trajectory. This test is stricter than the one-sided rows, because the reference trajectory of a feasible schedule can violate the loop row (Section 5.3.3). In a Gaussian test case the heuristic counts one failure, and the same schedule is feasible for the rows of the model.
  - **Wiener components.** A free day is an operating day on which the member flies no mission and the component has no intervention. At a Wiener component the heuristic tries a repair and a replacement on every free day, and it keeps the intervention with the smaller excess. At the components of the other models it tries repairs first, and a replacement only when no repair lowers the excess. The Wiener variance falls only at a replacement (Section 5.3.4), so a repair placed first can take the last free day of a component that needs a replacement. Example: a Wiener test case with $H = [2, 2]$. A repair on day 4 removes the excess of the mean and takes the only free day; the excess of the variance remains, and each of the two members counts one failure. A replacement on that day removes both excesses.
  - **Report.** The report gives the largest ratio of a reference mean to its threshold on the final trajectory of each component. So the ratio describes the schedule that the

heuristic returns.

10.1.8 Plots

- **Readers.** The schedule plot reads its file with the reader of the result files (Section 10.1.5), and the sweep plot reads its reports with the input reader. A file whose data are not a mapping raises the type error of the reader, so every way of reading a file has one error for this case.
- **Result without models.** A result file without the key of the models is plotted, and each row shows the model "unknown". Older result files lack this key, and every solve writes it.
- **Counts from the Gurobi log.** The summary panel of the schedule plot takes the presolved numbers of rows and variables from the last line "Presolved" of the Gurobi log. The completion of a warm start and the relaxation start solve their own copies of the model before the main solve, and they write to the same log. So the last such line belongs to the main solve.
- **Sweep without cases.** A sweep report whose list of cases is empty raises an error. There is nothing to plot, and a sweep writes its first report only after its first case.

10.1.9 Validation tools

- **Objective check.** The saved damage penalty u is the maximum of its rows. The solver objective contains the variable u, which can lie above this maximum in a solution that is not optimal. So the check is one-sided: it tests that the reported objective is not below the cost of the reported solution, and it does not test optimality.
- **Loop checks.** They use the saved tracked states, which satisfy the loop rows, and not the reference trajectory: the reference trajectory of a feasible schedule can violate the loop row (Section 5.3.3).
- **Scope of the structural validator.** It checks the binaries, the assignment and depot-day rows, the loop rows of every tracked statistic and anchor, and the objective. It does not check the dynamics rows or the reliability rows; the dashboards show the reliability rows as margins.
- **Fixed list of checks.** The report always lists the eight loop checks, with the violation 0 where the result holds no number for the statistic. So every report has the same 14 checks, or 13 for a result without the array of idle days.
- **Incomplete results.** A result with the schedule but without another solution array, the damage penalty or the objective raises an error. No solve writes such a result, and without the error the report would hold NaN, which the JSON writer refuses.
- **Margins in the dashboards.** A margin of at least the negative tolerance means that the row holds. The exact form is used also when the solve used a linear form, so the margin shows the true slack. At a row with a side row, the margin is the smaller of the two slacks, because the row holds if and only if both relations hold. The slack of the quadratic relation alone can be positive when the side row fails: a Gaussian component with $\mu = 1.2$, $\tau = 1$ and $v = 0$ has $(\tau - \mu)^2 = 0.04 > 0$. The two slacks have different units. The margins of components with different models and bounds are not comparable in size. Only their signs are comparable.
- **Model of the result.** The dashboards and the Gamma validators raise an error when the

model of a component in the result differs from the input. The structural validator does not compare the models. The margins and the Gamma validators need the parameters that the input gives for the model of each component, and the structural validator needs no model.

- **Tolerance of the dashboards.** The tolerance is at least 10^{-12}, because the Gamma validators that the dashboards run need a positive tolerance.
- **Start of the dashboards.** The entry script draws the page only when Python runs it as its main program. It imports Streamlit (a Python library for web dashboards) only inside the functions that draw. The command `streamlit run` executes the script as the main program, so the page is drawn. An import of the script, by the package or by a test, draws nothing and needs no Streamlit, which is an optional part of the installation.
- **Repair cost in the replay Gamma validator.** The check of the repair cost uses the saved means and anchors, not the reference values. This is the row of the model, and at binary points the saved difference between the mean and the anchor is at least the reference difference, under both repair laws. So the check on the saved values also implies the check on the reference values.
- **Exact Gamma validator.** It computes the tail $\Pr(D_k > \tau)$ of the sum of the terms with the Moschopoulos series.
  - **Mixture.** The series writes the law of a sum of independent Gamma variables with different rates as a mixture of Gamma laws with non-negative weights. When all rates are equal, the tail is the Gamma tail.
  - **Certified bound.** The partial sum of the series is a lower bound of the tail, so adding the mixture weight that remains gives a certified upper bound.
  - **Saved means.** The saved means may be larger than the exact ones, because they are upper bounds.
  - **Initial damage under ARD_1.** The initial damage is split at the starting anchor into a part that no repair reduces and a part that the repairs reduce. Otherwise a repair could bring the damage below its level after the last intervention, which the law ARD_1 excludes.
  - **Cost.** The number of terms of the series grows with the ratio of the largest to the smallest rate. Frequent repairs under ARD_∞ make this ratio large, because each repair multiplies the rates of the repaired terms by $1/(1-\rho)$. Example: one term repaired 2, 4, 6, 8 and 10 times at $\rho = 0.5$, beside a new term, needs 151, 725, about 3,000, about 12,400 and 49,884 terms. One tail then takes about 2 s after 8 repairs and about 31 s after 10. From 11 repairs the series needs more than 100,000 terms, the default limit, and the validator stops with an error.
  - **Precision.** The series stops when the mixture weight that remains falls below the convolution tolerance, 10^{-12} by default. Its sums use the extended precision of NumPy, the numerical library of Python: 80 bits on Linux, and the usual 64 bits on Windows. With 80 bits the series can reach a convolution tolerance near 10^{-19}. With 64 bits the remaining weight is understated by $2 \cdot 10^{-15}$ to $9 \cdot 10^{-15}$ after 2, 4 and 6 repairs in the example above. This is about 1 % of the default convolution tolerance, and far below the default tolerance 10^{-8} with which a day passes. The convolution tolerance has no lower limit: a value that the series cannot reach ends in an error.

- **Monte Carlo validator.** Its result is an empirical stress test and not a proof: zero failures in n runs does not show that the true failure rate is below $1/n$. It raises no error for a violation of the schedule rows. The mode `both` runs the replay and the Monte Carlo validators together, and it reports the schedule through the replay validator.
- **Settings of the Gamma validators.** An unknown key in the input block of these settings raises an error. The input checks test only that the block is a mapping, so a misspelled key, such as `repetition` for `repetitions`, would otherwise be ignored without a message.

10.1.10 Package and inputs

- **Modules.** The package has one module per task. The shared Gurobi model and the registry of component builders are in one module, and each degradation model has its own module.
- **Modules without Gurobi.** The inverse Gaussian and Gamma modules compute their caps with NumPy and SciPy only, and they import the module of the shared Gurobi model only when Gurobi is installed. So each cap lives in the module of its model. The input check of the replacement state calls the same cap function as the row, also on a computer without Gurobi. The rainflow module loads in the same way, so the constants of its reliability rows can be tested without Gurobi. Without Gurobi these modules register no builder.
- **One route for every fleet.** Every fleet, whatever its models, goes through the same route: no model has a separate solver. Every builder defines the tracked mean on every day for each of its components, because the damage penalty and the output read it. After the solve, a shared extraction reads the variables, and then the extraction of each model runs.
- **Cluster scripts.** The cluster scripts call only the public functions of the package, so the behaviour that the specification defines does not depend on them.
- **Plots and dashboards.** The package has one schedule plot and one sweep plot. The schedule plot colours each component by its tracked mean divided by the failure threshold. The tracked means are upper bounds of the expected damage (Section 5.3.1). The dashboards are Streamlit pages (Streamlit is a Python library for web dashboards).
- **Run options.** Run options are keys of the input. They do not change the mathematical problem, except the objective mode and the evaluation horizon, which choose the objective. A horizon sweep is not an input option: the sweep functions read the same input and solve it for several horizons.
- **Input parser.** The input parser rejects old and unknown keys, because each of them names a quantity that has another name, or another meaning, in the specification. It cannot detect an array whose mission axis and component axis are swapped when $M = L$.

11 Risk Analysis and Potential Pitfalls

This section lists the risks of the project and of its results. Each row gives the section that treats the risk. Tables 35 and 36 split the risks into two groups: the formulation and its software, and the validation, the case study and its data.

Table 35: Risks of the formulation and of its software. Likelihood and impact are our own assessment, with the levels high, medium and low.

Risk	Likelihood	Impact	Mitigation or fallback
A component that needs a replacement, such as a Wiener component or an ARD_1 component with $\rho < 1$, has none in the operating phase while its member serves a mission. The problem is then infeasible (Section 5.3.4).	medium	high	Allow replacements at such components. No input check enforces this.
The rows refuse a safe schedule: a linear form can be stricter than the exact row, and the inverse Gaussian and Gamma rows keep only some of the laws (Sections 5.3.3 and 5.15).	medium	medium	Use the exact form of the row where the solve time allows. A check of 42 small fleets found no safe schedule refused by the rows (Section 9).
The conservatism of a bound makes schedules costly: Cantelli's bound exceeded the exact tail by a factor of 330 to 710, and the mean-and-support Chernoff bound by 1000 to 3200 (Section 9).	high	medium	Use the Chernoff bound with the exact cumulant generating function (factor 4 to 12), or Bernstein's bound, which tightens as the window grows.
An empirical cumulant generating function is an estimate, not a bound. Without a confidence margin the row can accept an unsafe schedule (Section 7).	medium	high	Add a one-sided confidence margin. Its size is an open question (Section 1).
The Bernstein row is feasible only if $\tau > 2\kappa b_\ell/3$. A large support makes the empty schedule infeasible, also for a component that never serves that mission (Section 5.9).	medium	high	Use the support of the missions that the component can serve. A schedule-dependent support is an open question (Section 1).
A big-M row can leak by at most $2 \cdot 10^{-5} M_s$ through the integrality tolerance of Gurobi, and the leaks of successive days add up to at most $2 \cdot 10^{-5}\, T$ (Section 10.1.1).	low	medium	Use the indicator form, which has no leak. Its solve time has not been measured.
The natural ranges used as big-M constants grow without bound when ε nears 0.5 (Gaussian and Wiener cells) or 1 (rainflow Cantelli and Hoeffding cells). A binary within the tolerance could then switch a row off (Section 5.3.1).	low	high	Use the indicator form. Tighter big-M constants, or an input limit on ε, would remove the risk.
A repair modelled in parameter space, for example as a reduction of the Gamma shape, can accept an unsafe schedule: the tail is $1.33\,\varepsilon$ in the example of Section 5.15. A loop row on the mean alone accepts unsafe ARD_1 schedules (Appendix A.2).	low	high	The formulation repairs the damage path, tracks the mean, and gives every tracked quantity and anchor its own loop row (Section 5.3).

Table 36: Risks of the validation, of the case study and of its data. Likelihood and impact are our own assessment, with the levels high, medium and low.

Risk	Likelihood	Impact	Mitigation or fallback
The exact Gamma validator costs much when a component is repaired many times: about 2 s per tail after 8 repairs, and an error from 11 repairs (Section 10.1.9).	medium	medium	Use the Monte Carlo validator for such components, and read its result as a stress test.
A Monte Carlo test is no proof: zero failures in n runs does not show that the failure rate is below $1/n$ (Section 10.1.9).	medium	medium	State the number of runs with every result. Use the exact validator where it is affordable.
The claim that $c \mapsto Q(A/c, t/c)$ has a single peak was checked numerically only. If it fails, the search can return a value below the true maximum, and the Gamma cap would be unsafe (Appendix A.3).	low	high	The check covers $\varepsilon \geq 10^{-5}$ on two grids of $r = A/t$. A proof of the claim is an open question (Section 1).
The input parser cannot detect an array whose mission axis and component axis are swapped when $M = L$ (Section 10.1.10).	low	medium	Check the order of the axes of every input with $M = L$.
The simulation tests the simplifications of the scheduling model, not the coefficients or the degradation laws (Section 9.4.1).	high	medium	State this limit with every result. Real states of health, tread depths and inverter failures of the operator would test the laws.
The damage level of the inverter rests on one calibration and is uncertain by up to two orders of magnitude (Section 8.2.4).	high	high	The ratio between the lines is the more reliable part. Treat the level as a parameter of the study.
The fade rate of the battery may be 2.4 % to 7.1 % per 100,000 km, and the central choice is the low one (Section 8.2.4).	medium	medium	Study the schedule for a higher rate as well.
A repetition that is much shorter than the life of the battery, the inverter or the tires overstates their interventions (Section 8.2.4).	medium	medium	Use a longer operating phase. The question is open (Section 1.2).
Not every failure comes from accumulated damage: sudden failures of electronic boards are not captured by the damage dynamics (Section 3).	high	medium	The limit is recorded in the scope. A faithful model needs a shock term or a formulation in the failure intensity (Section 1).
The data have gaps: the meaning of the block identifier is unverified, the operators do not confirm the OSM road lengths, and cost data omit warranty work and define a failure in different ways (Section 7).	high	medium	State each gap with the result. Compare components within one fleet, not across fleets.

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A Proofs and derivations

A.1 Results of Section 4

Proof of Proposition 4.1. By the coupling characterisation of $\leq_{\mathrm{st}}$ (Definition 4.2), for each t there exist $\hat{X}_t \overset{d}{=} \Delta D_t$ and $\hat{Y}_t \overset{d}{=} \widetilde{\Delta D}_t$ on a common probability space with $\hat{X}_t \leq \hat{Y}_t$ almost surely. Realise these couplings independently across t. Then

$$\sum_t \hat{X}_t \leq \sum_t \hat{Y}_t \tag{194}$$

almost surely. Independence gives

$$\sum_t \hat{X}_t \overset{d}{=} \sum_t \Delta D_t \quad \text{and} \quad \sum_t \hat{Y}_t \overset{d}{=} \sum_t \widetilde{\Delta D}_t. \tag{195}$$

Hence

$$\sum_t \Delta D_t \leq_{\mathrm{st}} \sum_t \widetilde{\Delta D}_t. \tag{196}$$

Any non-decreasing g preserves the almost-sure inequality, which gives the general statement. □

Derivation of the Markov, Cantelli and Chernoff bounds. With $D \geq 0$ and $\tau > 0$, Markov's inequality (20) follows from

$$\tau\, \mathbf{1}\{D > \tau\} \leq D. \tag{197}$$

Applying Markov to $(D - \mathbb{E}[D] + c)^2$ and optimising over $c > 0$ gives the one-sided Chebyshev (Cantelli) bound (21), for $\tau > \mathbb{E}[D]$. The exponential (Cramér–Chernoff) bound (22) follows from Markov's inequality applied to e^{sD}, and it is valid for every fixed $s > 0$. □

Derivation of the Gamma rows of Tables 5–7. The log-likelihood ratio of the law $\mathrm{Ga}(\alpha_2, \beta_2)$ over the law $\mathrm{Ga}(\alpha_1, \beta_1)$ has derivative

$$(\alpha_2 - \alpha_1)/x - (\beta_2 - \beta_1), \tag{198}$$

which is non-negative for all $x > 0$ if and only if $\alpha_2 \geq \alpha_1$ and $\beta_2 \leq \beta_1$. Conversely, if $\alpha_1 > \alpha_2$, then

$$F_X(t) \sim (\beta_1 t)^{\alpha_1}/(\alpha_1\, \Gamma(\alpha_1)) \ll (\beta_2 t)^{\alpha_2}/(\alpha_2\, \Gamma(\alpha_2)) \sim F_Y(t) \tag{199}$$

as $t \to 0^+$, which violates $\leq_{\mathrm{st}}$. If $\beta_1 < \beta_2$, then $\bar{F}_X(t)/\bar{F}_Y(t) \to \infty$ as $t \to \infty$, which again violates $\leq_{\mathrm{st}}$. Hence all three orders coincide for the Gamma family [81, Sec. 1.C]. □

Derivation of the Gaussian rows of Tables 5–7. The CDF of $\mathcal{N}(\mu, \sigma^2)$ is $\Phi\big((t - \mu)/\sigma\big)$. The inequality

$$\Phi\big((t - \mu_1)/\sigma_1\big) \geq \Phi\big((t - \mu_2)/\sigma_2\big) \tag{200}$$

for all t requires

$$(t - \mu_1)/\sigma_1 \geq (t - \mu_2)/\sigma_2 \tag{201}$$

for all t. This condition is linear in t, and it can hold for all t only if $\sigma_1 = \sigma_2$. It then reduces to $\mu_1 \leq \mu_2$. The likelihood ratio is then

$$\exp\big((\mu_2 - \mu_1)\, x/\sigma^2 + \mathrm{const}\big), \tag{202}$$

non-decreasing in x. Thus all three orders coincide: $\sigma_1 = \sigma_2$ and $\mu_1 \leq \mu_2$. □

Derivation of the inverse Gaussian row of Table 5. The log-likelihood ratio of $\mathrm{IG}(\mu_2, \lambda_2)$ over $\mathrm{IG}(\mu_1, \lambda_1)$ has derivative

$$\frac{\lambda_1}{2\mu_1^2} - \frac{\lambda_2}{2\mu_2^2} + \frac{\lambda_2 - \lambda_1}{2x^2}. \tag{203}$$

This is non-negative for all $x > 0$ if and only if $\lambda_2 \geq \lambda_1$ (from $x \to 0^+$) and $\lambda_1/\mu_1^2 \geq \lambda_2/\mu_2^2$ (from $x \to \infty$). □

A.2 Results of Section 5

Derivation that $\mathcal{C}_{i\ell}$ is a closed down-set. Every reliability row, written in chance-bound form, reads "a continuous function of the tracked statistics, non-decreasing in each of them, is at most a constant" (Table 14). So the set $\mathcal{C}_{i\ell}$ is closed, and it is a down-set. □

Proof of Lemma 5.2. Let $\xi \leq \xi'$ componentwise. Each coordinate of π_k has one of the forms $s + \delta s_k$, g, s, $a\,s$, $a\,s + (1-a)\,g$ or s^{new}. By (M1), $a \geq 0$ and $1 - a \geq 0$. Therefore each coordinate of $\pi_k(\xi)$ is at most the same coordinate of $\pi_k(\xi')$. □

Proof of Proposition 5.3. At binary points the rows of day k read: $s_k \geq \pi_k(\xi_{k-1})_s$ for every tracked statistic s, with equality on a replacement day;

$$g_k = s_k \geq \pi_k(\xi_{k-1})_g \tag{204}$$

on an intervention day;

$$g_k = g_{k-1} = \pi_k(\xi_{k-1})_g \tag{205}$$

on any other day. So $\xi_k \geq \pi_k(\xi_{k-1})$ for $k \neq H_1 + 1$. On day $H_1 + 1$ the rows read y, so $\xi_{H_1+1} \geq \pi_{H_1+1}(y)$ by (56), and $\pi_{H_1+1}(y) \geq \pi_{H_1+1}(\xi_{H_1})$ by (55) and Lemma 5.2. So $\xi_k \geq \pi_k(\xi_{k-1})$ on every day. Let

$$\theta_{k-1} \leq \zeta_{k-1} \leq \xi_{k-1} \tag{206}$$

(true for $k = 1$ by (M2), since $\zeta_0 = \xi_0$). Then, by (M2) and Lemma 5.2,

$$\theta_k \leq \pi_k(\theta_{k-1}) \leq \pi_k(\zeta_{k-1}) = \zeta_k \leq \pi_k(\xi_{k-1}) \leq \xi_k. \tag{207}$$

Therefore

$$\theta_k \leq \zeta_k \leq \xi_k \tag{208}$$

for every k, by induction. □

Derivation of the reliability on the days of the horizon. On every day $k = 1, \ldots, T$ the tracked values satisfy the reliability row in the form chosen for the component. Every form lies inside $\mathcal{C}_{i\ell}$ (Proposition 5.11), so $\xi_k \in \mathcal{C}_{i\ell}$. By Proposition 5.3, $\theta_k \leq \xi_k$, so (M3) gives $\Pr(D_{i\ell k} > \tau) \leq \varepsilon$ on the days of the horizon. □

Proof of Theorem 5.4. Fix a component. Let ξ_k be its full tracked state, and θ_k and ζ_k the true statistics and the reference trajectory of the endless schedule. By (M2) and Lemma 5.2, the induction of Proposition 5.3 gives $\theta_k \leq \zeta_k$ on every day $k \geq 1$.

- Days $k \leq T$: $\zeta_k \leq \xi_k$ (Proposition 5.3) and $\xi_k \in \mathcal{C}_{i\ell}$ (Section 5.3.1).

- By Proposition 5.3 and (55),
$$\zeta_{H_1} \le \xi_{H_1} \le y. \tag{209}$$
- By (56), Proposition 5.3 and Lemma 5.2,
$$\xi_{H_1+h} \ge \pi_{H_1+h}(\xi_{H_1+h-1}) \ge \cdots \ge \Pi_h(y) \tag{210}$$
for $h = 1, \dots, H_2$. With (57),
$$\Pi(y) \le \xi_T \le y. \tag{211}$$
- Let $\Pi^n(y) \le y$ (true for $n = 0$). Then
$$\Pi^{n+1}(y) = \Pi(\Pi^n(y)) \le \Pi(y) \le y \tag{212}$$
by Lemma 5.2. So $\Pi^n(y) \le y$ for every $n \ge 0$.
- Day $k = H_1 + nH_2 + h$ with $n \ge 0$ and $1 \le h \le H_2$:
$$\zeta_k = \Pi_h\big(\Pi^n(\zeta_{H_1})\big) \le \Pi_h\big(\Pi^n(y)\big) \le \Pi_h(y) \le \xi_{H_1+h} \in \mathcal{C}_{i\ell}. \tag{213}$$

Therefore, on every day $k \ge 1$,
$$\theta_k \le \zeta_k \le s \tag{214}$$
for a tracked value $s \in \mathcal{C}_{i\ell}$. Since $\zeta_k \ge 0$ and $\mathcal{C}_{i\ell}$ is a down-set, $\zeta_k \in \mathcal{C}_{i\ell}$, and (M3) gives $\Pr(D_{i\ell k} > \tau) \le \varepsilon$. □

Derivation that the loop constraint needs the anchors. The third step of the proof of Theorem 5.4 needs $\Pi(y) \le y$ in every coordinate. Under ARD_1 a larger anchor gives a weaker repair, so an anchor that grows over one repetition weakens the repairs of the next one.

Example.

- **Data.** $\rho = 0.5$; the repetitions start at mean 0.4 and anchor 0.1 (the start y); the operating phase is a mission (+0.1), a repair, and a mission (+0.05).
- **First repetition.** The phase ends at mean 0.35 and anchor 0.3, because the repair gives $0.5 \cdot 0.5 + 0.5 \cdot 0.1 = 0.3$. The loop row on the mean holds ($0.35 \le 0.4$), and the loop row on the anchor fails ($0.3 > 0.1$).
- **Later repetitions.** Each repetition raises the mean after the repair by 0.075, so the mean grows without bound: the third repetition already peaks at 0.525, above the checked peak 0.5.

A loop row on the mean alone would accept this unsafe schedule. □

Proof of Proposition 5.5. (a) The values $\xi_k = \zeta_k$ satisfy every row of day k with equality at binary points. They lie in $\mathcal{C}_{i\ell}$ because the schedule is safe. Take $y = \bar{\zeta}$: the start rows hold with equality, the rows of day $H_1 + 1$ read $\zeta_{H_1+1} = \pi_{H_1+1}(y)$, and the loop rows read
$$\zeta_T = \Pi(\bar{\zeta}) \le \bar{\zeta} = y. \tag{215}$$

(b) Let $y_n = \Pi^n(\bar{\zeta})$, the reference state at the end of the n-th repetition. By Lemma 5.2 and $\Pi(\bar{\zeta}) \ge \bar{\zeta}$,
$$y_{n+1} = \Pi(y_n) \ge \Pi(y_{n-1}) = y_n. \tag{216}$$

The sequence is non-decreasing and lies in the natural ranges (anchors included), so it converges to some y^* in the natural ranges with $y^* \geq \bar{\zeta}$. Each day map is affine or constant, so Π and its prefixes Π_h are continuous:

$$\Pi(y^*) = \lim_n y_{n+1} = y^* \tag{217}$$

and

$$\Pi_h(y^*) = \lim_n \Pi_h(y_n). \tag{218}$$

Each $\Pi_h(y_n)$ is a reference value of a later day, so it lies in the closed set $\mathcal{C}_{i\ell}$; hence $\Pi_h(y^*) \in \mathcal{C}_{i\ell}$ for $h = 1, \ldots, H_2$, and

$$y^* = \Pi_{H_2}(y^*) \in \mathcal{C}_{i\ell}. \tag{219}$$

Take $\xi_k = \zeta_k$ for $k \leq H_1$, $y = y^*$ and $\xi_{H_1+h} = \Pi_h(y^*)$. The days $k \leq H_1$ satisfy their rows with equality. The start rows hold, since $y^* \geq \bar{\zeta} = \xi_{H_1}$. The rows of day $H_1 + 1$ and of the later days hold with equality, and the loop rows read

$$\xi_T = \Pi(y^*) = y^* = y. \tag{220}$$

□

Derivation of the acceptance of every safe schedule for one tracked statistic. A scalar state y is always comparable with its image: $\Pi(y) \leq y$ or $\Pi(y) \geq y$. So a component in the exact form with one tracked statistic under ARD_∞ accepts every safe schedule, with no condition on day H_1. □

Proof of Proposition 5.8. Suppose that the component is not replaced in the operating phase. Let μ_k be its tracked mean, g_k the anchor of the mean, and $\delta\mu_k$ the mean increment of day k. The rows of day $H_1 + 1$ read the start y (Section 5.3). So let $\bar{\mu}_{H_1} = y^\mu$ and $\bar{g}_{H_1} = y^g$ be the state before day $H_1 + 1$, and $\bar{\mu}_k = \mu_k$, $\bar{g}_k = g_k$ for $k > H_1$. On a day $k > H_1$ of the operating phase, a repair day gives

$$\bar{g}_k = \bar{\mu}_k \;\geq\; (1-\rho)\,\bar{\mu}_{k-1} + \rho\,\bar{g}_{k-1} \;=\; \bar{g}_{k-1} + (1-\rho)\,(\bar{\mu}_{k-1} - \bar{g}_{k-1}), \tag{221}$$

and any other day gives $\bar{\mu}_k \geq \bar{\mu}_{k-1} + \delta\mu_k$ and $\bar{g}_k = \bar{g}_{k-1}$. The loop rows read $\mu_T \leq y^\mu$ and $g_T \leq y^g$. Let $\Delta = \sum_{k=H_1+1}^{T} \delta\mu_k > 0$.

- **No repair.** $\mu_T \geq y^\mu + \Delta > y^\mu$, which violates the loop row.
- **A repair, and $y^g > y^\mu$.** Let r be the first repair day. Since $\bar{\mu}_{r-1} \geq y^\mu$ and $\rho > 0$,

  $$g_r \;\geq\; (1-\rho)\,\bar{\mu}_{r-1} + \rho\, y^g \;>\; y^\mu. \tag{222}$$

  From day r on, $\bar{\mu}_k \geq \bar{g}_k$ (equality on a repair day; μ does not decrease and g stays constant on other days). So every later repair day has a non-negative term $\bar{\mu}_{k-1} - \bar{g}_{k-1}$, and g does not decrease. On the last repair day s, $\mu_s = g_s$, and μ does not decrease afterwards. Therefore $\mu_T \geq \mu_s = g_s \geq g_r > y^\mu$, which violates the loop row.
- **A repair, and $y^g \leq y^\mu$.** Every repair day has $\bar{\mu}_{k-1} - \bar{g}_{k-1} \geq 0$: on the first one because $\bar{\mu}_{r-1} \geq y^\mu \geq y^g = \bar{g}_{r-1}$, and on the later ones as above. So

  $$g_T \geq y^g + (1-\rho) \sum (\bar{\mu}_{k-1} - \bar{g}_{k-1}), \tag{223}$$

the sum over the repair days of the operating phase, with non-negative terms. The loop row $g_T \le y^g$ and $\rho < 1$ force every term to 0. Then every repair day gives $\mu_k = g_k \ge \bar{g}_{k-1} = \bar{\mu}_{k-1}$, every other day gives $\mu_k \ge \bar{\mu}_{k-1} + \delta\mu_k$, and

$$\mu_T \;\ge\; y^\mu + \Delta \;>\; y^\mu, \tag{224}$$

which violates the loop row.

□

Proof of Proposition 5.9. The first inequality is (80) with $x^m_{i\ell k} = 1$. Under ARD_∞,

$$g^\mu = \zeta^g = 0, \tag{225}$$

and $\mu_{k-1} \ge \zeta^\mu_{k-1}$ by Proposition 5.3. Under ARD_1, let $t < k$ be the last intervention day before k, or $t = 0$ if there is none. Then $g^\mu_{k-1} = g^\mu_t$ and $\zeta^g_{k-1} = \zeta^g_t$.

- If $t = 0$: $g^\mu_0 = \zeta^g_0$ (the starting anchor), so

$$g^\mu_{k-1} - \zeta^g_{k-1} = 0 \le \mu_{k-1} - \zeta^\mu_{k-1}. \tag{226}$$

- If $t \ge 1$: $g^\mu_t = \mu_t$ and $\zeta^g_t = \zeta^\mu_t$. On the days $j = t+1, \dots, k-1$ there is no intervention:

$$\mu_j \ge \mu_{j-1} + \delta\mu_j \tag{227}$$

and

$$\zeta^\mu_j = \zeta^\mu_{j-1} + \delta\mu_j. \tag{228}$$

So $\mu_j - \zeta^\mu_j$ does not decrease, and

$$\mu_{k-1} - \zeta^\mu_{k-1} \ge \mu_t - \zeta^\mu_t = g^\mu_{k-1} - \zeta^g_{k-1}. \tag{229}$$

Rearranging gives

$$\mu_{k-1} - g^\mu_{k-1} \ge \zeta^\mu_{k-1} - \zeta^g_{k-1}. \tag{230}$$

The mean recursion is linear (Section 5.16); with an exact starting anchor, ζ^μ and ζ^g are the true means, so

$$\rho\,(\zeta^\mu_{k-1} - \zeta^g_{k-1}) = \mathbb{E}[D^- - D^+]. \tag{231}$$

□

Derivation of the properties of the Bernstein constraint (98). By (92) the mean and the variance are *affine* in the counts. So the square root is concave, and the feasible set is reverse-convex (its complement is convex); it cannot be written as a second-order cone.

Every tangent line to the concave square root lies *above* it. So the replacement of the square root by a fixed tangent, or by the pointwise minimum of several tangents, gives constraints in the counts that imply (98): one linear constraint for a fixed tangent, and linear constraints for the minimum.

For an increment whose range has width $b_{\ell j}$, Bernstein's bound of its cumulant generating function reads, for $0 < s < 3/b_{\ell j}$,

$$\psi_{\ell j}(s) \;\le\; s\,\mu_{\ell j} + \frac{s^2 v_{\ell j}/2}{1 - s\,b_{\ell j}/3}. \tag{232}$$

Used in place of $\psi_{\ell j}$ in (95), it keeps a support per mission, and the bound still needs the minimisation over s. With one constant $b_\ell \geq \max_j b_{\ell j}$ in every term, the choice $s = a/(\mathrm{Var}[D] + b_\ell\, a/3)$, with $a = \tau - \mathbb{E}[D]$, gives the closed form (98), which has no s. □

Derivation of the properties of the width of a range. Let the increment X lie in an interval $[l, l+b]$ almost surely. Bernstein's inequality needs an upper bound of the centred term, and the width is one:

$$X - \mathbb{E}X \leq l + b - l = b, \tag{233}$$

since $\mathbb{E}X \geq l$.

For Popoviciu's inequality, let X take values in an interval of width w with midpoint m_c; then

$$\mathrm{Var}\, X \leq \mathbb{E}\,(X - m_c)^2 \leq (w/2)^2. \tag{234}$$

□

Proof of Proposition 5.10. Item 1: the mean and R are additive by definition, the variance and the cumulant generating function by independence. Item 2: m and V scale by $1-\rho$ and $(1-\rho)^2$; every weight is multiplied by $1-\rho$, so R scales by $(1-\rho)^2$. A cumulant generating function is convex with value 0 at 0, so

$$K\big((1-\rho)D\big) = K_D\big((1-\rho)s\big) \leq (1-\rho)\, K_D(s) + \rho\, K_D(0) = (1-\rho)\, K(D), \tag{235}$$

with K_D the cumulant generating function of D as a function of its argument. Item 3: by independence,

$$\theta(D^-) = \theta(G) + \theta(\Delta); \tag{236}$$

for R the weights of the terms of G are unchanged and those of Δ are multiplied by $1-\rho$. Hence

$$\begin{aligned} \theta(D^+) &= \theta(G) + a_\theta\, \theta(\Delta) \\ &= \theta(G) + a_\theta\big(\theta(D^-) - \theta(G)\big) \\ &= a_\theta\, \theta(D^-) + (1 - a_\theta)\, \theta(G), \end{aligned} \tag{237}$$

and, with item 2 applied to Δ,

$$\begin{aligned} K(D^+) &= K(G) + K_\Delta\big((1-\rho)s\big) \\ &\leq K(G) + (1-\rho)\big(K(D^-) - K(G)\big) \\ &= (1-\rho)\, K(D^-) + \rho\, K(G). \end{aligned} \tag{238}$$

□

Derivation of the rows of Table 17. Write $d_k = \tau - \mu_k$.

- **Markov.** By A0 and Markov's inequality,

$$\Pr(D_k > \tau) \leq m/\tau \leq \mu_k/\tau, \tag{239}$$

  so the row $\mu_k \leq \varepsilon\, \tau$ suffices. It uses the mean only and does not need A1 or A2.

- **Cantelli.** Cantelli's inequality gives

$$\Pr(D - m \geq a) \leq V/(V + a^2) \quad \text{for } a > 0; \tag{240}$$

the row is equivalent to

$$\mu_k + \kappa_C \sqrt{v_k} \leq \tau \quad \text{with} \quad \kappa_C = \sqrt{(1-\varepsilon)/\varepsilon}. \tag{241}$$

If $d_k > 0$,

$$\Pr(D_k > \tau) \leq \Pr(D_k - m \geq \tau - m) \leq \frac{V}{V + (\tau - m)^2} \leq \frac{v_k}{v_k + d_k^2} \leq \varepsilon, \tag{242}$$

because $v/(v + d^2)$ increases in v and decreases in d, and $\tau - m \geq d_k$. If $d_k = 0$, the row gives $v_k = 0$, so $V = 0$ and

$$D_k = m \leq \tau. \tag{243}$$

- **Hoeffding.** $D_k - m$ is a sum of independent centred terms $w_t(X_t - \mathbb{E}X_t)$ with ranges of widths $w_t\sqrt{r_t}$, and the sum of their squares is R^{t}. Hoeffding's inequality gives

$$\Pr(D_k - m \geq a) \leq \exp(-2a^2/R^{\mathrm{t}}), \tag{244}$$

and $\exp(-2d^2/R) \leq \varepsilon$ exactly when $d^2 \geq (\kappa/2)\, R$. If $R^{\mathrm{t}} = 0$, every term is constant and

$$D_k = m \leq \tau; \tag{245}$$

this covers $d_k = 0$, where the row gives $R_k = 0$. Otherwise $d_k > 0$, and

$$\Pr(D_k > \tau) \leq \exp\bigl(-2(\tau - m)^2/R^{\mathrm{t}}\bigr) \leq \exp(-2d_k^2/R_k) \leq \varepsilon, \tag{246}$$

because $\exp(-2d^2/R)$ increases in R and decreases in d.

- **Bernstein.** The support constant b_ℓ of (98) is a constant, not a decision variable; the replacement support enters it only when replacements are allowed. Every weighted term satisfies

$$w_t(X_t - \mathbb{E}X_t) \leq w_t\, b_t \leq b_\ell, \tag{247}$$

with b_t the width of the range of X_t, whatever the schedule, because $w_t \leq 1$. Bernstein's inequality for independent terms bounded above by b_ℓ gives

$$\Pr(D - m \geq a) \leq \exp\bigl(-a^2/(2(V + b_\ell\, a/3))\bigr) \quad \text{for } a > 0; \tag{248}$$

the right side is at most ε exactly when $a^2 - 2c\,a - 2\kappa V \geq 0$. With $v_k \geq 0$, the row and its side row give $d_k \geq 2c$. The function

$$a^2/(2(V + b_\ell\, a/3)) \tag{249}$$

increases in $a > 0$ and decreases in V, and

$$\tau - m \geq d_k \geq 2c; \tag{250}$$

so $\Pr(D_k > \tau) \leq \varepsilon$ when $b_\ell > 0$. When $b_\ell = 0$, every term is constant and

$$D_k = m \leq \tau. \tag{251}$$

- **Chernoff.** For $s > 0$, Markov's inequality applied to e^{sD} gives

$$\Pr(D_k \geq \tau) \leq \exp(K^{\mathrm{t}} - s\tau). \tag{252}$$

Since $K^{\mathrm{t}} \leq K_k$, the row gives

$$\Pr(D_k > \tau) \leq \exp(K_k - s\tau) \leq \varepsilon. \tag{253}$$

The row bounds K by $s\tau - \kappa$, its natural range, and $K \geq 0$, because

$$K(X) \geq s\,\mathbb{E}X \geq 0 \tag{254}$$

by Jensen's inequality and A0. So a known zero damage satisfies the row only if $s\tau \geq \kappa$, and a replacement day satisfies it only if the replacement value of K is at most $s\tau - \kappa$.

□

Derivation of the initial and replacement values of the statistic K. By Jensen's inequality,

$$\ln \mathbb{E}[e^{sD}] \geq s\,\mathbb{E}[D], \tag{255}$$

with equality exactly when D is almost surely constant. So a known initial damage μ_0 gives the initial value $K_0 = s\,\mu_0$, and a known replacement damage μ^{new} gives the reset value $s\,\mu^{\mathrm{new}}$. A random initial or replacement damage needs its own cumulant generating function at s, which is larger.

For the same reason, the cumulant generating function of every increment at s is at least s times its mean. Also the initial value and the replacement value of K are at least s times the corresponding mean. □

Derivation that $U^{(1)} \leq U^{(0)}$ does not chain (Section 5.8). The bound U is a many-to-one function of the parameters of the state, and its level sets are not invariant under the dynamics. Bernstein's bound, for example, depends on $(\mathbb{E}[D], \mathrm{Var}[D])$ through a single scalar. So $U^{(1)} = U^{(0)}$ can hold with

$$\big(\mathbb{E}[D_T], \mathrm{Var}[D_T]\big) \;\neq\; \big(\mathbb{E}[D_{H_1}], \mathrm{Var}[D_{H_1}]\big), \tag{256}$$

for example with a larger mean balanced by a smaller variance. One more repetition of the dynamics can map these two parameter points to different bound values, the larger one at the end of the second repetition. The Cantelli instance of Section 5.8 with $\sum_j n_{ij} v_{\ell j} = 4$ gives $U^{(1)} = U^{(0)} = 0.2000$ and $U^{(2)} = 0.2155$. So the relation (113) is possible. □

Derivation that the moment loop (115) chains. Under the dynamics, the mean and the variance change by one of three operations.

- **Increment.** The moments grow as

$$\mathbb{E} \mathrel{+}= \sum_j n_{ij}\mu_{\ell j} \qquad \text{and} \qquad \mathrm{Var} \mathrel{+}= \sum_j n_{ij} v_{\ell j}. \tag{257}$$

- **Imperfect repair.** A repair maps the moments as follows under ARD_∞ and under ARD_1:

$$\mathrm{ARD}_\infty\colon \quad \mathbb{E} \mapsto (1-\rho)\,\mathbb{E}, \qquad \mathrm{Var} \mapsto (1-\rho)^2\,\mathrm{Var}, \tag{258}$$

$$\mathrm{ARD}_1\colon \quad \mathbb{E} \mapsto (1-\rho)\,\mathbb{E} + \rho\, g^{\mu}, \qquad \mathrm{Var} \mapsto (1-\rho)^2\,\mathrm{Var} + \big(1-(1-\rho)^2\big)\, g^{v}. \tag{259}$$

- **Replacement.** A reset to the constants of D^{new}.

Each operation is non-decreasing in every moment and anchor separately, so the moments evolve as monotone recursions.

Componentwise domination therefore chains. Write Π for the map of one repetition of the operating phase. Then (115), with the rows on the anchors under ARD_1, states that Π does not increase either moment, nor either anchor, at the start of the repetition y. Hence the moments at the end of each repetition are at most those at the end of the previous one (Theorem 5.4).

The Bernstein bound (98), like the Cantelli bound (21), is increasing in both $\mathbb{E}[D]$ and $\text{Var}[D]$. So the certified risk does not increase across repetitions, as in (116), and the schedule is repeatable. □

Derivation of the loop (117) on the cumulant generating function. Without imperfect repair, K_k is its value at the last replacement (or on day 0) plus the count-weighted sum

$$\sum_j n_{ij}^{(k)}\, \psi_{\ell j}(s). \tag{260}$$

Here $n_{ij}^{(k)}$ is the number of days on which mission j is served after the last replacement and up to day k. Then $M_D(s)$ propagates multiplicatively,

$$M_{D+\Delta D}(s) \;=\; M_D(s)\, M_{\Delta D}(s). \tag{261}$$

So the value of K on a day depends only on its value on the day before, and (117) carries over by induction.

An imperfect (ARD) repair does not keep this scalar exact. With $D^+ = (1-\rho)D^-$,

$$M_{D^+}(s) \;=\; \mathbb{E}\big[e^{s(1-\rho)D^-}\big] \;=\; M_{D^-}\big((1-\rho)s\big)\,: \tag{262}$$

the transform of the repaired state at s is the old transform at the *shifted* argument $(1-\rho)s$. The value $M_{D^-}(s)$ does not determine it: the repair moves the state along the transform curve. However, $M_{D^-}(s)$ determines an upper bound: the cumulant generating function is convex with value 0 at 0, so (Proposition 5.10)

$$K_{D^+}(s) \;\le\; (1-\rho)\, K_{D^-}(s) \qquad \text{under } \text{ARD}_\infty, \text{ and} \tag{263}$$

$$K_{D^+}(s) \;\le\; (1-\rho)\, K_{D^-}(s) + \rho\, K_G(s) \qquad \text{under } \text{ARD}_1. \tag{264}$$

So the tracked statistic follows the maps (118), with the anchor g^K. These maps are non-decreasing in (K, g^K), and the tracked K stays an upper bound on the true cumulant generating function, which is all that the Chernoff certificate needs. □

Derivation of the validity of the support $b_\ell(\zeta)$ and of its rows (Section 5.9).

- **Validity of $b_\ell(\zeta)$.** Between resets, the state is a sum, with weights in $[0,1]$, of one reset draw and of increments of *served* missions only. So $b_\ell(\zeta)$ bounds every summand, and Bernstein's inequality applies without change, on every day and in every repetition of the schedule.

- **Equivalence of the rows.** The certified value $\mu + c + \sqrt{c^2 + 2\kappa v}$ has the derivative

$$1 + c/\sqrt{c^2 + 2\kappa v} \;\in\; [1, 2] \tag{265}$$

in c. So it increases with the support constant, and the Bernstein row written for a larger constant implies every row written for a smaller one. The active row with the largest constant dominates the others, and that largest constant is exactly $\kappa b_\ell(\zeta)/3$. So the conditional rows at c_j and the unconditional row at c_0 are exactly equivalent to the single row with the schedule-dependent maximum.

□

Derivation of the remaining gap (130) *of the union of tangents.* The gap of tangent r is

$$f(\mu) - T_r(\mu) \;=\; (\mu - \mu_r)^2, \tag{266}$$

so the remaining gap of the union is (130) where the union admits $v \geq 0$. This gap is quadratic in the distance to the nearest tangent point, with worst case $(\Delta/2)^2$ for a spacing Δ. Where the union admits no $v \geq 0$, the gap is $f(\mu) \leq (\Delta/2)^2$. So doubling the number of tangents divides it by four. □

Proof of Proposition 5.11. f is a polynomial of degree 2 in μ with leading coefficient c_2, so its Taylor expansion at μ_r is exact:

$$f(\mu) = f(\mu_r) + f'(\mu_r)(\mu - \mu_r) + c_2(\mu - \mu_r)^2. \tag{267}$$

Since $c_2 > 0$, the tangent lies below f. Each linear form caps χ by one such tangent and keeps the side row. Therefore it implies (131). □

Derivation of the conditions on the tangent point of a Bernstein row (Section 5.10). A tangent is linear in μ, so its largest value on $[0, \tau - c]$ is at an end point. At $\tau - c$ it is at most

$$f(\tau - c) \;=\; -c^2/(2\kappa) \;<\; 0. \tag{268}$$

At 0 it equals

$$f(0) - \mu_r^2/(2\kappa) \;=\; \big(\tau(\tau - 2c) - \mu_r^2\big)/(2\kappa), \tag{269}$$

by Proposition 5.11 with $c_2 = 1/(2\kappa)$. So the tangent row admits a point with $v \geq 0$ exactly when $\mu_r^2 \leq \tau(\tau - 2c)$, and at equality only $\mu = 0$ and $v = 0$. Since $\sqrt{\tau(\tau - 2c)} < \tau - c$, this covers the case $\mu_r \geq \tau - c$, in which the tangent has a non-negative slope.

The `pwl` form accepts the points below the largest of its tangents, a convex function. At $\mu = 0$ the largest is the tangent at the midpoint $\tau/(2P)$ of the first segment, so the same argument applies with $\mu_r = \tau/(2P)$. Otherwise no segment admits a point with $v > 0$: the first segment fails as above, and on every later segment

$$\mu \;\geq\; \tau/P \;>\; \tau - 2c, \tag{270}$$

where $f(\mu) < 0$. □

Derivation that the loop condition (143) *chains.* Unlike the scalar bound of Section 5.8, which loses information, the condition (143) *chains*, for two reasons. First, M is a sufficient statistic: the failure probability is the fixed increasing function F_A of the scalar state. Second, the map Π of the operating phase is a composition of $m \mapsto m + c$ ($c \geq 0$), $m \mapsto (1-\rho)m$ and $m \mapsto 0$, and each of these maps is non-decreasing. So, from

$$M_T \;=\; \Pi(M_{H_1}) \;\leq\; M_{H_1}, \tag{271}$$

induction gives

$$\Pi^{n+1}(M_{H_1}) \;\leq\; \Pi^n(M_{H_1}) \qquad \text{for all } n. \tag{272}$$

The same monotonicity, applied to the partial maps, bounds every trajectory within a repetition by the trajectory of the operating phase on the horizon. So imposing (139) on all $k = 1, \ldots, T$ extends the per-day reliability to every repetition, replacements (which draw a new A) included. □

Proof of Proposition 5.15. Let $c_t = w_t a_t$ and $A = \sum_t c_t$. If $A = 0$, then $D = 0$. Otherwise, the map $x \mapsto (x-d)_+$ is convex and non-decreasing, and $(A-d)_+ \leq \mathbb{E}(AZ-d)_+$ by Jensen's inequality, since $\mathbb{E}Z = 1$. Hence, for every $d \geq 0$,

$$\mathbb{E}(D-d)_+ = \mathbb{E}\Big(\sum_t \tfrac{c_t}{A}\,(AZ_t) - d\Big)_+ \leq \sum_t \tfrac{c_t}{A}\,\mathbb{E}(AZ_t - d)_+ \leq \mathbb{E}(AZ-d)_+ \leq \mathbb{E}(\mu Z - d)_+. \tag{273}$$

□

Proof of Theorem 5.16. If $\mu = 0$, then $\mathbb{E}D \leq 0$ and $D = 0$. Let $\mu > 0$ and $d = \mu q$; then

$$d < \mu\bar{q} \leq \tau. \tag{274}$$

For every x,

$$\mathbf{1}\{x > \tau\} \leq (x-d)_+/(\tau - d), \tag{275}$$

and

$$\mathbb{E}(Z-q)_+ = \varepsilon\,(\bar{q} - q). \tag{276}$$

Therefore

$$\Pr(D > \tau) \leq \frac{\mathbb{E}(D-d)_+}{\tau - d} \leq \frac{\mu\,\mathbb{E}(Z-q)_+}{\tau - \mu q} = \frac{\varepsilon\,\mu\,(\bar{q}-q)}{\tau - \mu q} \leq \varepsilon, \tag{277}$$

where the last step is $\mu\bar{q} \leq \tau$. □

Derivation of the tail mean of the inverse Gaussian law. Substituting into the density f_Z of Z gives $z\,f_Z(z) = z^{-2} f_Z(1/z)$, and the change of variable $u = 1/z$ gives

$$\int_q^\infty z\,f_Z(z)\,\mathrm{d}z = \int_0^{1/q} f_Z(u)\,\mathrm{d}u = F_Z(1/q). \tag{278}$$

□

Derivation of the sharpness of the CVaR cap. Take $\mu > \bar{\mu}$ and a level $\varepsilon' > \varepsilon$ close to ε, with quantile q'; then still $\mu\,\mathbb{E}[Z \mid Z > q'] > \tau$. The two-point law

$$\mu\,\mathbb{E}\big[Z \mid \mathbf{1}\{Z > q'\}\big] \tag{279}$$

lies below μZ in the order of Definition 5.14, by Jensen's inequality, and exceeds τ with probability at least ε'. □

Proof of Lemma 5.18. Since the last replacement (or day 0),

$$D_k = \delta + \sum_t w_t X_t. \tag{280}$$

The X_t are the independent Gamma terms added since then, $\delta \geq 0$ collects the known constants, and each weight $w_t \in [0,1]$ is a product of factors $1-\rho$. A term of weight 0, possible when $\rho = 1$, is dropped. A mission adds a term with weight 1. ARD_∞ multiplies every weight, constants included, by $1-\rho$. ARD_1 multiplies by $1-\rho$ the weights of the terms and constants added since the last intervention, and keeps the others. A replacement starts a new sum with the replacement draw. When the anchor before the first intervention is below the initial mean, the initial damage is read as two independent terms of its rate, with means equal to the anchor and to the rest. Their sum has the law of the initial damage. A known initial damage is read as two constants in the same way. Write $X_t = Y_t/\beta_t$ with $Y_t \sim \mathrm{Ga}(a_t, 1)$ and $\beta_t \geq \beta^*$. Then

$$\beta^* D_k = \beta^* \delta + \sum_t (w_t \beta^*/\beta_t)\, Y_t, \tag{281}$$

and every scale $w_t\beta^*/\beta_t$ lies in $(0,1]$. The Y_t are independent, so the law of $\beta^* D_k$ is in $\mathcal{G}(\beta^* \mathbb{E}[D_k])$. □

Proof of Lemma 5.19. S is infinitely divisible, with drift δ and Lévy density

$$\Lambda(y) = \sum_i (m_i/c_i)\, e^{-y/c_i}/y \tag{282}$$

on $y > 0$. A change of the parameters at the rates $(\dot\delta, \dot\Lambda)$ changes the Laplace transform

$$\mathbb{E}e^{-\vartheta S} = \exp\bigl(-\vartheta\delta - \int_0^\infty (1 - e^{-\vartheta y})\, \Lambda(y)\, \mathrm{d}y\bigr) \tag{283}$$

at the rate

$$\int_0^\infty \mathbb{E}\bigl[e^{-\vartheta(S+y)} - e^{-\vartheta S}\bigr]\, \dot\Lambda(y)\, \mathrm{d}y - \vartheta\dot\delta\, \mathbb{E}e^{-\vartheta S}. \tag{284}$$

Since $\int_0^\infty e^{-\vartheta t} \Pr(S > t)\, \mathrm{d}t = (1 - \mathbb{E}e^{-\vartheta S})/\vartheta$, this rate times $-1/\vartheta$ is the transform of the rate

$$\int_0^\infty \Pr(t - y < S \leq t)\, \dot\Lambda(y)\, \mathrm{d}y + \dot\delta\, f_S(t) \tag{285}$$

of $\Pr(S > t)$. Case (a) is $\dot\Lambda(y) = c^{-1}e^{-y/c}/y$, or $\dot\delta = 1$ when $c = 0$. Case (b) is

$$\dot\Lambda(y) = m_i\, \partial_c\bigl(c^{-1}e^{-y/c}/y\bigr) \tag{286}$$

at $c = c_i$. □

Proof of Theorem 5.20. Let $\mathcal{G}_N(m)$ be the elements with at most N atoms, the constant included, and let $N \geq 3$.

1. *A maximiser exists.* $\mathcal{G}_N(m)$ is the image of the compact set of atoms (m_i, c_i) with $m_i \geq 0$, $\sum_i m_i = m$, $c_i \in [0,1]$. The law of S depends continuously on the atoms, and only the constant element $S = m$ has an atom of probability, at $m \neq t$. So $\Pr(S > t)$ is continuous and attains its maximum at some S^*. Since

$$\Pr(m > t) = 0 < Q(m,t), \tag{287}$$

S^* has at least one term. Every element has finitely many atoms, so

$$W(m,t) = \sup_N \max_{\mathcal{G}_N(m)} \Pr(S > t). \tag{288}$$

2. *First-order conditions.* Write $\omega^\circ = \omega_{S^*}$. Lemma 5.19 gives three conditions.

   (i) Moving mean between two atoms of positive mean must not raise the tail, so ω° takes one value ω^* at every atom of positive mean.

   (ii) At an atom with $c \in (0,1)$, $\partial\omega^\circ/\partial c = 0$.

   (iii) If S^* has fewer than N atoms of positive mean, a new atom can be opened at any $c \in [0,1]$, so $\omega^\circ(c) \le \omega^*$ on $[0,1]$.

3. *A single-peak function.* Put $\gamma = 1/c$ and

$$h(u) = \Pr(t-u < S^* \le t)/u. \tag{289}$$

   Then

$$\omega^\circ(\gamma) = \gamma \int_0^\infty h(u)\, e^{-\gamma u}\, \mathrm{d}u, \tag{290}$$

   and

$$\omega^\circ(\infty) = h(0^+) = f_{S^*}(t) \tag{291}$$

   is the value at the constant atom. S^* is a constant plus a sum of independent Gamma variables, so its density is unimodal [76, Theorem 4, p. 11], proved in [87, proof of Theorem 4, pp. 194–195]; the constant shifts the mode only. Then $p(v) = f_{S^*}(t-v)$ for $v < t$ and $p(v) = 0$ for $v \ge t$ is unimodal on $[0,\infty)$, and so is its running average

$$h(u) = u^{-1} \int_0^u p : \tag{292}$$

   before the mode of p, $p \ge h$; after it,

$$u\,(p(u) - h(u)) = u\,p(u) - \int_0^u p \tag{293}$$

   is non-increasing. Since $h' = (p-h)/u$, h rises and then falls.

4. *Zero count.* For every constant ω', $h - \omega'$ changes sign at most twice. The Laplace transform of a function with at most n sign changes has at most n zeros in $\gamma > 0$, counted with multiplicity. Indeed, at a sign change u_1, multiply the transform by $e^{\gamma u_1}$. Its derivative in γ is the transform of a function with one sign change fewer, and Rolle's theorem and induction conclude. So

$$\omega^\circ - \omega' = \gamma \int_0^\infty (h - \omega')\, e^{-\gamma u}\, \mathrm{d}u \tag{294}$$

   has at most two zeros in $\gamma > 0$. Also $\omega^\circ(\gamma) \to 0$ as $\gamma \to 0^+$. Hence ω° cannot rise above a level $\omega' > 0$, fall below it and rise above it again: with $\omega^\circ(0^+) = 0$ that would give three zeros. So ω° is quasi-concave. It is analytic in $\gamma > 0$ and not constant, so its maximum over $\gamma \in [1,\infty]$ is attained at one point only: two maximisers would make ω° constant between them.

5. *One term.* By (i) and (ii), an atom with $c \in (0,1)$ is a zero of $\omega^\circ - \omega^*$ of multiplicity at least 2, and an atom at $c = 1$ a zero of multiplicity at least 1. The constant atom is at $\gamma = \infty$. By step 4, S^* has at most two atoms of positive mean. As $N \ge 3$, (iii) applies, so ω^* is the maximum of ω° over $[1,\infty]$, attained at every atom of positive mean. By step 4 there is only one such atom, and by step 1 it is not the constant. So $S^* = c^*\,\mathrm{Ga}(m/c^*, 1)$ with $c^* \in (0,1]$.

Therefore

$$\max_{\mathcal{G}_N(m)} \Pr(S > t) = \max_{c\in(0,1]} Q(m/c, t/c) \tag{295}$$

for every $N \geq 3$, and the claim follows from step 1. □

Proof of Lemma 5.21. Let $m < m' < t$ and let the law of S be in $\mathcal{G}(m)$. Then the law of $S+(m'-m)$ is in $\mathcal{G}(m')$, and $\Pr(S+m'-m > t) \geq \Pr(S > t)$. Therefore $W(m,t) \leq W(m',t)$. □

Derivation of the properties of the function w.

- w is non-decreasing in A, because $Q(a,x)$ increases in a. It is continuous on $[0, A']$ for every $A' < t$. By Chebyshev's inequality $Q(A/c, t/c) \leq cA/(t-A)^2$, so $w(A) \leq A/(t-A)^2 \to 0 = w(0)$ as $A \to 0$. On $[\delta, A']$, with $\delta > 0$, the maximum can therefore be taken over a compact interval $[c_0, 1]$, on which $Q(A/c, t/c)$ is continuous in (A, c).
- $w(A) < 1/2$ for every $A < t$: with $r = A/t < 1$ and $s = t/c$,

$$Q(rs, s) \leq Q(rs, rs) < 1/2, \tag{296}$$

  because the median of a Gamma law lies below its mean.
- $w(A) \to 1/2$ as $A \to t$, because $Q(s,s) \to 1/2$ as $s \to \infty$.

□

Proof of Proposition 5.22. Let $m = \beta^* \mathbb{E}[D_k]$ and $A = A_1(\beta^*\tau, \varepsilon)$, so

$$m \leq \beta^* \mu_k \leq A < t. \tag{297}$$

If $m = 0$, then $D_k = 0$. Otherwise

$$\Pr(D_k > \tau) = \Pr(\beta^* D_k > t) \leq W(m,t) \leq W(A,t) = w(A) \leq \varepsilon, \tag{298}$$

by Lemma 5.18, Lemma 5.21, Theorem 5.20 and the choice of A: in both cases of the definition, $A < t$ and $w(A) \leq \varepsilon$. □

Derivation of the sharp cap below the threshold t_1. With $r = A/t$ and $s = t/c$, $Q(A/c, t/c) = Q(rs, s)$, and $c \in (0,1]$ means $s \geq t$. Let $r^*(\varepsilon)$ be the value of r at which the peak value of $s \mapsto Q(rs, s)$ equals ε. This peak lies at $s = t_1(\varepsilon)$, so $r^*(\varepsilon) = \hat{A}(t_1, \varepsilon)/t_1$. For $t \leq t_1(\varepsilon)$ the peak lies at $s \geq t$, so the maximum does not depend on t, and

$$A_1(t, \varepsilon) = r^*(\varepsilon)\, t. \tag{299}$$

□

Derivation of the monotonicity of the Gamma mean cap in β^*. A larger t shrinks the range $s \geq t$, so $A_1(t,\varepsilon)/t$ is non-decreasing in t, and the mean cap

$$A_1(\beta^*\tau, \varepsilon)/\beta^* = \tau\, A_1(t, \varepsilon)/t \tag{300}$$

is non-decreasing in β^*. □

Derivation of facts (M1)–(M3) for the Gamma model. (M1) The repair factor $1-\rho$ lies in $[0,1]$, and the mean increments are non-negative.

(M2) The true mean equals the day map applied to the true statistics of the day before, and $\theta_0 \le \xi_0$ holds as for the Gaussian model below.

(M3) If a value $\mu \le A_1/\beta^*$ is at least the true mean of day k, then $\Pr(D_k > \tau) \le \varepsilon$, because the proof of Proposition 5.22 uses only these two facts.

□

Proof of Proposition 5.23. A mission adds an independent Gaussian term, and ARD_∞ scales the damage by $1-\rho$; both keep the law Gaussian and give the first two cases. Under ARD_1, $D^- = G + \Delta$, with G the damage just after the last intervention and Δ the increments added since; G and Δ are independent Gaussian variables by N1. Then $D^+ = G + (1-\rho)\Delta$ is Gaussian, with mean $m_G + (1-\rho)(m^- - m_G)$ and variance

$$V_G + (1-\rho)^2 V_\Delta = V_G + (1-\rho)^2 (V^- - V_G) = (1-\rho)^2 V^- + \big(1 - (1-\rho)^2\big) V_G. \tag{301}$$

A replacement starts from the replacement draw. Therefore the law is Gaussian on every day, with the moments of the maps. □

Derivation of the validity of the Gaussian row. Let $(m_k, V_k) \le (\mu_k, v_k)$ be the true moments (Proposition 5.23 and Proposition 5.3). If $V_k = 0$, then

$$D_k = m_k \le \tau. \tag{302}$$

Otherwise $\mu_k < \tau$, because $\mu_k = \tau$ forces $v_k = 0$, and

$$\Pr(D_k > \tau) = 1 - \Phi\big((\tau - m_k)/\sqrt{V_k}\big) \le 1 - \Phi\big((\tau - \mu_k)/\sqrt{v_k}\big) \le \varepsilon, \tag{303}$$

because $(\tau - \mu)/\sqrt{v}$ decreases in μ and in v. □

Derivation of facts (M1)–(M3) for the Gaussian model. (M1) The repair factors $1-\rho$ and $(1-\rho)^2$ lie in $[0,1]$, and the mean and variance increments are non-negative.

(M2) $\theta_0 \le \xi_0$: the initial values are the moments of the initial damage, and each starting anchor is at least the moment of the part of the damage present just after the last intervention before day 1 (Section 5.16). On every later day, the true moments equal the maps applied to the true statistics of the day before (Proposition 5.23).

(M3) If values (μ, v) that satisfy the row are at least the true moments of day k, then $\Pr(D_k > \tau) \le \varepsilon$ (the derivation of the validity of the Gaussian row, Appendix A.2, page 137).

□

Derivation for a repair of the Wiener damage path. A repair of the damage path, as in the Gaussian model, would give the same mean and the variance

$$(1-\rho)^2 V \quad \text{under } \mathrm{ARD}_\infty, \qquad (1-\rho)^2 V + \big(1 - (1-\rho)^2\big) V_G \quad \text{under } \mathrm{ARD}_1, \tag{304}$$

with $V_G \le V$ the variance just after the last intervention. Both are at most V, and the reliability row increases in v, so the rows of the Wiener model are safe for that reading as well. □

Derivation of facts (M1)–(M3) for the inverse Gaussian model. (M1) The repair factor $1-\rho$ lies in $[0,1]$, and the mean increments are non-negative.

(M2) $\theta_0 \le \xi_0$ holds as for the Gaussian model, and the true mean equals the day map applied to the true statistics of the day before.

(M3) If a value $\mu \le \bar{\mu}$ is at least the true mean of day k, then $\Pr(D_k > \tau) \le \varepsilon$, by Proposition 5.15 with this μ and Theorem 5.16.

Each day of each repetition has its own set of terms. The argument holds for each of them, because it needs neither independence nor a fixed set of terms. □

Derivation of facts (M1)–(M3) for the rainflow model. (M1) The repair factors $1-\rho$ (for the mean and the cumulant generating function) and $(1-\rho)^2$ (for the variance and the Hoeffding budget) lie in $[0,1]$, and the increments of the four statistics are non-negative. The cumulant generating function of an increment is at least s times its mean, which is non-negative, by Jensen's inequality and A0.

(M2) $\theta_0 \le \xi_0$ holds as for the Gaussian model. On every later day the true statistics are at most the day maps applied to the true statistics of the day before, with equality for the mean, the variance and the Hoeffding budget, and an inequality for the cumulant generating function (Proposition 5.10).

(M3) If values that satisfy the row of the bound are at least the true statistics of day k, then $\Pr(D_k > \tau) \le \varepsilon$ (the derivations of Section 5.7).

□

Derivation of the repair maps of the mean and the variance.

- **Mean.** $a = 1-\rho$, because expectation is linear: Eq. (31) gives

$$\mathbb{E}[D^+] = (1-\rho)\,\mathbb{E}[D^-] + \rho\,\mathbb{E}[D^{\text{last}}]. \tag{305}$$

- **Variance and Hoeffding budget.** $a = (1-\rho)^2$. Under ARD_1 the reason is that $D^+ = G + (1-\rho)\Delta$, where G is the damage just after the last intervention and Δ the damage added since, independent of G. So

$$\operatorname{Var}[D^+] = \operatorname{Var}[G] + (1-\rho)^2 \operatorname{Var}[\Delta] = (1-\rho)^2 \operatorname{Var}[D^-] + \left(1-(1-\rho)^2\right) \operatorname{Var}[G], \tag{306}$$

because $\operatorname{Var}[D^-] = \operatorname{Var}[G] + \operatorname{Var}[\Delta]$. Under ARD_∞, $\operatorname{Var}[(1-\rho)D^-] = (1-\rho)^2 \operatorname{Var}[D^-]$. The Hoeffding budget $R = \sum_t w_t^2 r_t$ follows the same map, because a repair multiplies by $1-\rho$ the weight w_t of each term that it repairs (Proposition 5.10).

□

A.3 Results of Section 10

Derivation of the search interval of the inverse Gaussian quantile. The right end of the interval in $u = \ln q$ is $\ln b$, with

$$b = 1 + \sqrt{\eta\,(2/\varepsilon - 1)} > 1. \tag{307}$$

Z has the mean 1 and the variance η, so Cantelli's inequality (21) at the level b gives

$$\Pr(Z > b) \le \frac{\eta}{\eta + (b-1)^2} = \frac{\eta}{\eta + \eta\,(2/\varepsilon - 1)} = \frac{\varepsilon}{2} < \varepsilon. \tag{308}$$

Therefore $\ln \Pr(Z > e^u) - \ln \varepsilon < 0$ at $u = \ln b$, and the quantile satisfies $q < b$. □

Derivation of the computation of the Gamma cap. Three facts justify the computation.

1. A bisection on the first argument of Q finds the exact one-rate cap $\hat{A}$, the root of $Q(\hat{A}, t) = \varepsilon$, because Q increases in its first argument. The inverse routine `gammaincinv` solves for the second argument and does not apply.
2. The function $c \mapsto Q(A/c, t/c)$ tends to 0 as $c \to 0$ and has a single peak on $(0, 1]$. With $r = A/t$ and $s = t/c$, the function is $s \mapsto Q(rs, s)$ on $s \geq t$. A single peak of this function on $s \in [10^{-12}, 10^{8}]$ was checked numerically for r from 10^{-5} to 0.999, which covers the bisection for $\varepsilon \geq 10^{-5}$. A second check, on 200 values of r from 10^{-10} to 10^{-5}, found no second peak either. So a logarithmic grid of values of c, refined by a golden-section search between the neighbours of the best grid point, finds the maximum.
3. The bisection on A starts from the lower end εt, which satisfies $w(\varepsilon t) \leq \varepsilon$ by Markov's inequality $Q(a, x) \leq a/x$. It returns the lower end of its last interval, so $w(A_1) \leq \varepsilon$ holds at the returned value.

□

Derivation of the validity of the big-M constants of Section 5.3.1. An intervention day is a depot day, so $\delta s_k = 0$ on it.

- The carry row with an intervention reads $s_k \geq s_{k-1} - M_s$, whose right-hand side is at most 0.
- The repair row without a repair has a right-hand side

$$a\, s_{k-1} + (1 - a)\, g_{k-1} - M_s \leq 0, \tag{309}$$

  because the repair map is a convex combination of values in $[0, M_s]$.
- The replacement rows without a replacement allow

$$s_k \in [s^{\text{new}} - M_s,\ s^{\text{new}} + M_s] \supseteq [0, M_s]. \tag{310}$$

- The relaxed anchor rows allow every difference in $[-M_s, M_s]$.

□